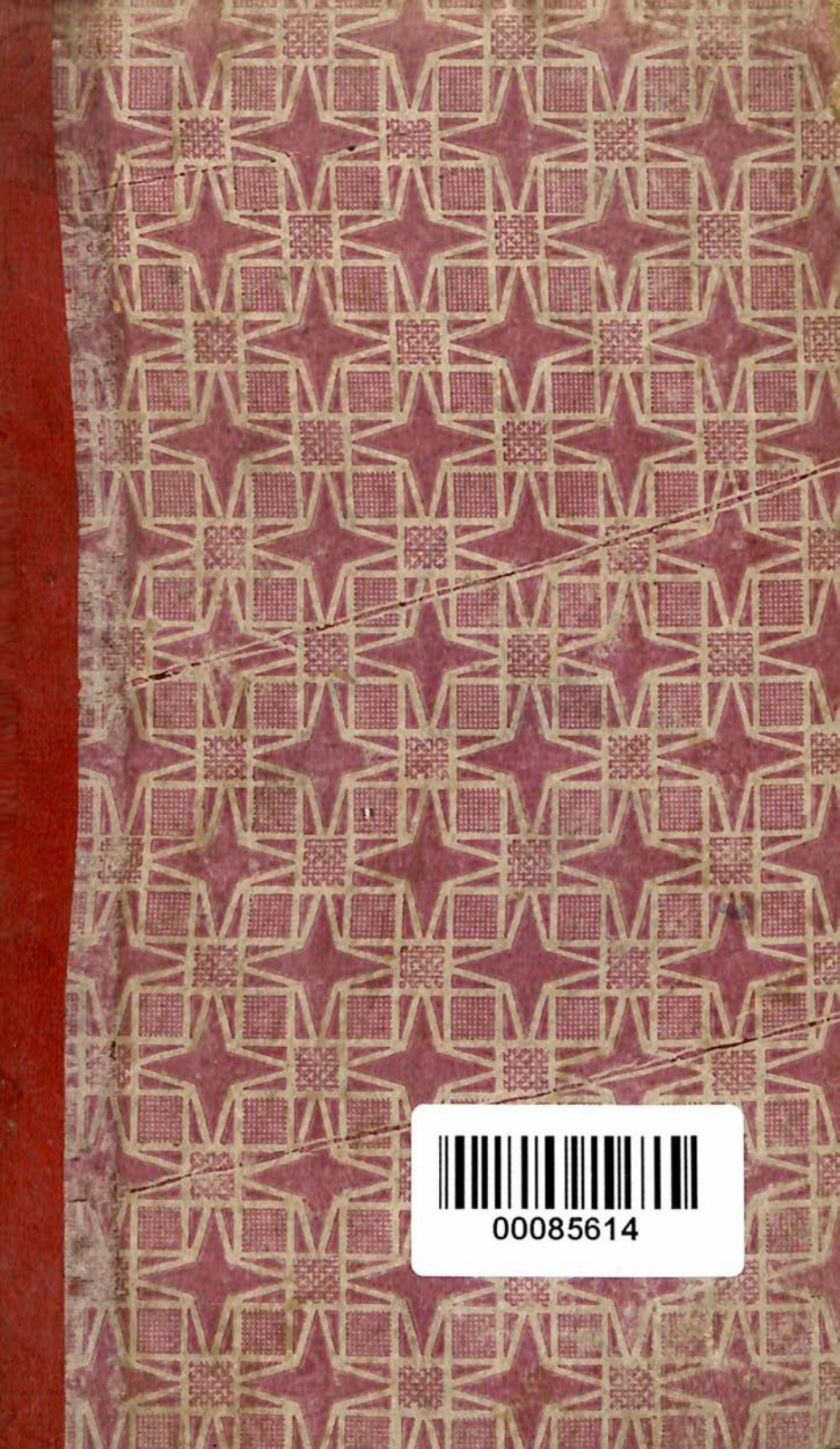
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A STATISTICAL ACCOUNT OF BENGAL.

PATNA
DACCA
BAKARGANJ
NOAKHALI
WESTERN DISTRICTS
OF THE
DACCA DIVISION.

A Statistical Account of Bengal.

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VOLUME V.

DISTRICTS OF DACCA, BÁKARGANJ, FARÍDPUR, AND MAIMANSINH.

TRÜBNER & CO., LONDON, 1875.

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PREFACE TO VOLUME V.

OF THE

STATISTICAL ACCOUNT OF BENGAL.

THIS Volume comprises the Dacca Division as reconstituted in 1874, after the separation of the Province of Assam from the Lieutenant-Governorship of Bengal. Up to that year, the Valley of the Bárak with its two Districts of Cachar and Sylhet had formed the north-eastern part of the Dacca Division. In 1874, Cachar and Sylhet were annexed, for administrative purposes, to the newly-created Chief Commissionership of Assam; the Dacca Division retaining the four Districts of Maimansinh, Dacca, Farídpur, and Bákarganj.

The Central District, Dacca, forms the focus of the three river systems of Bengal. The waters of the Brahmaputra from the due north unite on its border with the waters of the Ganges from the north-west; and the united channel, after receiving the Meghná and waters of the Cachar valley from the north-east, sweeps south in a vast body to the sea. The northernmost of the four Districts, Maimansinh, is watered by the Brahmaputra, which formerly intersected it, but whose new main channel, under the

name of the Jamuná, now skirts its western border. The western District of the Dacca Division, viz., Faridpur, forms the extreme eastern corner of the Gangetic delta. The southern District of the Division, Bákarganj, is watered by the great estuary formed by the three united river systems on the east; and on the west by the Gangetic distributaries. Towards the coast, it spreads out into marshes and jungle-covered flats, cut up by a hundred channels, and scarcely raised above the high-tide level of the sea.

This volume treats of an area of 15,683 square miles, containing a population of 7,592,932 souls. The District statistics were collected in the years 1870-73, and as regards accuracy are subject to the remarks in my preface to volume i. I had intended to devote two volumes to the Dacca Division; and the first of them, comprising the three southern Districts (Dacca, Faridpur, and Bákarganj), were printed before the northern half of the Division was split up on the erection of Assam into a Chief Commissionership. Instead, therefore, of having a compact separate volume for the three northern Districts of the former Dacca Division (Maimansinh, Cachar, and Sylhet), the only course left to me was to tack on the single District (Maimansinh) which remained of the northern half to the end of this book.

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Pages 106 and 251. The chapter on Tenures, referred to as at the end of the volume, will be found at pp. 365 to 379, at the end of the Statistical Account of Faridpur District. That Account concluded the volume as it was originally printed, before the erection of Assam into a Chief Commissionership. This change, as already explained, forced me to tack on the District of Maimansinh to the present volume. [See *ante*, Preface.]

Page 200, Head-line. *For* BAKÁRGANJ, read BÁKARGANJ.

Page 208, Last line. *For angal burí*, read *jangal burí*.

Page 311, Lines 11, 16, 17. *For ganjá*, read *gánjá*.

I shall be grateful for any corrections or suggestions which occur to the reader. They may be addressed to me, care of the Secretary to the Government of Bengal, Calcutta.

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missioner of the Division. Dr Taylor, in his "Topography and Statistics of Dacca," states that the word is supposed by some to be derived from Dhák, the name of a tree (*Butea frondosa*), while others refer its etymology to the goddess Dhákeswarí—literally "The Concealed Goddess"—a shrine in whose honour, erected by King Ballál Sen, still exists on the west of the town.

BOUNDARIES.—Dacca is bounded on the north by the District of Maimansinh (Mymensing); on the east by Tipperah District, the Meghná river forming a natural boundary between them for the whole distance; and on the south and west by the Districts of Bákarganj and Faríḍpur. The Ganges or Padmá river forms the boundary on the south-west, but in the south-east corner there are 458 villages, comprising an area of 320·25 square miles, which, until very recently, belonged to Dacca, though separated from the other portion of the District by the Ganges. This river, since it was mapped in 1769, has shifted its channel, and completely altered the whole appearance of the country. By a Government Notification, dated 17th June 1871, the separated tract was transferred to the neighbouring District of Bákarganj from the 1st August 1871.

JURISDICTION.—Dacca Collectorate formerly comprised the Districts of Bákarganj and Faríḍpur, which were disjoined from it in 1817 and 1811 respectively, and formed into distinct Districts. The present subdivision of Mánikganj, and a portion of Nawábganj, were annexed to Dacca from Faríḍpur about 1856. The 458 villages mentioned above, which were cut off from the rest of the District by the changes in the course of the Ganges river, were transferred to Bákarganj from August 1871. The revenue and magisterial jurisdictions are the same. The Civil Judge also exercises jurisdiction over the neighbouring District of Faríḍpur, the Civil Jurisdiction not having been separated from Dacca in 1811, when the former District was erected into an independent Collectorate.

PHYSICAL ASPECT OF THE COUNTRY.—The District consists of a level plain, divided into two parts by the Dhaleswarí river, and varying considerably in their physical aspects. The northern part is again subdivided by the Lakhmiá river (pronounced Lăkhyá), which intersects it from north to south. The western of these two northern subdivisions contains the city, and is the larger of the two. The greater part of it lies comparatively high and above flood level, the soil consisting of red *kankar* with strata of clay in the more elevated parts, covered by a thin layer of vegetable mould,

and near the banks of the rivers and streams by alluvial earth. At some points the scenery on the river Lakhmiá is very beautiful, the banks being high and well wooded. About twenty miles north of the city small hilly ridges are met with in the Madhupur jungle adjoining the District of Maimansinh. They are mere mounds (*tilás*), never more than thirty or forty feet high, and seldom exceeding twenty feet. These ridges are composed of red soil, containing a considerable quantity of iron ore. This tract of country is remarkable for the small size of the streams by which it is watered, and hence the greater part is an unproductive waste, covered with jungle and infested with wild beasts. Of late years, however, cultivation has been extended. Towards the city the red soil is intersected by creeks and morasses, the borders of which are well suited for the cultivation of rice, mustard, and *til* seed (*Sesamum orientale*); while to the eastward of the town, a broad alluvial, well-cultivated plain extends as far as the junction of the Dhaleswarí and Lakhmiá rivers. The north-eastern subdivision is situated between the Meghná and Lakhmiá rivers. It is inundated to a larger extent, has a much greater area of alluvial soil, and is in a higher state of cultivation than the tract to the westward. The red *kankar* soil is found chiefly in its northern part, and forms small hilly ridges, which run up into the eastern angle of the District formed by the junction of the Meghná and Brahmaputra rivers. Fruit-trees, tanks, &c., now buried in uncultivated jungly tracts, show that at one time these were the sites of populous villages.

The division of the District to the south of the Dhaleswarí is by far the most fertile tract. It consists entirely of rich alluvial soil, annually inundated to a depth varying from two to fourteen feet. By the middle of July the whole of this tract is under water, and presents the appearance of an extensive lake covered with growing rice, through which boats sail from one part of the country to another. The villages are built on mounds of earth artificially raised above the level of inundation. This division of the District is devoid of picturesque scenery.

Elevated Tracts.—There are neither mountains nor hills in Dacca District, the only break in the uniform level of the country being the low ridges in the Madhupur jungles, some of which are covered with grasses and underwood, and others with forest. All these miniature hills are accessible to wheeled carriages as regards their slope, and the Maimansinh road runs over them. Some of

them have been utilised for purposes of cultivation near the Fiscal Divisions of Jaidebpur and Báigunbárí, by two of the largest landed proprietors of the District, Bábu Kálí Náráyan Rái and Khwájá Abdul Ganí, C.S.I., but the plantations are both small.

River System.—The District is intersected by a complete network of rivers and streams. The following ten are reported as navigable throughout the year for native boats of four tons burden or upwards:—(1) Meghná, (2) Ganges or Padmá, (3) Jamuná, (4) Ariál Khán, (5) Kirtinásá, (6) Dhaleswarí, (7) Burígangá, (8) Lakhmiá (pronounced Lăkhyá), (9) Mendikhálí, and (10) Gházikhálí. The rivers navigable to boats of two tons burden are (11) the Hilsámárí, (12) Bansí, (13) Turág, (14) Tungí, (15) Bálu, and (16) the old bed of the Brahmaputra. The whole country is navigable by small boats during the rainy season.

The Meghná, which forms the eastern boundary of the District, is continually changing its course, although not to any great extent. Its banks are shelving and cultivated, and the bed generally sandy. The Meghná forms no important islands within the District, but has many alluvial formations (*chars*) in its course. It nowhere expands into lakes. It is subject to the influence of the tides during eight months of the year, but in the rainy season the tide loses its power. The *bore*, which is very considerable at the mouth of the river, does not reach as high up as this District. The river is nowhere fordable at any period of the year. Its principal tributary is the Dhaleswarí, a large river which enters the District in the north-west near the junction of the Jamuná and Ganges rivers, and flows generally in a south-westerly direction till it empties itself into the Meghná at Munshíganj. The other important tributary of the Meghná on its west bank is the old Brahmaputra, which flows along the north-eastern boundary of the District, and runs into the Meghná at Bhairab-bázár. The portion of the river which lies within Dacca District is a comparatively insignificant stream, navigable by large boats only during the rainy season. A branch of this river, called the Brahmaputra creek, flows in a south-westerly direction through the District till it falls into the Dhaleswarí at a place called Kalágáchhá, near the junction of that river with the Meghná. It is a small and unimportant stream, and only noted for a fair held on its banks at Nángalband. In the hot season before the rains, the river exhibits only a dried-up bed with a muddy and sandy bottom. It is fordable nearly throughout its whole course

during six months of the year. A navigable arm of the Meghná, known as the Mendi-khálí, communicates with the Brahmaputra at Kákiár Tek.

THE GANGES or PADMÁ RIVER forms the western and south-western boundary of the District, and separates it from Faridpur and Bákarganj. Instead of following its course as laid down by Rennel in 1780, which joined the Meghná at Mendiganj, it now discharges the great body of its water through two channels considerably to the north of that place. The first of these is the Kirtinásá, which runs a little to the north of Rájnagar, and is now considered the principal branch of the Ganges. It is from three to four miles in width, and has a very strong current at its most contracted part, rendering navigation difficult during the rains. The Kirtinásá joins the Meghná to the north of Kártikpur. The second channel of the Ganges is the Nayá Bagní, further south, and within the Bákarganj District. The original channel of the Ganges is now almost dry in the hot months, the whole of its bed being filled up with alluvial accretions, divided by broad shallows; a few channels are navigable, but only by small boats. The course of the Ganges within the District is very variable, and is said to alter as much as four, five, or six miles in a single year, cutting away its north and south banks with equal impartiality. About the middle of its course it forms the island known as Char Mukundiá. The river has a sandy, muddy bottom, its banks in the dry season being generally shelving, and in the rains usually abrupt. The Ganges throws off two branches within the District, the Hilsámárí and the Ariál-khán. The first-named river is only navigable by boats of two tons burden, but if it were not for a bar across its entrance, it would be navigable the whole year by boats of any size. This river connects the Ganges with the Dhaleswarí.

THE LAKHMIÁ RIVER leaves the Brahmaputra at a place called Tok, at the northern boundary of the District, and flows in a southerly direction till it empties itself into the Dhaleswarí, about four miles from the junction of that river with the Meghná. The Magistrate of the District states that the Lakhmiá is one of the most beautiful rivers in Eastern Bengal. Its banks are generally high and well wooded, and it never overflows them. It runs for about fifty miles through the red formation, and is remarkable for the purity and coolness of its water. The tide affects the river during five months of the year, but does not reach far up. It is not fordable at any time of the

year except at one point, Ekdálá. Owing to the silting up of the Brahmaputra near the point where it enters the District, the volume of water in the Lakhmiá is now on the decrease. It must, however, always remain a large tidal stream, supplied from the Dhaleswarí, even if its northern outlet were entirely closed.

THE BANAR RIVER enters the District from the north, westward of the Lakhmiá, and after flowing first in a southerly and afterwards in a westerly course, joins that river at Ekdálá. THE BÁLU is another tributary of the Lakhmiá, and joins it on the west bank at Demrá, a small stream, and which merely forms an outlet for marsh water. THE BANSÍ RIVER also flows into the District from the north, and drains the western side of the Madhupur jungles. It also empties itself into the Dhaleswarí, but it is a small stream, and the traffic on it is almost entirely confined to the rainy season. THE BURÍGANGÁ RIVER, on the northern bank of which the city of Dacca is situated, is a mere branch of the Dhaleswarí, about twenty-six miles in length, separating from it a short distance below Sábhár, and rejoining the main stream at Fatullá, on the Náráinganj road. The tide rises and falls to the extent of two feet at the town of Dacca. The tract between the Burígangá and Dhaleswarí forms a large island known as Paschimdí. The Dolái creek connects the Bálu river with the Burígangá, which it joins within the city limits. Attempts have been made to render it navigable throughout the year, but without permanent success. It is reported that the creek will always be liable to silt up in the middle, as each end of it is affected by the tide.

The banks of all the above rivers are cultivated, with the exception of a small tract along the Lakhmiá and Bansí rivers, and all are more or less subject to the tide. The Collector states that it is difficult, in a District like Dacca, to name the fords. The beds of the rivers are generally pretty level, and when a stream is fordable in one place, it is so almost throughout its whole length. Two shoals occur in the Burígangá, one opposite the town of Dacca, and one at the point where it takes its departure from the Dhaleswarí, both of which, though not actually fordable, are likely to become so in time. There is also a similar shoal in the Lakhmiá at Ekdálá, where the river is reported as fordable. The Bálu, Bansí, and Hilsámárí rivers are fordable in the dry weather only.

LAKES, MARSHES, ARTIFICIAL WATERCOURSES, &c.—Throughout the whole of the District, and especially in the portion of the country adjoining the large rivers, numerous marshes have been formed by the

changes in their course. These old beds are covered with rank vegetation, and do not deserve the name of lakes. The artificial watercourses are as follow:—(1) The Táltalá *khál*, said to have been dug by Rájá Rájballabh to facilitate communication between Rájnagar and Dacca. This watercourse extends from Bahar on the Padmá to Táltalá on the Dhaleswarí, but has now been allowed to silt up, so that it is only open during four months of the year for large boats. It effects a saving of about twenty or twenty-five miles on the outer route between Barisál and Dacca, besides avoiding the somewhat perilous navigation of the large rivers. The Collector is of opinion that this canal would pay well if it were re-dug, tolls being levied to meet the cost. (2) The Dolái *khál* is a short cutting of about four miles, and unites the waters of the Bálu and Burígangá rivers. It shortens the communication between Maimansinh by about twenty-two miles, but is only open for nine months in the year. Government has spent about £2500 on this work, and the yearly net profit is now said to amount to about £400. If it could be kept open all the year, the profits of course would be much larger. There are no rivers or non-navigable streams with any descents or rapids sufficient to render them available for the purpose of turning machinery. None of the rivers or streams contain rapids or other obstructions to navigation. Irrigation is not used, except to a very small extent, in the northern parts of the District, and the river water is nowhere artificially diverted for this purpose. The annual loss of life from drowning is stated to be about four hundred, chiefly children, who, during the rains, are allowed to run about close to dangerous holes, from which earth has been taken for the purpose of forming a mound (*bhiti*) upon which the houses are built.

River Traffic.—The principal commercial towns with a large population living by river traffic are Náráinganj and Madanganj at the confluence of the river Lakhmiá with the Dhaleswarí; Gálimpur and Kalákopá on the Hilsámárí; Sábhár and Mánikganj on the Dhaleswarí; and Dhámrái, on a creek of the Bansí. The first two towns form in fact one, as they lie on opposite sides of the river. Náráinganj is the second town in importance in the District, and may be termed the port of Dacca, from which it is distant about nine miles by land, and sixteen or eighteen by water. It constitutes the great mart east of Sirájganj on the Jamuná, and has regular steam communication with Calcutta, Silhet, Assam, and Káchár. It

carries on an extensive trade with Calcutta, importing cloth, piece goods, salt, &c., and exporting country produce of all kinds, particularly jute and seeds; with Chittagong, by importing cotton, timber, oil, hides, &c., and exporting tobacco, pottery, and country produce; and with Rangun and Akyab, by importing timber, cotton, catechu, &c., and exporting tobacco, betel-nut, &c. In former times salt was imported in large quantities from the Chittagong and Noákhálí Districts, and in 1839 the number of sloops engaged in the traffic amounted to about 160. Since the manufacture of salt has been abandoned by Government, this trade has ceased, but the amount of English salt at present imported from Calcutta is said to be about equal to that of the native article imported in the days of the Government monopoly. The towns of Gálimpur and Kalákopá transact chiefly with Calcutta, importing cloth and piece goods, and exporting country produce. Mánikganj, on the west bank of the Dhaleswarí, north-west of the town of Dacca, carries on a trade in mustard, oil, and tobacco, which are imported from Rangpur and Kuch Behar, and sent to Náráinganj and Calcutta. There is little commerce in other articles. Sábhár, at the junction of the Bansí with the Dhaleswarí, trades with Calcutta and Dacca in cloth and ironware. The traffic at Dhámrái consists entirely of country produce.

Fisheries.—There are no towns in the District whose inhabitants live entirely or in the most part by fishing, but there are many small fishing villages. The Collector finds it difficult to estimate the number of people who live by fishing, but is of opinion that the total number of hereditary fisher castes are not less than ten thousand in the District. The Census Report of 1872 gives a much greater number, and returns the number of fishing and boating castes as follows:—Jáliá, 32,269; Málá, 5567; Mánjhí, 870; Pátní, 4695; Pod, 101; Tior, 7988; others, 1539; total, 53,029. This is exclusive of a large population of Muhammadan fishermen and boatmen, besides Hindu castes who follow mixed occupations, such as Chandáls and Kaibarttas. The Collector states that many people belonging to hereditary fishing castes have abandoned their occupations as fishermen; but, on the other hand, nearly every one catches fish, whether belonging to the proper fishing castes or not. The following is a statement of the revenue obtained by Government from fifteen large river fisheries, which were resumed in 1859:—Margángí on the Kirtinásá, £2, 1·1s.; Sítal Lakh-

miá, £35; Brahmaputra, £10, 10s.; Dhaleswarí, £131, 8s.; Ichhámatí or Hilsámárí, £61, 4s.; Ghází-Khálí, £31, 5s. 9d.; Ganges or Padmá, £124, 6s.; Turág, £152; Kálígangá, £26, 2s.; Háridhoá, £5, 16s.; Narani-gangá, £38, 15s. 2d.; Burígangá, £38, 2s.; Khudádádpur, £36, 4s.; Rámgangá, £31, 15s. 9d.; and Tálúk Anandirám Dás, 19s.; total, £725, 18s. 8d. This, however, by no means gives even the approximate value of the fish caught in a District where for five months of the year fish swarm in every rice-field and are caught by all classes. The Collector states that the total value of the fisheries of Dacca is probably not less than ten times this amount, and may roughly be put down at from £8000 to £10,000. Large quantities of fish are dried and exported annually to different parts of the country. A species of bivalve shell in which pearls are found is searched for by a wandering gypsy-like tribe called the Bediyás, in the cold season; and in 1839 there were said to be from eighty to one hundred boats employed in this business. The pearls are small and of little value; the shells are sold in the bázárs, and are used by the natives in the place of spoons.

MARSH CULTIVATION.—No rivers or marshes have been embanked in the District with a view to the extension of cultivation, and the Collector seems to be of opinion that such embankments would not be feasible, as there is no tract of country now barren which could thus be rendered fertile. Four different crops of long-stemmed rice are cultivated in the District. The *áman* forms the most important of them, and the crop, which is the one most extensively cultivated in the District, comprises about fifty different sorts of rice. Of all the varieties of rice, the *áman* is the most rapid in its growth, frequently shooting up to the extent of twelve inches in as many hours as the inundation takes to rise, and in some seasons attaining a height of six or eight feet. The great danger to which it is exposed during the season of floods is a high and sudden rise of the water, by which the crop is over-topped and destroyed. Floating masses of weeds and vegetation detached from the marshes are also dangerous, being apt to bury the crop. In this District twelve feet may be taken as the greatest depth of water in which rice is cultivated. The Collector is of opinion, from personal observation, that short-stemmed rice is more grown than formerly; and this is only natural, as the level of the country is undoubtedly rising. Reeds or canes are not cultivated to any extent in the marshes, as the *char* lands, or river accretions, yield an ample supply. Besides

the fishing castes already mentioned, there is a very large class of Musalmáns who earn the chief portion of their livelihood by going on trips to Calcutta, Rangpur, Maimansinh, and Patná as boatmen with cargoes of country produce. The large cargo-boats of Dacca District are entirely manned by these men, and the Collector states that the number thus employed cannot be less than five thousand. These people generally go as sharers in the venture.

LINES OF DRAINAGE.—The drainage of Dacca generally runs from the north-west to south-east, the usual course of the rivers and streams. All the latter take their exit in the extreme south-east of the District, at the point of junction of the two great rivers, the Ganges and the Meghná, into which the other streams of the District flow. The only important successions of marshes (*bils*) in Dacca are those in the north-west bordering on Maimansinh, which have their outlet into the Dhaleswarí; and the great marshes of Nawábganj and Srínagar, which drain into the Ganges through a number of small watercourses (*kháls*).

MINERALS.—No minerals are at present worked in the District. Formerly, however, before iron was imported, the red ferruginous clay of the Madhupur jungle tract was burned and iron smelted from it, but this has long since been given up, and will probably never again be attempted. No caverns, hot springs, or interesting gorges or passes are anywhere found in the District.

UNCULTIVATED VEGETABLE CROPS, JUNGLE PRODUCTS, &c.—Very few vegetable products of marketable value, which grow without cultivation, are found in Dacca District. The varieties of herbs (*ság*) are as follow:—Chamlái, Kalmí, Note, Helenchá, Sáchí, Betho, Gimá, and Pui; and some water plants, particularly the one called Makhná which is sold extensively at the beginning of the rains. Beeswax is found in the Madhupur jungles, but not to any great amount, and there are no castes or classes who live by trading in jungle products. There are no forests of any great extent in the District, and most of the wooded land in the Madhupur jungle tract is so badly provided with means of communication as to be almost valueless. The principal descriptions of forest trees, jungle creepers, &c., are as follow:—Sálání, Pitání, Náosoná, Párail, Gainárí, Brihatí, Prasaráni, Briksha Jaistha, Kalpanáth, Puna-nabá, Khet-páprá, Akándí, Baráhakántá, Paltá, Báirkalí, Sonátalá, Káchhátalá, Dhámnátalá, Ráchná, Rángáchitá, Chai, Gorak Cháluá, Nugálitalá, Musháli-latá, Gaj Pipul, Bich-tárak, Mamá-láru, Ser-phuká, Kálá-

lat, Mátiá-lat, Sámálu, Kánái-larí, Rákhál-soshá, Apamárga, Beran, Siálmotrá, Haritakí, Amlakí, Bayrá, Dhaniá, Jain, Rándhuní, Ban-pákair, Látá, Dahar-karanjá, Kuchilá, and Kumirá-lat. Nor are there any wide uncultivated pasture grounds in Dacca District, although in the rainy season many people send their cattle to the high lands of the Madhupur jungle. A few herds go with these cattle for the purpose of tending them, but it cannot be said that there is any class of people who live by pasturing in the forest, as the herds merely go there for a few months, and for a specific purpose.

FERÆ NATURÆ.—The wild animals indigenous to the District are, with few exceptions, of the same species as those in the other parts of the Gangetic Delta. The following description is condensed from Mr Collector Clay's District Report in the "Principal Heads of History and Statistics of the Dacca Division" (1867), and Mr Taylor's "Topography and Statistics of Dacca" (1840):—Tigers and leopards infest the jungles of the northern tract, but their numbers have decreased of late years owing to the clearing of jungle and the spread of cultivation. In times of drought or in seasons of inundation these animals frequently repaired to the cultivated parts, and committed depredations on the cattle of the peasantry. Formerly they carried their depredations to such an extent that the Mughul Government assigned a rent-free tract of land (*jágír*) to a class of men called *bághmáriás* or tiger-slayers. The yearly cost of keeping down tigers, &c., has been *nil* for some time past. Tigers and leopards are now scarce, and are killed by European gentlemen of the station when heard of. The elephant is an aboriginal inhabitant of this part of the country, and it is stated that a herd of these animals had their quarters in the heavy jungles to the north, and up to 1867 eluded all attempts to capture them. Their numbers are said to have been increased from time to time by tame elephants which had escaped from confinement and joined the herd. Wild hogs occasionally cause considerable destruction to the crops, but they are now less numerous than formerly, and are hunted down by the natives in great numbers, especially during the rains. The wild buffalo is found in marshy land in all parts of the District. The black bear still lurks among the small hills in the northern tracts. Four kinds of deer abound, the *gaus* deer, the *sambar* or black *rusa* of Bengal, the hog deer, and the barking deer; all of which inhabit the northern jungles of the District.

SMALL GAME.—The porcupine chiefly takes up his abode in gardens and elevated spots of ground in the vicinity of villages. He

burrows under ground to a considerable distance, and is very destructive to the crops of sugar-cane, bamboo, gourds, and edible roots. The flesh of the porcupine is eaten by the lower orders of Hindus; it is white, and is said to be not ill-flavoured. The quills are used for combs and ornaments. The small brown squirrel is found in the northern jungles. The common green monkey is plentiful in the jungles, and especially near the city. The jackal, fox, and hare abound. The so-called black rabbit (pronounced by Naturalists to be a hare) is found in the jungles north of the town. Mr Clay, the Magistrate and Collector of Dacca, in the "Principal Heads of the Statistics of the Dacca Division," states that this animal appears to be the connecting link between the hare and the rabbit, and is only found elsewhere in the jungles of the Maimansinh District and along the *tarái* towards the Nepál country. It frequents the thick grass jungles, and does not come into cultivated lands; the natives say it breeds in burrows like the rabbit. Among the bat tribe, the largest species met with in Dacca is the flying fox, which commits great havoc in the orchards during the night. The little striped or orange bat is so called from the golden colour of its fur; it inhabits the interior jungles, where, from its brilliant colour and small size, it is sometimes mistaken for a butterfly. The common house bat and the long-eared bat lurk in huts, deserted mosques, wells, &c. Two kinds of otters are found in the rivers, one grey and the other dark-brown. The former variety are trained by the fishermen to drive fish into their nets. They are also speared, and their skins exported to Bhután and China.

FISH-MAMMALS.—The porpoise (*Platanista gangetica*), or *susu*, as it is called by the natives, abounds in the rivers. Another variety, which may be called the Sundarban porpoise, its native name being *saná* or *haná*, is found in the large rivers Meghná and Ganges at certain seasons of the year. This latter animal has not the elongated snout of the *susu*, is of a larger size and lighter colour, slower in its movements, and takes a shorter bound when it rises to the surface. It is found in herds—the *susu* always in pairs; both are nomadic in their habits. The *susu* is hunted during the cold season, the weapon used being a tridental harpoon with a long bamboo handle, the head separating from the shaft when it strikes the animal, but attached to it by a stout cord. The animal is allowed to exhaust itself, then dragged alongside and clubbed to death. The low-caste tribes eat the flesh, and boil out the oil, which sells at the rate of about threepence per pound in the Dacca

bázárs. From forty pounds to a hundredweight and a half of oil are extracted from a full-grown animal. The oil is used for burning, and when mixed with tiger's and alligator's fat, is considered by the people to be a sovereign remedy for rheumatism and other chronic pains.

BIRDS.—Vultures, crows, several varieties of eagles, fish eagles, kites, and falcons are common. Several species of owls are found, and are regarded by the natives with superstitious dread. Swallows and kingfishers are numerous. The blue and red kingfisher with a white breast forms the most handsome variety, and is caught during the cold season, and killed for the sake of its feathers, which are exported to China, where the feathers are in great request. In former days the Maghs and Burmese travelled all over India in search of these birds, which they caught with birdlime. Akyab was said to be the port of exportation, whence they were taken to China in junks. Professional bird-catchers are still met with in Dacca, and they informed Mr Clay, a late Magistrate of the District, that they were employed by people in Calcutta. The bee-eater, like the kingfisher, inhabits crevices in the banks of rivers, and may be met with throughout the whole District. Two varieties of the "tailor" bird are found, so called from the ingenious construction of their nest. Sun-birds, or honey-suckers, are also common, and are remarkable for the brilliant metallic lustre of their plumage. They flutter about the flowers, from which they extract the juice while on the wing. The weaver-bird, which derives its name from the hanging nests which it builds, and which are usually found attached in clusters to the date-tree, is very destructive to the rice crops. Of the several kinds of woodpeckers, the Indian robin may be mentioned; it is trained to fight by the natives. The *syámá* bird is much prized for its powers of song, a good one being worth from £1 to £2. Two varieties of the green parakeet are common. The wader birds are largely represented, and inhabit the numerous marshes throughout the District. The spoon-bill, *sáras*, and *mánikjor*, or beefsteak bird, make their appearance about the middle of October, and return to the hills at the commencement of the rains. Five species of herons are met with in the District. The pelican ibis is found in the neighbouring District of Faridpur, and doubtless also in Dacca. It frequents rivers, tanks, and marshes, generally in parties, but occasionally alone. The shell ibis is common, and is called by the natives *sámuk*, from the name of a large kind of snail on which it feeds. The adjutant-bird is not uncommon, though

seldom seen in the vicinity of the town. The *bulbul*, or Indian nightingale, is found in abundance, and is taught to fight by the natives who are very fond of the sport. The crested coot, the spur-winged plover, snipe, jack-snipe, and plover are common. Among the gallinaceous birds are the florican, which is rare, except in the Sábhár Fiscal Division, and the *chakor*, or *kaá* partridge, which is met with in many parts of the District, though not in great numbers; jungle-fowl and peacocks are tolerably plentiful, as also several kinds of quail. The common blue or jungle pigeon, two or three varieties of the green pigeon, and doves, are common. The *ráj-ghughu*, or imperial dove, is sometimes found, but rarely. It is a very handsome bird, the back and wings being dark emerald-green, and the neck, breast, and lower parts red-brown. Wild geese and ducks are plentiful on the river *chars* to the south, with many varieties of teal. Several species of gulls are found on all the large rivers, of which the scissor-bill, or Indian skimmer, is the most remarkable. This bird especially frequents the Meghná and Ganges rivers, and may be seen skimming over the water with its beak close to the surface in search of food. The small cormorant, called *páni-kauri* by the natives, is common in all the marshes and swamps, and the diver-bird is frequently seen perched on trees overhanging the water on the watch for its prey. These birds swim and dive with great rapidity, and float so low in the water that nothing but their long necks remain visible.

Fishes.—The rivers and tanks abound with fish. The ray and common shark are found in the Meghná and Ganges, frequently at a considerable distance from the sea. The saw-fish is also common in the large rivers during the spring months. The shark and ray are more dreaded by fishermen than even the crocodile. The *anwari*, or mullet, is found in shoals along the shallow margins of rivers and *chars*, and is caught and brought to market in the cold season. The *tapsi máchh*, or mango-fish, is plentiful in April and May. The *hilsá* in this District is said to be superior in size and flavour to that of any other part of the country. The *chital*, *rui*, *mirgal*, and *kátlá* are all common. Two kinds of fish, the *kai* and the *khalisá*, are in the habit of migrating in shoals from one pond to another. Their progress is effected by fixing the sharp notched edges of the *operculum* in the ground, and propelling the body by a sudden jerk or contraction of the caudal muscles. A number of them are devoured by birds while thus migrating. Crabs, cray-fish, and prawns are plentiful in the District.

REPTILES, INSECTS, &c.—Alligators are found in most of the large rivers, and deaths by these animals are not unfrequent. The *ghariál*, or fish-eating crocodile, often attains a large size. Several species of turtles are found; they are speared by fishermen and brought to market, but are only eaten by low-caste Hindus. Among snakes, the Cobra (*Naja*) is not very common. The *sanda*, *girgit*, *bhamani*, and monitor (*gosáp*) are all found in the District, but principally in the northern jungles. The *Python molurus* is not uncommon in the jungles near the town, and Dr Taylor mentions one measuring twenty feet. The *Typhlops* is usually found in alluvial soil, and is sometimes mistaken for an earth-worm. Among other species are comprised tree and water snakes, of which the latter are said to be very venomous. The frog, toad, and tree-frog are common. Among articulata the principal are the scorpion and centipede, but many other sorts are found, too numerous to mention.

POPULATION.—Repeated attempts have been made at an enumeration of the population. In 1801, the population of Dacca Jalálpur, which besides the present District comprised also the greater part of the neighbouring Districts of Faridpur and Bákarganj, was computed at 938,712 souls. In 1824, after the separation of Faridpur and Bákarganj, the Superintendent of Police estimated the population of Dacca at 512,385; and in 1851 it was officially returned at 600,000. At the time of the Revenue Survey (between 1857 and 1861) a further attempt at enumeration was made, when the number of houses was ascertained to be 209,889, and the population estimated at 904,615. The average number of inmates per house was reckoned at from four to five for different parts of the District, the latter being the figure generally taken. For the city of Dacca, however, the average number of inmates per house was only put down at three. This figure was much too low, as there are undoubtedly a greater number of inmates in the large town-houses of Dacca than in the small huts of the rural tracts. The statistics of the Lower Provinces of Bengal for 1868–69, issued by the Board of Revenue, estimated the number of houses in the District at 215,915, and the total population at 1,019,928.

A more exact Census was taken by authority of Government in the beginning of 1872, when all the previous estimates were found to be greatly exceeded. With regard to the selection and appointment of the enumerators employed in taking the Census, the Collector of the District reports as follows:—"As far as

possible schoolmasters were employed, but as a rule the work was done by the *zámíndárs' gumáshtás*, and I have much pleasure in recording that in no single instance had I to put the law in force and compel the appointment of enumerators. No indigenous agency survives in any form in this District, except in the villages to which the *Chaukídárí* (Rural Police) Act has been extended, and that cannot be called an institution which has *survived*. With the exception of villages where schoolmasters were employed, I may state broadly that the work was done by the landholders, their agents or servants. Necessarily the agency differed. Where a village belonged to a single *zámíndár*, his *gumáshtá* was, as a rule, the man employed; when the village was under several *tálukdárs*, one of them or his agent was employed. In some cases, again, the village *mátabbar*, or a son or hanger-on of his, did the work. In no case, to the best of my recollection, was a *chaukídár* appointed, nor are the *chaukídárs* sufficiently educated for such a duty. The landholders' agents are, as a rule, men who have received a fair Bengali education, can read and write, keep Bengali accounts, and survey in the Bengali fashion. They are generally Káyasths. They receive a small salary from their master and get *tahurí* on rents collected." The total number of enumerators employed was 3088, including 81 persons specially entertained and paid by municipalities for the enumeration of the town population.

There seems little reason to doubt the correctness of the Census. On this subject the Magistrate reports as follows:—"The house Census was taken all over the District on the morning of the 16th January (1872), and with wonderful correctness. The books were in many cases delayed, but in no case that has come under my notice was the Census not taken at the proper time. I have ridden over a great deal of the district since then, and questioned people everywhere in the *thánás* of Lálbágh, Sábhár, Mánikganj, Nawábganj, Jafarganj, and part of Harirámpur, and I find that the people universally say they were numbered correctly and simultaneously. I have also made inquiries from *mukhtárs* and others about their native villages, and they have assured me to the same effect. I was of opinion, when the order came out, that the Census Returns, to quote the words of the Orissa Commissioner, would 'not be worth the paper they were written on,' and repeatedly expressed this opinion to my superiors; but I have entirely changed my opinion, and, after a very considerable amount of local inquiries, can fairly say that I believe the Returns to be almost, if not entirely, correct."

ABSTRACT OF THE AREA AND POPULATION OF EACH POLICE CIRCLE (THÁNÁ) IN THE DISTRICT OF DACCA.

Subdivision.	Thána.	Area in square miles.	Number of villages, mauzás, or townships.	Number of houses.	Total population.	Averages calculated from preceding columns.				
						Persons per square mile.	Villages, mauzás, or townships per square mile.	Persons per village, mauzá, or township.	Houses per square mile.	Persons per house.
Headquarters. Subdivision.	Lálbágh,	319	517	37,835	210,806	661	1·62	408	118	5·5
	Sábhár,	388	576	30,419	167,709	432	1·48	291	78	5·5
	Kápásiá,	411	507	16,320	106,235	258	1·23	210	39	6·5
	Ráipur,	301	419	21,074	155,110	515	1·39	370	70	7·4
	Rúpganj,	242	517	19,653	120,770	234	2·13	233	81	6·1
	Náráinganj,	117	491	17,860	109,533	936	4·19	223	152	6·1
	Nawábganj,	148	275	22,376	136,910	925	1·85	498	151	6·1
	Subdivisional total,	1,926	3,302	165,537	1,007,073	523	1·71	305	86	6·1
Munshíganj. Subdivision.	Munshíganj,	230	330	27,074	211,450	919	1·43	641	118	7·8
	Srínagar,	216	320	32,470	248,424	1,150	1·48	776	150	7·6
	Subdivisional total,	446	650	59,544	459,874	1,031	1·45	707	133	7·7
Mánikganj. Subdivision.	Mánikganj,	230	378	26,016	154,172	670	1·64	408	113	5·9
	Jafarganj,	203	473	26,703	154,153	759	2·33	326	131	5·7
	Harirámpur,	92	213	12,793	77,721	845	2·31	365	139	6·1
	Subdivisional total,	525	1,064	65,512	386,046	735	2·03	363	125	5·8
	District total,	2,897	5,016	290,593	1,852,993	640	1·73	369	100	6·4

Thus the results of the Census disclose a total population in Dacca District of 1,852,993 souls, inhabiting 290,593 houses. The table given on p. 33 illustrates the distribution of the population in each police circle (*tháná*) and subdivision, and its pressure per square mile, &c. The subdivisional figures will be reproduced on a subsequent page, when I come to treat of the political and administrative divisions of the District; the foregoing table exhibits them as a whole.

It will be seen that the total area given by the Census officers does not agree with that returned by the Surveyor-General, which amounts to 2902 square miles. The Collector states that the jurisdiction of the District, in the revenue, magisterial, and civil departments, is the same; the slight discrepancy of five miles between the Census area (2897) and the Surveyor-General's scarcely requires explanation.

The total number of males is 905,775, and of females 947,218, the proportion of males to the total population being 48·9 per cent., and the density of the population throughout the District 640 per square mile. Classified according to age, the Census returns of the population are as follow:—Hindus, under twelve years of age, males 133,842, females 114,219; above twelve years of age, males 248,643, females 297,085; total Hindus, 793,789. Muhammadans, under twelve years, males 220,710, females 187,280; above twelve years, males 298,378, females 343,763; total Muhammadans, 1,050,131. Buddhists, under twelve years, males *nil*, females *nil*; above twelve years of age, males 3, females 1; total, 4. Christians, under twelve years of age, males 1612, females 1491; above twelve years of age, males 2154, females 2587; total Christians, 7844. "Others," under twelve years of age, males 169, females 158; above twelve years, males 264, females 634; total of "others," 1225. The small proportion of girls to boys, and the excessive proportion of females above twelve years of age to males of the same class, especially observable in the Muhammadan community, is probably due to the fact that natives consider girls have attained womanhood at a much earlier age than boys reach manhood. The proportion of males to females in the total population of all ages is probably correct, viz., 48·9 per cent. The number of insanes in the District is returned at 805, or ·0434 per cent. of the total population; idiots are returned at 214, or ·0115 per cent. of the total population; deaf and dumb at 763, or ·0412 per cent. of the total population; blind at 1685, or ·0909 per cent. of the total population, and lepers at 852 or ·0460 per cent. of the total population. It is curious that in all the fore-

going classes of infirmities, the number of males afflicted is everywhere more than double that of the females.

POPULATION ACCORDING TO OCCUPATION.—The following paragraphs showing the occupations of the people are condensed from the tabular statements appended to the Census Report of 1872. The figures must be taken as a rough approximation only, and the classification is in many respects unavoidably imperfect. I reproduce them, however, as the first organised effort of the kind.

OCCUPATIONS OF MALES.—CLASS I.—Persons employed under Government, or Municipal or other local authorities:—Military officers, 150; Government Police, 178; Rural Police, 3422; Covenanted Government servants, 2; subordinate judicial officers, 2; subordinate executive officers, 1; Public Works officials, 25; Post-office, 46; telegraph officers, 1; medical officers, 4; clerks, 17; Municipal officers, 1; others, 10; total of Class I., 3859.

CLASS II.—Professional persons, including professors of religion, education, literature, law, medicine, and the fine arts, &c.:—Ministers and Missionaries, 4; Hindu priests or *purohits*, 7110; spiritual guides, 848; astrologers (*áchárjyas*), 271; Muhammadan priests (*mullás*), 141; superintendents of Musalmán religious endowments (*matwálís*), 11; pilgrim guides (*pandás*), 130; reciters of the Sacred Law (*kathaks*), 2; *khundkárs*, 55; Professors of education, 1; schoolmasters, 922; Muhammadan clerks and interpreters, 1; Muhammadan law-doctors (*maulvís*), 4; authors, 12; newspaper editors, 4; barristers, 3; pleaders, 107; law-agents (*mukhtárs*), 99; revenue agents, 1; stamp vendors, 37; doctors, 139; Hindu medical practitioners (*kabirájs*), 1772; vaccinators, 12; cow-doctors (*gobaidyas*), 1; men-midwives, 174; musicians, 3340; singers, 340; dancers, 11; actors, 6; jugglers, 12; painters, 181; snake-charmers, 78; surveyors (*ámíns*), 54; civil engineers, 1; total of Class II., 15,884.

CLASS III.—Persons in service, or engaged in performing personal offices:—Personal servants, 5348; cooks, 119; assistant cooks (*masálchís*), 91; barbers, 4889; washermen (*dhobás*), 2719; sweepers (*mihtars*), 337; water-carriers (*bhistís*), 48; gardeners, 390; Hindu birth and marriage registrars (*ghataks*), 135; doorkeepers, 524; unspecified, 27,321; total of Class III., 41,839.

CLASS IV.—Persons engaged in agriculture, or with animals:—Superior landlords (*zamíndárs*) 1970; subordinate landlords (*talúkdárs*), 9333; large lease-holders (*ijárádárs*), 57; holders of rent-free

(*lákhiráj*) lands, 57; permanent lease-holders (*patnídárs*), 77; cultivators, 280,698; small proprietors (*hawáládárs*), 1; land stewards, 41; rent collectors, 2566; village accountants (*patwárís*), 266; holders of land on a tenure of military service (*páiks*), 56; *zamíndári* servants, 394; financial managers (*díwáns*), 30; village head-men, 96; *daffádárs*, 8; deputies (*náibs*), 6; cattle dealers, 111; dealers in buffaloes, 1; dealers in poultry, 4; cowherds, 936; jockeys, 1; elephant drivers, 7; grooms, 64; grasscutters, 24; hunters, 15; total of Class III., 296,819.

CLASS V.—Persons engaged in commerce and trade, as in the conveyance of persons and goods, or keeping or lending money or sale of goods:—Carters, 5; bullock drivers, 10; palankin bearers, 1514; *khálásís*, 27; cart owners, 44; *sardárs*, 24; shipmasters, 4; seamen, 11; boatmen, 22,970; farmers of ferries, 14; divers, 13; boat owners, 807; lascars, 50; keepers of grain stores (*áratdárs*), 157; weighmen, 44; bankers and merchants (*mahájans*), 1634; pawnbrokers (*poddárs*), 20; money changers, 12; cashiers, 1; money lenders, 6951; merchants, 1632; commission agents (*páikárs*), 21,16; petty dealers (*bepáris*), 387; cotton dealers, 64; shopkeepers, 20,109; dealers in miscellaneous goods, 85; brokers (*dáláls*), 360; writers (*karánís*), 32; shopmen, 5; messengers (*piyádás*), 764; vernacular writers and clerks (*muharrirs*), 1199; business managers, 1; total of Class V., 61,066.

CLASS VI.—Persons employed in mechanical arts, manufactures, and engineering operations, and in the sale of goods manufactured or prepared for consumption:—(1) Manufacturers—Indigo manufacturers, 11; tar manufacturers, 4; jute manufacturers, 2. (2) Constructive art—Contractors, 1; brick-masons (*rájmistrís*), 1458; stone-masons, 17; brickmakers, 28; lime-burners, 200; sawyers, 273; carpenters, 2529; thatchers, 981; brick dealers, 13; well-diggers, 206; boat builders, 1420. (3) Miscellaneous artisans—Blacksmiths, 2507; braziers, 1; workers in bell-metal and copper (*kánsáris*), 489; wire-drawers, 3; goldsmiths, 3260; gold washers, 5; watchmakers, 15; potters, 3788; glass vendors, 125; cabinetmakers, 1753; makers of idols, 143; mat-makers, 636; fan-makers, 2; basket-makers, 214; reed-workers, 29; toymakers, 3; beadmakers, 57; *hookah*-makers, 33; makers of garlands, 38; shell carvers, 817; cane-workers, 81; workers in pith (*solá*), 954; makers of looms, 8; cotton carders, 75; cotton spinners, 84; silk weavers, 2; cotton weavers, 17,876; jute weavers, 24; hemp weavers, 3; dyers, 52; tailors, 2244; gold-lace makers,

6; shoemakers, 223; cloth vendors, 3305; ornament makers; 241; umbrella makers, 10; gunny-bag makers, 1698; net-makers, 19; cloth printers, 5; thread sellers, 48; embroiderers, 1310; printers, 23; bookbinders (*daftrís*), 182; booksellers, 1; paper makers, 97. (4) Dealers in vegetable food—Oil sellers, 2504; grain sellers, 4; rice sellers, 207; spice sellers, 90; grain huskers, 35; bakers, 6; grain parchers, 56; costermongers, 65; confectioners, 26; sellers of molasses (*gur*), 373; sellers of honey, 44. (5) Dealers in animal food—Butchers, 124; fishermen, 23,340; milkmen, 6415; butter sellers, 3. (6) Dealers in drinks—Brewers and distillers, 6; spirit sellers, 91; toddy sellers, 1822. (7) Dealers in stimulants—Tobacco sellers, 14; opium sellers, 2; *ganjá* sellers, 43; *pán* sellers, 2752. (8) Dealers in perfumes, drugs, medicines, &c.—Salt sellers, 17; firework sellers, 2; *tiká* sellers, 50. (9) Dealers in vegetable and animal substances—Firewood sellers, 1060; bamboo sellers, 1; thatch sellers, 6; rope sellers, 2; hide dealers, 2301; total of Class VI., 91,162.

CLASS VII.—Miscellaneous persons not classed otherwise:—Pensioners, 76; beggars and paupers, 5484; labourers, 25,954; unemployed, 7138; male children, 356,494; total of Class VII., 395,146; grand total of males, 905,775.

EMPLOYMENT OF FEMALES.—The general caution which I have given with regard to the foregoing statistics of occupations of the people applies with special force to this Section.

CLASS I.—*Nil.*

CLASS II.—Professional females:—Priestesses, 371; female spiritual guides (*gurus*), 117; female astrologers, 4; school-mistresses, 1; midwives (*dáis*), 114; Muhammadan female doctors (*hakims*), 6; Hindu female doctors (*kabirájs*), 61; musicians, 13; singers, 4; dancers, 13; painters, 32; total, 736.

CLASS III.—Females in service, or performing personal offices:—Ayahs, 1734; nurses, 2; female cooks, 37; female barbers, 36; washerwomen, 187; female sweepers, 12; prostitutes, 1738; total, 3746.

CLASS IV.—Females employed in agriculture and with animals:—Female landlords (*zamíndárs*), 278; female permanent lease-holders, (*patnidárs*), 3; female proprietors of rent-free lands (*lákhirájdárs*), 80; female dependent landlords (*tálukdárs*), 1299; female cultivators, 5059; dealers in goats, 2; female cowherds, 21; total, 6742.

CLASS V.—Females engaged in commerce and trade:—Boat-

owners, 5 ; money len
commission agents,
CLASS VI.—Fem
of goods manufactu
pottery, 133 ; deale
38 ; mat-makers, 5
makers, 3 ; spinner
231 ; gunny-bag ma
shoemakers, 7 ; thr
273 ; costermonger
parchers, 122 ; grai
613 ; spirit sellers,
tooth-powder, 3 ;
total, 11,555.
CLASS VII.—Mi
Female house ow
3322 ; labourers,
303,148 ; total, 921
ETHNICAL DIVIS
the majority of the
1,050,131, or 56·7
amount to 793,789
returned at 4 throu
cent. is made up
persons belonging t
The District Cen
alities, races, castes

NAME OF RACE	
I.—NON-ASI	
Europea	
English,	.
Irish,	.
Scotch,	.
Welsh,	.
French,	.
Greek,	.
Italian,	.
Pole,	.
Portuguese,	.

ETHNICAL

NAME OF RACE OR

B. — *Natives of India*
Burmah.

1. — *Aboriginal*

Bhar,
Bhumij,
Gáro,
Nat,
Santál,
Tipperah,
Uráon,

Tot

2. — *Semi-Hinduised*

Bágdí,
Báheliá,
Báurí,
Bediyá,
Bind,
Buná,
Chain,
Chámár and Muchí
Chandál,
Dom,
Dosadh,
Hárí,
Káorá,
Koch,
Rájbansí,
Mál,
Mandái,
Mihtar,
Bhuimálí,
Pán,
Pásí,
Shikárí,

To

3. — *Hind*

(i.) — SUPERIOR

Bráhman,
Rájput,
Ghátwál,

To

Name of Race or Caste.	
(vii.)—Castes engaged chiefly in Personal Service.	
Dhobá,	9,615
Hajjám and Nápit,	18,208
Behárá,	1,226
Káhár,	1,436
Total,	30,485
(viii.)—Artisan Castes.	
Kámár (blacksmith),	12,072
Káṅsárí (brazier),	464
Sonár (goldsmith),	292
Sutradhar (carpenter),	15,907
Kumár (potter),	14,835
Láherí (lac-worker),	2
Kacháru (glass-maker),	305
Sánkhárí (shell-cutter),	853
Surí (distiller),	63,511
Telí (oilman),	13,155
Kalu (ditto),	556
Total,	121,952
(ix.)—Weaver Castes.	
Tántí,	8,906
Hansí,	65
Khatbá,	130
Jogí,	16,410
Kapálí,	17,017
Total,	42,528
(x.)—Labouring Castes.	
Beldár,	172
Chunárí,	605
Matiál,	79
Patiál,	1,241
Total,	2,097
(xi.)—Castes occupied in Selling Fish and Vegetables.	None.

Name of Race or Caste.	
(xii.)—Boating and Fishing Castes.	
Jáliá,	32,269
Jhál,	938
Pátní,	4,695
Pod,	101
Patur,	439
Muriyárí,	21
Báthuá,	141
Tior,	7,988
Málá,	5,567
Mánjhí,	870
Total,	53,029
(xiii.)—Dancer, Musician, Beggar, and Vagabond Castes.	
Báití,	779
Kán,	83
Nagarchí,	24
Total,	886
(xiv.)—Persons enumerated by Nationality only.	
Hindustání,	189
Panjábí,	60
Assamese,	1
Total,	250
(xv.)—Persons of unknown or unspecified Castes,	19,568
Grand Total of Hindus,	531,437
4.—*Persons of Hindu origin not recognising Caste.*	
Vaishnav,	11,886
Mahant,	104
Native Christians,	1,901
Total,	13,891

NAME OF RACE OR CASTE.	
5.—Muhammadans.	
Julahá or Jolá, . . .	10,464
Mughul, ...	17
Pathán, ...	1,134
Sayyid, ...	445
Shaikh, ...	13,247
Unspecified, . . .	1,024,824
Total,	1,050,131

NAME OF RACE OR CASTE.	
6.—Burmese.	
Maghs, ...	7
TOTAL NATIVES OF INDIA,	1,847,050
TOTAL OF ASIATICS, .	1,847,171
GRAND TOTAL, . .	1,852,993

The foregoing table agrees in totals with that originally given in the Census Report, but differs slightly from it in minor details of classification. Thus, some native Christians were erroneously included among non-Asiatics in the Census Report. The totals of Eurasians and Armenians were also slightly incorrect, but the general total of Christians is returned at the same figure, 7844, both in the general Census Report and the District Census Compilation subsequently prepared. Throughout this District Account, I have taken the figures as given in the later Compilation.

HILL TRIBES AND SEMI-ABORIGINAL LOW CASTES.—The following is a brief account of the hill tribes and semi-aboriginal low castes found in Dacca District. Their numbers as given in the foregoing table are: Aborigines, 964; Semi-Hinduised Aborigines, 250,620.

(1.) MANIPURÍS.—Two classes of these people are met with in the District. The Collector, in 1871, reported that the first class consisted of eleven political refugees, who had been removed from the frontier by order of Government to prevent their fomenting disturbances and making raids on Manipur. These people have a settlement at Tezgáon, a short distance north of Dacca city. They are all supported by Government; five of them, in 1871, receiving pensions varying from £1, 4s. to £9 per month, while the remainder received a subsistence allowance at the rate of sixpence a day for men, fourpence halfpenny for women, and threepence for children. Some of them cultivate a little land, but the majority, being men of good family, do nothing. The other division of Manipurís are voluntary settlers, and in 1871 numbered about twenty-five souls. They came to the District about twenty-five years ago, owing to disturbances in their own country, and gain their subsistence by agriculture and cloth-weaving. They do

not amalgamate or intermarry with the people of the District, but get their wives from their own country. Some of them are well-to-do, and they have all settled down into peaceful occupations. Both classes of Manipuris are Hindus, and are subdivided into Bráhmans, Kshattriyas, and Súdras, in the same manner as Hindus of other parts of India. No separate mention of these Dacca Manipuris is made in the Census Statistics.

(2.) TIPPERAHS.—About a hundred of these men were imported from the semi-independent State of Hill Tipperah about five years ago by a wealthy landholder of Dacca, Rái Kálí Náráyan Rái Chaudhrí, Bahádur, of Jaidebpur, for the purpose of clearing his jungle estates in the Fiscal Division of Bháwál. They cut down and sell the timber, and are allowed to cultivate the land rent free for a time, after which they move to new land. The number at present in the District, according to the Census Report of 1872, is 38.

(3.) THE KOCHS are a considerable tribe who also live in the Bháwál jungles, and gain a subsistence by agriculture and charcoal-burning. In religion they are said to be nominally Hindus, but they have no caste system, and never amalgamate with the people of the District. The Collector states that they originally came to Dacca about five or six generations ago. But beyond a tradition of a king named Dugu, whose territory was in the Darang Hills, in Assam, and a tradition that they were forced to emigrate from their own country by famine, they are altogether ignorant of their history. The tribe is a numerous one, but its members are so scattered throughout the jungle, that the Collector reports it impossible to state their numbers. The Census of 1872 returned them at 10,928. They live together in families, and do not carry on their agricultural operations in common, or upon the tribal system.

(4.) THE BANSÍS OR RÁJBANSÍS came originally from Kuch Behar six or seven generations ago, but can give no reason for their immigration. The Collector states that this tribe is evidently a hill people, but they have now lost all remembrance of their own country, and cannot even state where it was. The Collector has been unable to find any trace or records of their immigration, but they must have come to the District in considerable numbers. The Rájbansís keep themselves aloof from the rest of the population, and never amalgamate with them, although admitted as

a caste of the general Hindu community. They are permanent settlers, and follow the same occupations as the Kochs, of which tribe, indeed, they are said to be an offshoot. The upper classes of aboriginal Kochs, when they embrace Hinduism, become Rájbansís. A full description of these people will be given in my "Statistical Account of Kuch Behar," the original home of the race. The number of Rájbansís in Dacca, according to the Census Return, is 4363.

(5.) THE BUNÁS are hill men from the Santál Districts, and live in clusters around the indigo factories. There is also a settlement of them in Bháwál. They profess Hinduism, but are not recognised by the orthodox members of the Hindu community. They principally employ themselves in cultivation, and as labourers on the indigo factories. Their number in 1872 was returned at 840.

The foregoing five classes were originally hill tribes, and, with the exception of the Tipperahs, who were imported, and the political prisoners among the Manipurís, all came of their own accord, and are permanent settlers. There is now no voluntary immigration by aboriginal races into the District, the last comers, the Tipperahs, having been imported for a specific purpose.

(6.) THE BEDIYÁS, a wandering, gypsy-like tribe, number about 1000 in the District. The Census Report, according to its classification, however, only returns nine individuals of this class in Dacca. The Bediyás make their appearance in great numbers at Munshíganj during the Kártik Báruní festival, held in October. They are now said to be rapidly becoming Musalmáns, in name at least. The present (1871) Collector of the District states that when he first knew these people, a Bediyá, upon being asked to what religion he belonged, generally hesitated as to whether he was a Hindu or a Musalmán, but now they almost invariably profess themselves to be followers of the Prophet, although they do not abstain from the use of intoxicating liquors. They generally live in boats on the rivers. Although they have always had the reputation of being expert thieves—and indeed a hereditary robber caste—in other Districts, the Collector states that they are not a predatory tribe in Dacca. In support of this view, he says that he cannot remember a single case of a Bediyá being convicted of theft in Dacca, and that the number of thefts and petty robberies about Munshíganj does not increase while they are there. As a rule, they are able to live comfortably on their earnings, and although few would hesitate to commit

a petty theft, the Collector does not think them to be worse than their neighbours. When they do come into our Courts, which is not often, it is generally on account of some dispute about a woman. The following account of their occupation is extracted from page 7 of the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division:"—"The Bediyás are excellent divers, and in the cold season fish for fresh-water mussels, in the shells of which they occasionally find small pearls. Of these they make ornaments for the nose and ears, and sell the shells, which are applied by the natives to a variety of domestic purposes. They sell necklaces of tiger's claws, beads, and other trinkets; medicines and spices, and also manufacture the *hanás*, or bamboo combs used by the weavers to separate the threads of their webs. They practise cupping—using the sharp teeth of the *kankilá* fish to puncture the skin, and the tip of a cow's horn, with which they draw off the blood by suction. The Bediyás are expert hunters and fowlers, and snare or shoot birds for the sake of their feathers. They amuse the villagers with tricks of jugglery, bear and monkey dancing, and when all else fails, generally betake themselves to stealing. Like the gypsies in other countries, they are partial to poultry, and their boats are generally well supplied with live stock. They eat all kinds of animal food, and are addicted to the use of *ganjá* and spirituous liquors. To this caste belong the *bágh-máriás* or tiger-killers, and the *bhindus*, who search for grain in the burrows of rats."

IMMIGRATION OF EUROPEAN NATIONS.—The PORTUGUESE were the first European people who visited this part of India. In 1517 John de Silveyra arrived with four vessels from the Maldives, with the intention of establishing a factory at Bengala (or Dacca?). Failing in this, he was allowed to settle at Chittagong, and appears to have lived chiefly by piracy in the estuaries of the Meghná, and by assisting the native princes in their wars with each other. A fuller account of the earlier Portuguese, and their mode of livelihood, will be found in the "Statistical Account of Noákhálí District." In 1621 a body of Portuguese mercenaries accompanied Nawáb Ibrahim Khán as gunners of his fleet, when he was pursued by the Emperor Sháh Jahán to Rájmahal; and about 1663 a considerable number of them deserted from the service of the Rájá of Arákán at the time he was attacked by Shaistá Khán, and received from that general a grant of land in Dacca, where they settled. The present Portuguese, or Firinghis, as they are termed, are the descendants of these men who are said to have

been settled at Firinghi Bázár, near Munshíganj. The Collector of the District, however, doubts whether this was not merely one of several settlements. At the present day they are settled in various parts of the District, but chiefly in Ráipurá and Rúpganj, to the north of Dacca city. They have churches at Nágarí, Bándurá, and Hasanábád. From constant intermarriages with women of the country they have now become similar in appearance to the natives (but as a rule have larger cheek-bones and more marked features), and have entirely adopted native habits. The Firinghis, however, of the present day never intermarry with any but Christians. There are two churches at Nawábganj; one belonging to the original Goa Mission, and the other directly under the Church of Rome. The Collector is of opinion that it is chiefly due to this second mission that the Christian population of Dacca has not fallen so low as their brethren in Chittagong, the missionaries being men of very superior education to the Goa priests. The whole of the Christians to the north of Dacca, and about half of those in the southern part of the District, belong to the Goa Church, and these men have an advantage over the others, as they are employed as husbandmen by their own priests. They are generally well-to-do cultivators, but they also supply a great many domestics to Calcutta, chiefly ayahs or nurses, and cooks. They have retained the Portuguese names to a greater extent than their Chittagong brethren, and such names as Domingo Costa (the prefix of Da to the surname being invariably omitted), Manuel de Cruz, or Lewis Gomez, are common. In ordinary language, however, Domingo becomes "Dengu," and Manuel "Munnoo." In fact, the baptismal name is one only resumed on great occasions, except by a few of the leading families, and even among them there is a tendency to corrupt their names. A Firinghi landholder (*tálúkdár*) to the north of the town, whose name is Harry Fraser, invariably writes and pronounces it as "Hari Praser."

✓ THE ENGLISH appear to have settled in Dacca about 1660. Tavernier alludes to the English Factory, and mentions the name of its chief in 1666, about which time Indian muslins were first introduced into England. The following is condensed from Mr Taylor's "Topography of Dacca," 1840:—In 1678 the Company's agents presented Sultán Muhammad Azim with an offering of upwards of £2000, in exchange for which they received his order for a free trade without payment of duties. In 1686 the Factory was confiscated by Shaistá Khán, and three years later the whole of the property

of the Company in Bengal was seized by order of the Emperor Aurangzeb, and the English in Dacca were placed in irons. Prior to 1760, however, the number of Company's servants attached to the Dacca Factory did not exceed five in number. In 1778 there were thirty-seven English residents in the District, and in 1838 forty-seven, In 1867 the Magistrate reported the number of European, East Indian, and Armenian residents, official and non-official, at sixty-nine, but this must have been only for the city. In 1872 the number of Europeans and East Indians in the District was returned in the Census Report at 5820.

THE ARMENIAN community are decreasing rapidly both in wealth and numbers. At one time they formed a large and flourishing part of the population, but in 1871 they were reduced to less than one hundred in number, of whom six were landed proprietors, two were merchants, four were shopkeepers, and the rest followed various occupations. The Census of 1872 disclosed a total Armenian population in the District of 121. The Armenian community are undergoing a change at present, abandoning to a great extent their old conservative manners, and adopting European habits and customs. The Collector in 1871 stated that so far the change had not been for the better, but admitted that its full results have yet to be seen.

GREEKS.—There are very few Greeks in Dacca now, although they once formed an important body. According to the Census of 1872 the European Greeks number only fourteen in the District. They are now too few to keep up a church for themselves, and have closed it for some years. One family, the Paniotys, are considerable landed proprietors, but their estates are chiefly situated in Bákarganj District. The Greeks, like the Armenians, are declining in wealth and numbers.

EMIGRATION.—There is no emigration from the District properly so called. Many Hindus, however, resort to Benares, Brindában, or some other sacred shrine, to die there; and some Musalmáns go on pilgrimages, but not in great numbers.

CASTES.—The following is a list of the principal castes in the District, compiled chiefly from Dr Taylor's "Topography of Dacca," the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," with a few alterations by the Collector, rendered necessary by recent changes among the people. I have also added several castes given in the Census Report, but which are not mentioned by the Collector, or in either

of the two works just quoted; along with whatever information could be collected as to the occupations, manners, and customs of each caste; and have arranged them as far as possible in the order in which they rank in local public estimation. The numbers of each caste are taken from the Census Report of 1872. (1) Bráhmans, the caste highest in the social scale; the old priesthood of the Hindu system, and now largely employed as ministerial officers, clerks, &c., in our Courts. A separate description of Bráhmanism in its different subdivisions will be given on a subsequent page. Number in 1872, according to the Census Report, 51,632. (2) Baidya; this caste ranks next to the Bráhmans. They are chiefly employed as physicians, ministerial officers, and landed proprietors, and may be considered as the upper middle class of the District. They are said to have sprung from the Súdra caste, but claim for themselves a higher descent. The investiture of the sacred cord was purchased for this caste about a hundred years ago by Rájá Ráj-Ballabh of Rájnagar, Prime Minister, and afterwards Governor of Dacca under the Muhammadan Government. The thread, however, differs from the true Bráhmanical cord, in consisting of only two instead of three strings. The Census Report of 1872 gives the number of Baidyas in the District at 8420. (3) Kshattriyas; this class is theoretically the second in the Hindu social organisation, but it is doubted whether there are now any pure Kshattriyas in Bengal, and at the present day, instead of forming a warrior class, they are returned in the Census as a trading caste. Their number in 1872 was returned at 621. (4) Rájput, employed in military service, as police constables, messengers, door-keepers, &c.; number in 1872, 1665. (5) Ghátwál, employed in the same manner as the foregoing; eleven in number in 1872. (6) Káyasth; this caste is considered to belong to the Súdras, although its members claim a higher rank for themselves. Most of them are employed as pleaders, accountants, writers and treasurers, by the large landholders, or in the Government Courts. They numbered 102,084 in 1872.

Next to the Káyasths come the pure castes of undoubted Súdras, of which (7) the Tántís or weavers are stated by the Collector to have formed at one time the most numerous class in the District. This branch of industry has, however, considerably declined of late years, and their numbers have consequently fallen off. In 1872 they amounted to 8906. They are divided into two classes, called Jhappaniyá and Chotbágiyá, who neither eat together nor

intermarry. They all reside in one street, which is named after the caste, nearly all their dwellings being substantial masonry buildings. (8) The Sánkháris, or shell-cutters, are an industrious and hard-working community, said to be exceedingly penurious, and are undoubtedly a well-to-do class. In 1872 this caste numbered 853 in the District. (9) Kámár; blacksmiths, and sometimes workers in gold and silver; number, 12,072. (10) Kánsárí; braziers and coppersmiths. They are said to be very neat workmen, and excel in making small boxes and *hookah* stands; their number in 1872 amounted to 464. (11) Kumár; potters. These people chiefly carry on their business in the suburbs, where they make toys and earthenware articles; number, 14,835. (12) Sadgop Goálá; milkmen; numerous in the town of Dacca. They purchase milk from the country people, and also keep cows in the villages. (13) Ahirá Goálá; another caste of milkmen and cow-keepers, but few in number in this part of the country. Those that reside in the town keep the *deswáli* or up-country breed of cattle, and sell clarified butter (*ghi*). A few of them also act in the capacity of cattle doctors, in which their services are in great request. The Census Returns of 1872 give the number of Goálás at 22,788. (14) Málákar; gardeners, makers of artificial flower garlands, pyrotechnists; number, 2757. (15) Nápit; barbers and surgeons; most of them come from Tipperah; number, 18,208. (16) Bárui, Támlí or Támbulí; growers and sellers of *pán* or betel leaf. These, although they originally formed one caste, are now distinct, although they both follow the same occupations, and rank equally high in social esteem; number in 1872, Báruis, 15,931; Támbulís, 200. The above list comprises the whole of the pure castes, and differs from that prevailing in other parts of India, inasmuch as some castes, particularly the weavers, are included in the esteemed classes, whereas in other parts they are looked down upon. On the other hand, castes which are held to be pure elsewhere are excluded from the list in this District.

The less respectable castes are as follow. They comprise a large proportion of the classes engaged in trade, and indeed constitute the majority of the Hindu population:—(17) Ganak; degraded Bráhmans; few in number in the District. They are employed in making and decorating idols, and also as astrologers and fortune-tellers, and the Census Report does not mention them as a separate caste. Their numbers are probably included with those of the pure Bráhmans. (18) Agradání Bráhmans. These are considered still

more degraded than the preceding class, from accepting the first gifts offered at a *srádddha* or funeral ceremony. The gifts usually presented to them consist of grain, oil-seeds, clothes, a small piece of gold or silver, and generally a cow or calf; but before they are entitled to them they have to partake of the boiled rice consecrated to the corpse. This caste is few in number in Dacca, and is not specified in the Census Return; their numbers being probably included with those of the other Bráhmans. (19) Barnawárs; probably an up-country trading caste; number in the District in 1872, according to the Census, 64. (20) Tilí, or Telí; oil-sellers and oil-pressers by caste, but many of them have now abandoned their hereditary occupation, and have become wealthy grain merchants. Their number in Dacca, as returned by the Census of 1872, was 13,155. (21) Sadgop; cultivators; a different caste to the Sadgop goálás mentioned above; 1085 in number. (22) Gandhbanik; spice dealers and shopkeepers; generally well-to-do; 6634 in number. In other parts of Bengal this is reckoned as one of the pure Súdra castes, but in Dacca it is returned as an inferior caste. (23) Sutradhar; carpenters; principally employed in felling trees, sawing timber, building boats, and making ploughs; number 15,907 in the District. (24) Subarna Banik; this caste comprises nearly all the money-lenders in the city, and are also dealers in English goods, cloth, precious stones, &c.; 4696 in number. (25) Sáo, or Sháhá; mostly dealers in grain, sugar, betel-nut, salt, and country produce. Some of them are wealthy, and have large landed estates. Not entered as a separate caste in the Census Return. (26) Kapáli; weavers of sack cloth, and makers of rope and bags; many are also employed as bullock drivers; their number was returned at 17,017 in 1872. (27) Patiál; makers of the fine *sítalpáti* mats used for sleeping on; 1241 in number. (28) Pátní; ferrymen, who also make baskets, and buy and sell fish; 4695 in number. (29) Kaibartta; this caste is divided into two classes—the Cháshi Kaibarttas, who are ploughmen and cultivators, and the Jálwá Kaibarttas, or fishermen; their number in 1872 amounted to 32,317. (30) Madak, or Mayrá; confectioners; 521 in number. (31) Hálwái; up-country confectioners; 1591 in number. (32) Gánrár; sellers and preparers of parched rice, &c.; 806 in number. (33) Kundú; preparers of cooked food; 805 in number. (34) Agurí; cultivators; a caste newly sprung up; 313 in number. (35) Dalui; cultivators and agricultural labourers; 741 in number. (36) Kurmí; an up-country caste of servants and

labourers; 508 in number. (37) Kheyatilam; an agricultural labouring caste; 599 in number. (38) Parásar Dás; cultivators and labourers; 175 in number; (39) Chásá Dhopá; agriculturists; 2409 in number. (40) Sekerá; goldsmiths and jewellers; 292 in number. (41) Vaishnav; a Hindu religious sect rather than a caste. A full account of this class will be given on a subsequent page. The Census Return gives the number of Vaishnavs in Dacca District at 11,886.

The following are the very low and despised castes:—(42) Dhobá; washermen, principally residing in the city; 9615 in number. (43) Dom; fishers, corpse-bearers; they also keep pigs, and make baskets; 641 in number. (44) Jogí; a numerous class, employed in weaving coarse country cloth. Unlike other Hindu castes, instead of burning they bury their dead; 16,410 in number. (45) Chandál; employed as cultivators, grasscutters, gardeners, boatmen, and palanquin bearers; a numerous class, especially in the north of the District; their number in 1872 amounted to 191,162. (46) Garwárá; a caste said to be peculiar to Dacca. They live by spearing otters, turtles, porpoises, and alligators, the first for the sake of its skin, and the last three for the oil, which they sell for medicinal purposes; these people are not entered in the Census Return. (47) Chámár; a most despised caste, who prepare hides, make shoes, harness, drums, and also the gut strings for the bows used in cleaning cotton; they are also employed as musicians in marriage processions; 24,063 in number. (48) Bhuimálí; some employed as gardeners, and many as town sweepers and scavengers; 7267 in number. (49) Koch, and (50) Rájbansí. These people have been already mentioned on a previous page, and are principally employed in clearing jungle, cultivating rice, oil-seeds, cotton, &c. The Census Returns give the number of the former at 10,928, and of the latter at 4363. (51) Kacháru; glass makers; 305 in number. (52) Koerí; agriculturists; 838 in number. (53) Hansí; weavers; 65 in number. (54) Surí; wine sellers; 63,511 in number. (55) Khatbá; weavers; 130 in number. (56) Beldár; day labourers; 172 in number. (57) Chunárí; preparers of shell lime; 605 in number. (58) Matiál; day labourers; 79 in number. (59) Pod; fishermen; 101 in number. (60) Tior; fishermen and boatmen, 7988. (61) Jaliá; fishermen and boatmen; 32,269 in number. (62) Jhál; fishermen and boatmen; 938 in number. (63) Málá, and (64) Mánjhi; boatmen; the former numbering 5567, and the latter 870. (65) Patur; fishermen

and boatmen; 439 in number. (66) Báití; mat makers; 779 in number. (67) Bágdí; day labourers, fishermen, cultivators, &c.; 1505 in number. (68) Duliá; palanquin bearers and fishermen; 1226 in number. (69) Muriyárí; fishermen; 21 in number. (70) Láherí, or Nurí; makers of lac ornaments and bracelets; 2 in number. (71) Rawání Káhár; an up-country caste of palanquin bearers; 1436 in number. (72) Mál; snake-charmers; 4663 in number. (73) Hárí; swineherds and sweepers; 1954 in number. (74) Mihtar; sweepers; 2316 in number. (75) Shikárí; hunters; 27 in number. (76) Bediyás; a wandering gypsy-like tribe, chiefly living in boats, and already described on a previous page. The Census Return gives their number at 9. The following are all aboriginal or semi-aboriginal low castes, who occupy themselves principally as labourers, but some of them have a small plot of ground which they cultivate for themselves:—(77) Bathuá; 141. (78) Kán; 83. (79) Nagarchí; 24. (80) Báheliá; 1. (81) Báurí; 14. (82) Bind; 153. (83) Chain; 1. (84) Dosadh; 49. (85) Pásí; 19. (86) Pán; 52. (87) Káorá; 284. (88) Mandái; 309. (89) Buná; 340. (90) Gáro; 13. (91) Bhar; 55. (92) Bhumíj; 11. (93) Nat; 844. (94) Santál; 1; and (95) Uráon, 2.

The only Hindu caste which has declined from its former rank or numbers are the weaving classes. They have been impoverished by competition of the District produce with English piece goods. Most of them, however, now betake themselves to other occupations and trade, and a large number of them have received a good English education. It is only the poorer members of the caste, who have adhered to the family calling, who have seriously suffered. The Armenians and Greeks have also declined in numbers and importance of late years, and the Collector of the District considers their decay to be chiefly owing to the spread of English education among the natives. Formerly the Greeks and Armenians, but more particularly the latter, were the middlemen in all dealings between the English and natives, but this has now entirely ceased, and when the necessity for such an occupation no longer existed, those who practised it naturally declined in numbers, rank, and importance. With the exception of the Bediyás (described on pages 43, 44) there is no predatory clan or caste in the District, and it is doubtful whether the term can be rightly applied to this people. In the town of Dacca, however, there are about sixty *kichaks*, the children of a gang of professional Jessor thieves who were all convicted. They

are chiefly employed by the Municipality, and are mentioned as being the descendants of a predatory class.

Religious Division of the People.—According to the figures given by the Revenue Survey, the number of Hindus and Musalmáns is stated to be 455,182 and 449,223 respectively. No mention was made as to the number of persons professing other religions, and with the exception of the Firinghis and native Christians, the only other religion represented in the District is Buddhism. The Census of 1872 returned the following results of the religious classification of the people:—The Muhammadans number 1,050,131, or 56·7 per cent. of the total population; the Hindus are 793,789, or 42·9 per cent. of the total population; the Christians, 7844, or ·4 per cent. of the population. The number of Buddhists is only returned at 4, and of "others" at 1255.

The Bráhmans.—There are no Bráhmans in the Dacca District who cultivate with their own hands. The Bráhmans, as a rule, still retain their ancient hold on the popular mind; and the strong sense of superiority over the masses, with the self-respect and pride produced by caste, prevents them from following either agriculture or any other profession requiring manual labour, which they consider degrading. They are generally able to mark out for themselves walks of life which they consider as respectable. The following is a very brief account of the Bráhmanical rites connected with Hindu marriages and funeral obsequies (*srádddhas*). They are generally performed by the family priest, whose functions at a marriage are to accompany the friends of the bridegroom or the bride in their search for the one or the other; to examine the bridegroom's horoscope; to fix an auspicious day for the ceremony; to officiate at the *briddhi* or preparatory ceremony performed by the fathers of the bridegroom and of the bride. To marry sons and bestow daughters in marriage are reckoned religious duties by the Hindus, and they consider it necessary to invoke the spirit of their ancestors on the occasion. The other functions of the officiating priest are to dictate to the bride and bridegroom the oaths by which they bind themselves as man and wife for ever; to explain to them the duties enjoined by the *sástras* or sacred law, and to invoke and worship the gods who are supposed to preside over marriages. Bráhmans who are not the priests of the contracting families dine at the houses of the parties on the occasion of

the ceremony, and receive presents of less or greater value according to their rank or supposed superior learning.

But it is on the occasion of funeral obsequies (*srádddhas*) that the Bráhmans play the most important part. Four classes of Bráhmans take part in this ceremony — namely, the family priest, a number of ordinary Bráhmans, some Pandits or expounders of Bráhmanical law, and Reobhát or begging Bráhmans, who are also genealogists and minstrels. The last-named two classes of Bráhmans are only called to the *srádddha* of rich men; but the family priest, and at least twelve ordinary Bráhmans, are required at every such ceremony. The family priest generally draws up the estimate of expenditure, and often purchases the necessary things himself. Sometimes, if the person performing the *srádddha* is a poor man, the priest supplies the requisite articles, such as cloth, brass plates, &c., from his own stock at low prices; and as they all subsequently return to him, he makes a good profit by the obsequies. The principal duty of the priest is to dictate to the performer of the *srádddha* the sacred formulas (*mantras*) which he has to repeat, and in directing the presents of the rice, clothes, cows, &c, which he has to make for the salvation of his deceased relative. Ordinary Bráhmans are invited to dine, and are rewarded with small money presents in return for their company. It is the duty of one of the Pandits present to recite a chapter from the Mahábhárata, the others being simply invited for their learning, and rewarded according to their merits. The Reobháts or mendicant Bráhmans are generally dismissed with small presents.

KULINISM.—The following is a description of the introduction of Kulinism into Bengal, slightly abbreviated from an account furnished to me by a native gentleman who holds the post of Assistant to the Commissioner of the Division:—In the eleventh century, Adisur, King of Bengal, finding the Bráhmans of the country unable to officiate at certain ceremonies which his wife wished to be performed, sent to the King of Kanauj in Oudh for some learned Bráhmans; and the following five Bráhmans of different families were despatched in accordance with his request—namely, Daksha, of the Kasyap family; Chhándar, of the Bátsya family; Srísharsha, of the Bharadwáj family; Bed Garbha, of the Sábarna family; and Bhatta Náráyan, of the Sándilya family. Some accounts state that these immigrant Bráhmans first settled in Bikrampur near Dacca, and that their descendants emigrated to other Districts; while others assert that

they originally settled in Nadiyá, and emigrated thence to Bikrampur and elsewhere. In the twelfth century King Ballál Sen, a descendant of Adisur, found society in such a state of confusion that he set about reforming it, and divided the Bráhmans, Baidyas, Káyasths, and pure Súdras into different classes. It does not appear that the Kshattriyas and Vaisyas then existed in Bengal at all. The descendants of the Kanauj Bráhmans were first divided into two classes—Rárhi and Bárendra—so called from the locality in which they resided. The Rárhi Bráhmans, or those living in the country bounded on the north and east by the rivers Bhágirathí and Ganges, numbered fifty-nine families, of whom twenty-two were made Kulins, and the remaining seventeen Srotriyas. The Bárendras, who lived in the part bounded to the south and west by the Ganges and Mahánandá, numbered seventeen families, of whom nine were made Kulins and eight Srotriyas. These are the Dacca Bráhmans.

Their nine Kulin families were (1) Maitra, (2) Bhim, (3) Rúdra, (4) Sanjámaní, (5) Láhurí, (6) Bhádurí, (7) Sádhu, (8) Bhadrá, and (9) Puktipúraka. The Srotriyas or non-Kulin families were the following:—(1) Karanjá, (2) Nandanábásí, (3) Bhattasanish, (4) Láhurí, (5) Champatí, (6) Athuthí, (7) Jhampatí, and (8) Kámdebatá. The Vaidiks, or original Bráhmans of Bengal, either refused to accept the classification of Ballál Sen, or were thought unworthy of it. Kulinism, however, is not confined to Bráhmans. Three families of Baidyas, viz., Sen, Dás, and Gupta, belonging to the Dhannantari, Madhukulya, and Kásyap septs respectively, were made into Kulins. Among the Káyasths, the families of Basu, Guha, and Mitra were made Kulins; those of Datta, Dás, Nág and Náhá, were made Mauliks or non-Kulins, while 64 other Káyasth families belong to the lowest order, and form the despised castes. The system of Kulinism thus extended through all classes of society, but what is now commonly known as Kulinism is that practised among the Bráhmans.

About the end of the twelfth century Lakshman Sen, the last independent Hindu King of Bengal, held an inquiry (*samikarn*) into the social orders instituted by Ballál Sen, for the purpose of making such changes as were found necessary. Among the Rárhi Bráhmans eight out of the twenty-two Kulin classes or families stood the test, and were called Mukhya Kulins, or those steadfast in principle; the remaining fourteen were made Gauna Kulins, or those who have deviated from the prescribed right path. The Mukhya or pure Kulin families were the following:—(1) Mukharji (Mukhopádhyáya), (2)

Bánarji (Bandopádhyáya), (3) Gánguli (Gangopádhyáya), (4) Chát-tarji (Chattopádhyáya), (5) Kájilál, (6) Ghoshál, (7) Patidanda, and (8) Kundigrám. Difficulties regarding marriages soon sprung up, and the status of the Kulins was again remodelled by Debí Sinh, a distinguished *ghatak* (marriage registrar), and he further classified the Rárhi Kulins into thirty-two *mels* or families. Those Kulins who had married their daughters to Srotriyas or non-Kulins, were degraded and called Bansaj; while those who married the daughters of these lapsed Bansaj Bráhmans were ranked a step higher, and called Bhanga (literally broken). A Kulin, however, may marry a girl belonging to the upper class of Srotriyas without incurring any loss of caste. By marrying into a family of lower class Srotriyas, or a Bansaj family, he loses a certain amount of respect, but still retains his Kulinism. His children, however, occupy a much lower rank; the degree of social respect in which his descendants are held decreases each generation, and the children of the fourth or fifth generation lose their Kulinism altogether, and become Bhanga or broken. Kulin bridegrooms are in much request by the parents of marriageable daughters, who give large dowers for the honour of such an alliance. Many Kulin Bráhmans make marriage an occupation, and go about the country seeking for a Bansaj or Bhanga father with a marriageable daughter, and who is willing to pay high for the honour of obtaining a Kulin bridegroom. A Kulin receives a sum of about £200 with his first wife; for the second and subsequent wives he gets less, the amount decreasing in proportion to the number of previous marriages he has made. There is no limit to the number of wives a Kulin may have. The Deputy-Collector reported to me in 1871 that there was then in Bikrampur a man of this class with upwards of a hundred wives, while his three sons had fifty, thirty-five, and thirty respectively. Those Kulins who make marriage a profession do not maintain their wives, but leave them and their children to be provided for by the respective fathers-in-law. They are, however, bound to provide dowers for their female children. The sons are raised to the father's rank, the daughters take that of the mother, and a portion is required to get them eligibly married. Few Kulins, however, have the means of endowing their daughters, and the consequence is that a large proportion of the female children of Kulins by Bansaj wives remain unmarried.

VAISHNAVISM, in its original shape, as inculcated by the reformer Chaitanya, makes but few converts in this part of the country at the

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present time. Loose women, driven out of the village society, or idle men not choosing to adopt any regular occupation, take the initiatory rite (*bhek*) of Vaishnavism, and turn religious mendicants, begging from door to door, and living together in religious houses or monasteries, called *Akrás*. There is another form, however, in which Chaitanyaism makes a large number of converts. Men of a vehement religious enthusiasm occasionally relinquish their regular occupations, and itinerate as preachers of the worship of Hari (the name for Krishna, or the One God as first preached by Chaitanya), by means of *sankirttan* (the singing of hymns). Such missionaries gather a number of followers around them, who look upon them as inspired beings, call them by the sacred name of Hari, and worship them. All these Haris preach faith as the only efficacious remedy for diseases, and generally give dust or the leaves of any vegetable that may chance to be at hand to the people who flock to them, directing them to use these things in the name of Hari as medicines. They prescribe bathing three times a day in the name of Hari as a specific for all maladies. Such preachers have sometimes immense numbers of followers, nearly all from the ignorant or lower classes of society, but they never preach their own worship, nor do they themselves assume the name of Hari. They do not advocate any kind of idol-worship, nor in fact any other kind of religious observance, except singing hymns in the name of Hari or Krishna. Although they do many things in contravention to the rules of caste, they avoid giving offence to the orthodox Hindus, and refrain from preaching against caste or idol-worship of any kind. At the present time, one of these preachers, who belongs to Rájnagar in Bikrampur Fiscal Division recently transferred to Bákarganj District, is said to have not less than from fifty to sixty thousand followers, many of whom come from Tipperah, Maimansinh, Pabná, and other Districts. He is accompanied by large crowds wherever he goes. An *Akrá* or Vaishnav religious house is distinguishable from ordinary dwellings by the following peculiarities:—It invariably contains a large courtyard, on the northern side of which the *Thákurghar* is situated, and which is used for the ceremony of singing hymns, and for holding religious feasts (*mahotsab*). The houses are generally small thatched or masonry rooms, arranged in groups on three sides of the yard, and kept scrupulously neat; cleanliness being considered a part of the religion. In all *Akrás* is an elevated spot planted with Tulsí trees, the emblem of Vishnu; and on this

is a temple inhabited by the governor and religious preceptor (*Goswámí*) of the little community. There are two classes of Vaishnavs. Merchants and traders, and families belonging to the higher or respectable castes, form the first section. These all follow regular occupations, and live in every way like other Hindus, with whom they often connect themselves by marriage, the only difference being that they do not join in the worship of Kálí and other idols. The other class of Vaishnavs follow no calling, are excluded from the regular classes of Hindu society, live in communities in *Akrás*, and subsist by begging. Of this class, the number of females is much greater than that of the males. In the higher classes of Hindus, where the joint-family system obtains, a friendless person in his old age can find shelter with his distant relatives. This is not so among the lower and poorer orders; and as women are more helpless than men, they more frequently become Vaishnavs, and take to the alms-bag. Owing to this disparity in the number of the sexes, a large proportion of the women have to remain single. The men often join the fraternity for the sake of concubinage. A man happens to fall in love with a widow or with a woman of a different caste. As a consequence they are both persecuted by society, and become Vaishnavs, when they can marry without molestation. The marriage ceremony is very simple; the man and woman exchange garlands, make a small present in money to the *goswámí*, or spiritual guide, and a feast to the neighbouring Vaishnavs according to their means. It is a strange statement, but it is universally alleged that married Vaishnavs seldom have any children. On the death of a member of the fraternity, his body is thrown in the river, an earthern jug filled with sand being tied to the neck. If he leaves any money or has Vaishnav relatives living, a grand feast or *mahotsab* is given for his benefit in the other world. The Vaishnavs recognise no distinction of caste, but latterly it seems that caste is beginning to make itself felt, as those of a higher caste will not partake of food cooked by one of a lower. At a religious feast, however, all classes sit in a row in an open place, and partake together of the food cooked by the Bráhman religious preceptor. The *goswámí* is not only the spiritual guide, but also in a manner the governor of the community. When a member of the fraternity does anything forbidden in their religion, he is fined by the *goswámí*, and excommunicated if the mulct be refused.

The Census Return gives the number of caste-rejecting Vaishnavs in Dacca District at 11,886.

THE BRÁHMA SAMÁJ was established in Dacca in 1846, and has steadily increased in numbers and influence. Up to 1857 its meetings were held in houses rented for the purpose, and from that time to 1869, in the house of a native gentleman, a Deputy-Magistrate of the District and a leading member of the Samáj. In 1869 a large hall was built by public contributions from the Bráhmas of Eastern Bengal, and services are held in it every Sunday evening, and occasionally at other times; three hundred members generally attending. There are about a hundred regular subscribers to the Samáj, who pay from six shillings to five pounds per annum, to meet current expenses, and a thousand ordinary members, or sympathisers, comprising nearly all the English-speaking Hindus of Dacca. The members generally belong to the most respectable families, such as Bráhmans, Baidyas, Káyasths, &c. The Collector states that he has come across but one man of the cultivating class who belonged to the sect, and he became an inmate of the Lunatic Asylum. The Bráhma Samáj is essentially a town sect; and the Collector believes that many students who are, if anything, Bráhmas when at College, become good Hindus when they return to their country homes.

THE MUHAMMADAN COMMUNITY are almost all Shaikhs; the Sayyids, Mughuls, and Pathán̈s being few in number. The latter were, however, at one time numerous in the District, and a few of their descendants are still to be met with at the village of Pathántalí near Dhámrái. For a considerable period Dacca was the capital of Bengal under the Muhammadan rule, and up to the time when the British assumed the administration of the country the District was governed by Deputies on behalf of the Musalmán King of Bengal. The last Deputy or Nawáb of the old ruling family died in 1843, but the Nizámat or nominal viceroyalty was taken out of the hands of the Dacca Nawábs on the death of Nasrat Jang in 1822. During the Muhammadan supremacy, large numbers of the inhabitants of the District either willingly or through coercion were converted to Islám. The Musalmán religion is not now an actively proselytising one in Dacca District, although it from time to time receives small additions from the Hindu and Vaishnav communities. Several *pírs* or Muhammadan holy men live in the vicinity of the town. *Fakírs* or religious beggars are numerous in the city, and subsist on the bounty of the wealthy Musalmán inhabitants. These sturdy vagabonds assemble

in great force during the festivals of the Muharram and the Ramzán. The following description of the celebration of the Muharram is taken from Taylor's "Topography of Dacca," and was written during the lifetime of the last Nawáb:—"The Muharram is celebrated with much pomp at the Husainí Dalán, an extensive building capable of containing a great concourse of people, and supported from funds originally granted by the Nawábs of Dacca, now disbursed through the Collector. During the *ashurá*, or ten days' fast, its interior is decorated with artificial flowers, transparencies, and ostrich eggs; the walls above the effigies of Hasan and Husain are draped with black cloth; a fountain plays in the centre, and the whole is lighted up at night with a profusion of coloured lamps and candles. The funeral dirges and eulogiums are recited by a trained band of singers, who keep up the nocturnal vigils throughout the fast. On the seventh day, the *panjah*, or representation of an open hand, mounted on a pole adorned with tinsel and flowers, is paraded through the streets with music; and on the tenth or last day of the fast, the *táziá* or effigies of the two martyrs are conveyed with great pomp to a tank in the vicinity of the town, where they are stripped of their ornaments and thrown into the water." At the present day, however, this festival is solemnised with much less pomp.

The Mughuls of the District are the remains of the former dominant race, and are all Shiahs. They were formerly a rich and powerful class, but are now generally poor, and gradually dwindling away. The Collector reports that their numbers in Dacca District do not exceed five hundred. The Shiahs and Sunís are now at peace with each other; but in 1869, at one of their religious ceremonies, they very nearly came to an open fight.

A new sect of Muhammadans, the Faráizís, arose about forty-four years ago, its founder being a native of Faridpur District. It spread with extraordinary rapidity throughout Eastern Bengal, and the followers of this sect now form a considerable proportion of the Muhammadan population of the town and District of Dacca. They have the character of being stricter in their morals than other Musalmáns, but are intolerant and bigoted. The majority of them are not actively fanatical, and as a rule they are fairly well off, although not rich. Those who are engaged in trade principally deal in rice, hides, and jute. For a fuller account, see my "Statistical Account of Faridpur District," and my "Indian Mussalmans." Although the Muhammadans form the largest section of the population, numbering

1,050,131, against 793,789 Hindus, they are numerically weaker in the towns, and do not evince any tendency towards city life. Thus, in the six towns returned in the Census Report as having a population above five thousand, there were only 51,653 Musalmáns to 57,329 Hindus. In Náráinganj and Narishá, the Muhammadans exceeded the Hindus; in the city of Dacca the numbers were nearly equal, the balance being slightly in favour of the Hindus.

NATIVE CHRISTIANS.—A considerable population of native Christians exists in Dacca, chiefly of the Roman Catholic persuasion. The two principal stations of this community are at Bándurá and Hasanábád on the Hilsámárí, and at Nágarí and some surrounding villages on the banks of the Lakhmiá river. Formerly they were all under the control of the Archbishop of Goa, but owing to differences between him and the Church of Rome, a separate Mission was sent out by the Propaganda in 1834. This Mission has churches at Dacca and Bándurá, and the Collector reported in 1871 that it numbered about five thousand members. Of these, the greater number are either cultivators, or go into service as cooks and ayahs. On the whole, they are well-to-do, and some spend considerable sums on their marriages. The Goa Roman Catholics are possessed of considerable property both at Nágarí and at Hasanábád. The Collector has not been able to ascertain the exact number of the community, but estimates it to amount to about twelve thousand in round figures. The Census Returns, however, give a much smaller total. The total Christian population of the District was ascertained in 1872 to amount to 7844 souls; inclusive of 193 European Christians, 2 Americans or West Indians, 121 Armenians; total non-native Christians, 316. There are also 5627 Eurasians, principally descendants of the early Portuguese settlers, but at the present day, from constant intermarriages with the people of the country, they are hardly distinguishable from the native population in appearance, language, or dress. The number of pure native Christians is returned at 1901, making a total Christian population, as above stated, of 7844 souls. The Christians of the Goa Church are on the whole well-to-do, and rank as substantial husbandmen. A good many of them also hold landed property. In connection with this Mission there was formerly a Church at Tezpur near Dacca, besides the present edifice in Dacca town. The members attached to the Dacca Church number about a hundred and sixty, and are chiefly employed as cultivators, cooks, and arti-

ficers; some of them have landed property. There is also a Baptist Christian Mission, with stations at Dacca and Dayápur on the Burígangá, and at Munshíganj on the south bank of the Dhaleswarí, near its junction with the Meghná. The total number of the community is returned at about a hundred. The Mission converts at Dayápur are stated to be nearly all cultivators; those at Munshíganj, fishermen and weavers; those in the town of Dacca follow various occupations. Converts to Christianity come entirely from the rural population, while the Bráhma Samáj followers are chiefly residents of the town. The six towns given in the Census Report as containing a population above five thousand souls contain a total Christian population of only 533. Of these, 479 reside in Dacca City, and consist principally of the European and East Indian Government officials and residents. The Indo-Portuguese Christians have already been alluded to on a previous page.

TOWN POPULATION.—Before describing the towns and principal places in the District separately, it may be as well to exhibit the total town population. The Census Returns only give six towns in the whole District as containing a population of upwards of five thousand souls. These are Dacca, Náráinganj, Mánikganj, Sholaghar, Hásárá, and Narishá. They contain a total population of 109,542, as exhibited in the following table, extracted from Mr C. F. Magrath's District Census Compilation for Dacca :—

RETURN OF TOWNS CONTAINING MORE THAN FIVE THOUSAND INHABITANTS IN THE DISTRICT OF DACCA.

NAMES OF TOWNS.	HINDUS.	MUHAMMADANS.	CHRISTIANS.	OTHERS.	TOTAL.	Gross Municipal income.	Gross Municipal expenditure.	Rate of Municipal taxation per head.
						RS. A. P.	RS. A. P.	RS. A. P.
Dacca,...	34,433	34,275	479	25	69,212	50,214 0 0	50,000 0 0	0 11 7
Manikganj,.....	6,381	5,159	...	2	11,542	3,631 0 0	3 000 0 0	0 5 0
Náráinganj, ...	5,200	5,694	17	...	10,911	493 0 0	4,000 0 0	0 6 7
Sholaghar, ...	4,478	2,047	...	...	6,525	*Nil.*	*Nil.*	*Nil.*
Hásárá, ...	4,807	900	...	...	5,707	*Nil.*	*Nil.*	*Nil.*
Narishá, ...	2,030	3,578	37	...	5,645	*Nil.*	*Nil.*	*Nil.*
	57,329	51,653	533	27	109,542	58,338 0 0	57,000 0 0	*Av.* 0 10 6

The Collector in 1871 returned the following thirty-two towns as containing an estimated population of 2000 souls and upwards. The latitudes and longitudes have been furnished by the Surveyor-General.

(1.) Dacca, situated on the north bank of the Burígangá, in 23° 43′ 20″ north latitude, and 90° 26′ 10″ east longitude. The estimated population of the city in 1867, as given by Mr Clay in the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," was. 51,636. In 1872, it was ascertained by the Census to amount to 69,212. A further account of the city, with fuller details as to population, will be given on a subsequent page.

(2.) Náráinganj, situated on the west bank of the Lakhmiá river, in latitude 23° 37′ 5″, and longitude 90° 32′ 10″. In 1838 the population of the town was estimated by Dr Taylor at 6252; in 1867 it contained an estimated population of 9400 souls, inclusive of Madanganj, which is situated on the opposite side of the river, but which in reality forms a part of Náráinganj. Its population, as ascertained by the Census of 1872, amounted to 10,911 souls. This town will also be again mentioned on a subsequent page.

(3.) Mánikganj, situated in latitude 23° 52′ 45″, and longitude 90° 4′ 15″, is an extensive town, containing a population in 1872, according to the Census Returns, of 11,542 souls.

(4.) Kápásiá, situated in latitude 24° 6′ 15″, and longitude 90° 36′ 40″; estimated population in 1871, 3856 souls.

(5.) Nayán Bázár, situated in latitude 24° 16′ 30″, and longitude 90° 40′ 30″; estimated population in 1871, 2144 souls.

(6.) Rájábárí Jai Náráyanpur, situated in latitude 24° 6′ 0″, and longitude 90° 32′ 23″; estimated population in 1871, 2120 souls.

(7.) Kalákapá, situated in latitude 23° 39′ 23″, and longitude 90° 10′ 45″; estimated population in 1871, 2051 souls.

(8.) Gobindpur, situated in latitude 23° 39′ 30″, and longitude 90° 10′ 8″; estimated population in 1871, 2107 souls.

(9.) Gálimpur, situated in latitude 23° 38′ 18″, and longitude 90° 14′ 7″; estimated population in 1871, 2819 souls.

(10.) Aglá Chaukíghátá, situated in latitude 23° 38′ 45″, and longitude 90° 14′ 8″; estimated population in 1871, 4010 souls.

(11.) Narishá, situated in latitude 23° 33′ 30″, and longitude 90° 10′ 37″; estimated population in 1871, 4923; ascertained population in 1872, 5645 souls.

(12.) Jaipárá, situated in latitude 23° 37′ 0″, and longitude 90° 9′ 30″; estimated population in 1871, 2857 souls.

(13.) Máthait, latitude and longitude not ascertained; estimated population in 1871, 2949 souls.

(14.) Káolipára, s
15′ 30″; estimated p
(15.) Siddhiganj, s
33′ 30″; estimated p
(16.) Hásárá, situ
20′ 58″; estimated p
in 1872, 5707 souls.
(17.) Sholaghar, s
90° 20′ 10″; estimat
population in 1872,
(18.) Rám Krishn
tude 89° 57′ 55″; es
(19.) Sutálari, situ
0′ 45″; estimated po
(20.) Nayábári, sit
3′ 30″; estimated po
(21.) Sonárang, si
29′ 45″; estimated p
(22.) Sábhár, situa
17′ 10″; estimated p
(23.) Dhámrái, sit
14′ 55″; estimated p
(24.) Simliá, situa
55′ 15″; estimated p
(25.) Rájnagar, rec
tude 23° 18′ 15″, an
in 1871, 6365 souls.
(26.) Larikul, rece
tude 23° 17′ 55″, and
1871, 2228 souls.
(27.) Siddhá, recen
23° 9′ 52″, and longi
2335 souls.
(28.) Chárpaiátulí,
mated population in
(29.) Panch Char,
latitude 23° 24′ 0″, a
in 1871, 3050 souls.
(30.) Binodpur, re

tude 23° 13′ 22″, and longitude 90° 19′ 8″; estimated population in 1871, 5850 souls.

(31.) Umedpur, latitude and longitude not ascertained; estimated population in 1871, 2500 souls.

(32.) Gopínáthpur, situated in latitude 23° 44′ 45″, and longitude 89° 50′ 18″; estimated population in 1871, 2500 souls.

The Census of 1872, however, disclosed a considerably larger town population, and returned sixty-nine villages and towns as containing upwards of two thousand inhabitants. The District Census Report thus classifies the villages and towns:—There are 2438 small villages each containing less than two hundred inhabitants; 1539 villages or small towns of from two to five hundred; 734 from five hundred to a thousand; 236 from one to two thousand; 48 from two to three thousand; 12 from three to four thousand; 2 from four to five thousand; 2 from five to six thousand; 2 from six to ten thousand; 2 from ten to fifteen thousand; and one with upwards of fifty thousand inhabitants. The foregoing gives seven towns or villages as containing upwards of five thousand inhabitants, whereas the Census Return only separately enumerates six. The explanation is, that one of the places returned as containing upwards of five thousand inhabitants does not consist of a single town, but is a collection of villages (*mauzás*) grouped together, and consequently was not entered by the Census Report of 1872 in the list of towns.

The Collector does not think that there is any tendency on the part of the people to gather into towns or seats of commerce and industry. It is only of late years, since the great extension in the trade in jute and country produce, that Dacca City has shown signs of recovery from the ruin which had befallen its cotton manufactures and fabrics. The population of the town is now slowly increasing, as is also that of Náráinganj. The Collector reports that ample spare land still exists in the District, and that at the present day no important branch of manufacturing industry attracts people to the towns. In 1871, the Magistrate had no means of ascertaining the exact proportion of the agricultural and non-agricultural communities, but he was of opinion that at least eight-tenths of the total population of the District derive their entire livelihood from the soil. It must also, however, be borne in mind, that even among the trading class, the greater portion also cultivate a little land, although the foregoing estimate includes them among the non-agriculturists.

The Census Report divides the adult male population of the District into 300,704 agriculturists, and 248,738 non-agriculturists. The number of non-agriculturists is much too high, and is probably accounted for by the same reason as that given in the Collector's former estimate, namely, that all people who do not derive their sole means of livelihood from the land are entered as non-agriculturists.

DACCA CITY. — The principal town and Civil Station of the District, as well as the Headquarters of the Commissioner of the Division, is the city of Dacca, situated on the north bank of the Burígangá river, in north latitude 23° 43′ 20″, and east longitude 90° 26′ 10″, about eight miles above the confluence of the Burígangá with the Dhaleswarí river. The following brief description of the city is condensed from Taylor's "Topography of Dacca" (pp. 86-98). The city is bounded on the east by a low alluvial plain which extends to the Lakhmiá river, and on the north and north-west by a tract of jungle interspersed with Musalmán cemeteries and deserted gardens, mosques and houses now in ruins. During the rains, the lower levels of this portion of the environs are inundated to a depth of many feet, and the town is completely insulated by a labyrinth of creeks and morasses that join the Burígangá and Lakhmiá. The town itself is built on the bank of the river, along which its streets, bázárs, and lanes extend to a distance of four miles in length, and about a mile and a quarter in breadth. It is intersected in its interior by a branch of the Dolái Creek. The *Chauk*, or market-place, lies at the west end of the town, and near the river bank. It is a square of pretty large dimensions, surrounded by mosques and shops. The open space in which the bázár is held is confined within a low wall, with a carriage road round it. The numerous streets which intersect the town are extremely narrow and crooked, and only a few are wide enough for wheeled conveyances. The style of architecture is the same as that of other towns in Bengal. The houses facing the streets are generally very narrow, and from one to four stories in height. In parts of the city inhabited by particular castes, such as the weavers' and shell-cutters' bázárs, where building ground lets at a high rent, many of the four-storied houses have a frontage of only eight or ten feet, while the side walls, unperforated either by doors or windows, run back to a distance of twenty yards. The extremities of these buildings are roofed in; the middle

part of the dwelling is left open, and constitutes a small court. The two principal streets of the city cross each other at right angles. One extends from the Lál-bágh palace to the Dolái Creek, and is upwards of two miles in length; it runs at a little distance from, and nearly parallel to, the river, and has branch streets leading to the *ghâts* or landing-places. The other street leads to the cantonments and the suburbs on the north of the town; it is about a mile and a quarter in length, and considerably wider and more regularly built than the former one. At the junction of these streets there is a small open space, which is laid out in the form of a square with a garden in its centre; and in the vicinity of this square, and along the banks of the river for a distance of about half a mile, are situated the English Factory, St Thomas's Church, and most of the houses of the English residents. These houses are generally large and well built, and give the town a rather imposing appearance when viewed from the south. In the Armenian and Greek quarters of the town there are also several large brick-built houses, but most of them are falling into ruin.

Of the old fort of Dacca, erected by the Nawáb Islám Khán, in the reign of the Emperor Jahángír, no vestiges remain, and the jail is built on a portion of its site. The principal public buildings, erected by subsequent Governors, and now in ruins, are the Katrá and the Lál-bágh. The former was built by direction of Sultán Muhammad Shujá in 1645, about half-a-mile to the eastward of the Lál-bágh, in front of the *chauk* or market-place, and fills up a considerable portion of the space between that square and the river. It presented on the side next to the Burígangá an extensive front, having a lofty central gateway, flanked by smaller entrances and by two octagonal towers, which rose to some height above the body of the building. The palace of the Lál-bágh was commenced by Sultán Muhammad Azím, the third son of the Emperor Aurangzeb, and was left by him in an unfinished state to his successor in the government. It was built in a quadrangular form, and enclosed a considerable extent of ground. It originally stood close to the Burígangá, but there is now an intervening space between it and the river covered with huts and trees. The walls on the western side, and the terrace and battlement towards the river, are of a considerable height, and present a commanding aspect from the water. These outworks, with a few of its gateways, the audience hall, and the baths, are the only parts of the building that survived in 1839. Since then their

dilapidation has made rapid strides; but even in ruin they still show the extensive and magnificent scale on which this princely residence was originally designed. Shaistá Khán, the successor of Sultán Muhammad Azím, appears never to have completed the structure. When Tavernier visited Dacca, about the year 1666, the Nawáb was residing in a temporary wooden building in its court. He afterwards erected within its walls a mausoleum to the memory of his daughter, the wife of Sultán Muhammad Azím. The inner apartment of this structure, containing the tomb, is built of marble and *Chanár* stone, surmounted with a fine dome; the passage surrounding it being divided into compartments embellished with mosaics. Most of its decorations, however, together with the aqueducts that supplied its fountains, have long since been destroyed. The English Factory appears to have been built about 1666. The central part of the building was used as a court for some time, but on its falling into a state of ruin it was pulled down about 1829 or 1830, and the only portion of the building that remained in 1839 was the outward wall. The French Factory, an extensive building on the bank of the river, was repaired and converted into a dwelling-house, and in 1839, when Dr Taylor wrote his book, was occupied by a native gentleman. Of the Dutch Factory there are no traces existing except the walled terrace on which it stood. The French and Dutch Factories were taken possession of by the English in the years 1778 and 1781 respectively.

The town of Dacca first sprung into political importance between 1608 and 1612. Prior to that time the eastern capital of the Mughul Provincial Administration was Sonárgáon. But in order to check the depredations of the Maghs and the rebellions of the Afghans, it was found necessary to remove the seat of government of Bengal from Rájmahal to Dacca, where the Nawáb Islám Khán erected a fort, increased the strength of the fleet and artillery which had been established by the Emperor Akbar, and changed the name of the town to Jahángírnagar or Jahángírábád. During the time of the Mughul government, the city was under the jurisdiction of a Magistrate (*Faujdár*) and six *ámíns*. The police consisted of these officers with eighty peons, fifty horsemen, and fifty armed guards. All had residences assigned to them, and were paid chiefly by grants of land. Besides the Civil and Criminal Courts, there was also an officer called Ittisáb, who exercised a good deal of authority.

He had the superintendence of weights and measures, settled disputes, and imposed fines and corporal punishment on offenders. The other officers, besides the Nawáb and Finance Minister, whose jurisdiction extended beyond the city, were the Kází, Kánúngo, and Wakáianigár. The duty of the latter officer was to report daily to the Emperor all that occurred in the public departments, and to superintend the transmission of despatches and official correspondence. The public establishments consisted of the fleet (*náoárá*), comprising seven hundred war-boats and a number of State barges, the artillery, and the Mint. The falling off of the Dacca trade took place as far back as 1801. Up to that year the annual advances made by the East India Company and private traders for Dacca muslins were estimated at over £250,000. In 1807 the Company's investments had fallen to £59,590, and the private trade to £56,020. In 1813 the private trade did not exceed £20,590 in value, and that of the Company was scarcely more considerable. Four years later the English Commercial Residency was altogether discontinued. At the present day the contracted limits of the town, its reduced and impoverished population, the ruined and abandoned habitations that are to be seen in every direction, all indicate a period of prosperity and affluence long passed away. Dr Taylor states that in 1800 the population of the city was 200,000; in 1823, Bishop Heber estimated it to contain 90,000 houses and 300,000 inhabitants. This must have been a very excessive estimate, as in 1814 the police-tax was only levied on 21,361 houses, and in 1830 a census of the town disclosed a population of 66,989, and 10,708 houses. The city still continued to decline, till the trade in jute and country produce began to make up for the loss of its cotton manufactures. In 1867, according to the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," the population was estimated at 51,636 only; in 1872 it was ascertained to amount to 69,212. The Census Report gives the following details of the population of the city:—Hindus, males 20,102, females 14,331; total 34,433. Muhammadans, males 17,022, females 17,253; total 34,275. Christians, males 258, females 221; total 479. Persons of other religions, males 13, females 12; total 25. Grand total of all denominations, males 37,395, females 31,817; total 69,212. The rate of municipal taxation is 1s. 5¼d. per head of the population.

NÁRÁINGANJ is, after Dacca city, the town of next importance in

the District. It is situated on the western bank of the Lakhmiá river, at its confluence with the Dhaleswarí, and with its bázárs extends for about three miles along the river. The town also includes Madanganj, a little lower down on the opposite side of the river. It is in reality a portion of the Náráinganj mart, and was established by the merchants of that place, who were pressed for space in the town. In the vicinity of the town are several forts, built by Mír Jumlá, and almost opposite stands the Kadam-Rasúl, a place of some antiquity, and in great repute among pious Musalmáns in this part of the country. A stone with the impression of the Prophet's foot upon it is kept in a small mosque surrounded by the huts of religious mendicants, who live on charity bestowed by pilgrims who come to worship this relic. Náráinganj is distant from Dacca about nine miles by land, and about sixteen or eighteen miles by water. It possesses steam communication with Calcutta, Assam, Silhet, and Káchár, and is a great mart for country produce, as also a depot for boats and boatmen engaged in the inland trade. Within the last fourteen years the trade in country produce has considerably increased, in spite of the rivalry of the great Sirájganj mart on the banks of the Jamuná in Pabná District. Jute is largely imported from Tipperah and Maimansinh, packed at Náráinganj and sent to Calcutta. In 1838 the population amounted to 6252; in 1871 it contained about 6400, and the town of Madanganj, on the opposite side of the river, about 3000 souls. The Census of 1872 disclosed a total population of 10,911, made up as follows:—Hindus, males 3685, females 1515; total 5200. Muhammadans, males 3405, females 2289; total 5694. Christians, males 11, females 6; total 17. Grand total of all denominations, males 7101, females 3810; total 10,911. Rate of municipal taxation, 9¾d. per head of the population. Lat. 23° 37′ 5″ N.; long. 90° 32′ 10″ E.

MÁNIKGANJ, the headquarters of the subdivision of the same name, is the next place of importance, and is situated on the west bank of the Dhaleswarí river, in latitude 23° 52′ 45″, and longitude 90° 4′ 15″. The bázár extends over an area of about two square miles. The only means of communication is by boat, except in the dry season, when a horse may be ridden across country. The chief articles of trade are mustard-oil and tobacco, imported from Rangpur and Kuch Behar, and sent to Náráinganj and Calcutta. I have not been able to obtain any previous estimates of the population, but in 1872 it was ascertained to amount to 11,542 souls, made up as

follows:—Hindus, males 3177, females 3204; total 6381. Muhammadans, males 2571, females 2588; total 5159. Christians, *nil.* Other denominations, males 2, females *nil.* Grand total, males 5750, females 5792, total 11,542. Rate of municipal taxation, 7½d. per head of the population.

MUNICIPALITIES.—There are three Municipalities in the District. In 1870 the receipts and expenditure of the Dacca Municipality were as follows:—revenue £5162, expenditure £5340. In 1872, the Census Return gives the gross Municipal income at £5021, 8s., and the gross expenditure at £5000; rate of Municipal taxation per head of the population, 1s. 5¼d. The District Municipal Improvement Act was introduced in Dacca on the 1st August 1864, and since then important reforms have been made in the sanitary condition of Dacca, and several works of public utility been carried out. At Náráinganj, the Municipal revenue amounted in 1870 to £35, 14s., and the expenditure to £25, 8s.; in 1872, the total Municipal income was returned at £449, 6s., and the expenditure at £400; rate of Municipal taxation, 9⅞d. per head of the population. At Mánikganj, the Municipal revenue amounted in 1870 to £377, 2s., and the expenditure to £333, 4s. In 1872, the total Municipal revenue was £363, 2s., and the expenditure £300; rate of Municipal taxation, 7½d. per head.

PLACES OF HISTORICAL INTEREST.—The following brief description of the remarkable places in Dacca is condensed from the account given in Dr Taylor's work.

BIKRAMPUR; celebrated as the ancient seat of government under the Hindu Kings of Bengal, from the reign of Vikramáditya up to the time of the overthrow of the dynasty by the Musalmáns. The place where the Hindu princes resided is still pointed out at Rámpál, a little to the west of Firinghi Bázár. The site of the palace of King Ballál Sen consists of a quadrangular mound of earth, covering an area of about three thousand square feet, and surrounded by a moat about two hundred feet wide. There are no traces of buildings within this enclosed space, but in its vicinity, and in the country for many miles around, mounds of bricks, and wall foundations at a great depth below the surface, are met with, and were formerly used as building materials for the construction of houses in the city. Near the site of Ballál Sen's palace there is a deep excavation called Agnikunda, where it is said the last Hindu Prince of Bikrampur and his family burned themselves on the approach of the Musalmáns. Tradition relates that the

Prince, when he went out to meet the invaders of his territory, carried with him a messenger pigeon, whose return to the palace was to be regarded by his family as an intimation of his defeat, and a signal to put themselves to death. It appears that the Prince gained the victory, but unfortunately, while stooping to drink from the river after the fatigues of the day, the bird escaped from his garment in which it was concealed, and flew to its destination. The Rájá hurried home, but arriving too late to avert the consequences of the unhappy accident, he cast himself upon the funeral pile, still smoking with the ashes of his family, and thus closed his dynasty. The large Rájnagar temple on the banks of the Ganges, in the Fiscal Division of the same name, is also an object of interest, and in 1870 was reported to me as in danger of being washed away by the river.

SONÁRGÁON, the ancient Muhammadan capital of the District, now called Painám, is situated about two miles inland from the Brahmaputra Creek, in a grove of areca, tamarind, mango, and other trees, which completely hide the village from view until within a few yards of it. In the dry season it is approached by narrow winding footpaths, but during the rains it is partially inundated, and is almost inaccessible except by small boats, or by elephant or on horseback. The village, which has a bad name for unhealthiness, consisted in 1839 of two narrow streets of straw huts, and some well-built brick houses of two and three stories high. Surrounding it is a deep muddy ditch, originally excavated as a moat. Upon an old bridge across the ditch are the remains of a gateway, which in former times was closed every night, and no person allowed either to enter or leave the place till the following morning. In the vicinity of the village are the ruins of several mosques and hamlets, probably residences of the early Musalmán Governors. Dr Hamilton, who visited the District some years before Dr Taylor wrote his work, was informed by the natives that the ancient Sonárgáon had been carried away by the river, and that it had stood on the opposite side of the Meghná. Dr Taylor believed this to be a mistake. He says that in the vicinity of Sonárgáon there had been no encroachment of the river, but, on the contrary, an accession of soil by the filling up of the Brahmaputra Creek, which was originally the main channel of that river. The city on the opposite side of the Meghná was not Sonárgáon, but Srípur, which stood in Bikrampur Fiscal Division, and was destroyed by the Kirtinásá river. Sonárgáon, although celebrated as a seat of

trade, and the Musalmán metropolis of Eastern Bengal, does not appear to have ever had any pretensions to architectural grandeur. Fitch, who visited the place in 1586, gives the following account of it:—"Sinnergan is a town six leagues from Serripur, where there is the best and finest cloth made in all India. The houses here, as they be in most parts of India, are very little, and covered with straw, and have a few mats round about the walls, and the door to keep out the tigers and the foxes. Many of the people are very rich. Here they will eat no flesh, nor kill no beast. They live on rice, milk, and fruits. They go with a little cloth before them, and all the rest of the body is naked." In 1839, when Dr Taylor wrote, the weaving of muslin was still the chief occupation of the inhabitants, and in this the village maintained the same reputation which it enjoyed in the time of Abul Fazl and Fitch. A great proportion of the weavers were Musalmáns, engaged in manufacturing the *jámdání* or flowered fabrics, a considerable quantity of which was annually exported to different parts of the country.

FIRINGHI BÁZÁR, situated upon a branch of the Ichhámatí, is noted as the place where the Portuguese first settled in the District during the governorship of Shaistá Khán. They were mostly persons who had deserted from the service of the Rájá of Arákán to that of Husain Beg, the Mughul general besieging Chittagong, which at that time (1663) belonged to Arákán. Firinghi Bázár was once a place of considerable size, but from the period of the decay of the Dacca trade it has dwindled down to a small village; in 1839 it still contained a few large brick houses.

IDRAKPUR, also situated on the Ichhámatí river, south of Firinghi Bázár, contained in 1839 the remains of a circular fort built by Mír Jumlá, one of the Governors of Bengal during the reign of Aurangzeb, and also several brick buildings and *ghâts*, where probably the river dues or customs of Bikrampur Fiscal Division were levied, within which it is situated.

BHÁWÁL, or NÁGARÍ, a village in the Fiscal Division of the same name, situated in latitude 23° 59′ 35″, and longitude 90° 27′ 50″. In 1839 it consisted of about five hundred houses, almost entirely inhabited by Christians of Portuguese descent. A Roman Catholic mission owned Bháwál and the surrounding villages, the whole constituting an estate of considerable extent and value.

SÁBHÁR, situated on the northern bank of the Burígangá, was the capital of the Bhuiyá Rájá Harischandra. In 1839, the only trace

that remained of his residence was a heap of bricks and earth overgrown with jungle.

DHÁMRÁI, situated on the Bansí river, near its junction with the Burígangá, and, as late as 1839, one of the principal manufacturing villages of the District. Ganakpárá, Ghori, and Gariápárá are also shown in Rennel's map of the last century as places of considerable size. Dr Taylor states that they were the fortified settlements of the Afgháns, who, after their defeat in the interior of Bengal by the Mughuls, retreated to this eastern part of the country. A few years before 1839 a part of the walls, with several lofty gateways and mosques, were to be seen, but they have been since completely swept away by the river. It is said that Islám Khán, when transferring the seat of government to this part of the country, selected Ganakpárá for its site; but finding the surrounding country was low, he dismantled the fort of its guns and made Dacca the metropolis. In the vicinity of Dhámrái, Dr Taylor states there was a village called Pathántalí, still inhabited by the descendants of the Afgháns.

AT DURDURIÁ, situated upon the banks of the Banar, about eight miles above the village of Ekdálá, are found the remains of a strong fort, and opposite to it the foundations of a town, both of which, it is said, were built and occupied by the Bhuiyá Rájás. Dr Taylor states that the fort is laid out in the shape of a crescent, bounded by the river. The outer wall is composed of red earth intermixed with clay, and in 1839 was twelve or fourteen feet high. It is upwards of two miles in circuit, and is surrounded by a moat about thirty feet broad, but now filled up with earth washed away from the wall and adjacent ground. At some distance within this rampart there are traces of a second defence of a similar construction; and further on are the remains of a brick-built wall, the extent and figure of which are distinctly marked out by a ridge of earth and loose bricks, and by the foundations of the wall. Like the outworks, it forms the segment of a circle surrounded by a ditch. This enclosure, or citadel, as it appears to have been, has three openings into it, and contains the sites of two buildings, which are somewhat elevated and stand close upon the banks of the river. The southern site consists of a circular mound of bricks, and appears to be the remains of a tower surrounded by a wall with four bastions, the foundations of which are still visible. The figure of the northern site is not so well defined;

it exhibits two square elevations, and beyond them the remains of a tank were visible. The fort is known among the natives by the name of the Ráni-bárí, and is said to have belonged to Rání Bhabání, the last of the line of Bhuiyás, who occupied it at the time of the Muhammadan invasion. Of the city on the opposite side of the river, the only vestiges existing in 1839 were mounds and loose bricks scattered over the surface of the plain. They covered a considerable extent of ground. About two miles inland there are two magnificent tanks, said to have been dug by the Bhuiyá Rájás, of great depth, and in all probability are supplied by springs. Several forts survive at Idrakpur, Hájíganj, Sonákándí, and Sábhár, all of which were constructed by the Muhammadans to resist the invasions and raids of the Maghs and Portuguese.

THE MATERIAL CONDITION OF THE PEOPLE has considerably improved within the last ten years, and particularly that of the cultivating classes. This is partly owing to the increased prices of produce, but is also very greatly due to the increase in the cultivation of more valuable crops. The trade of Eastern Bengal has received an enormous impetus by the introduction of jute and saf-flower, and by the extended cultivation of oil-seeds; and the Collector states that the benefits to the District are only just beginning. The only persons who do not share in the general increased prosperity of the District are those with fixed incomes, such as subordinate landlords (*tálukdárs*), for the rise of rent has been by no means proportionate to the rise in prices of food and wages; and Government servants and others who depend upon a regular fixed salary.

THE DRESS of a well-to-do shopkeeper consists of (1) a *dhuti*, composed of a long piece of Manchester cloth, about fifteen feet long and three and a half feet broad; it is wound round the waist, and hangs down to the ankles; (2) a *chádar*, a muslin or cotton sheet about nine feet in length; (3) *pirán*, a coat newly introduced into fashion, made of long cloth; (4) *banát*, a piece of broad woollen cloth about nine feet in length, and worn as a shawl in winter only; (5) *gámchá*, a napkin or handkerchief; (6) *málá*, a necklace of wooden beads worn only by the Hindus; (7) *jutá*, shoes, generally of Dehli or local manufacture, but some of the young men wear shoes made in the English fashion; (8) *kharam*, wooden sandals. Dacca *dhutis* and *chádars* are sometimes very valuable, and made of

fine muslin, the price in the town ranging from 4s. to £5 each. The dress of a female of the shopkeeping class consists of a *sári*, a cloth thrown over the body and covering the head. Formerly this dress was made of country stuff, but of late years English manufactured cloth with a printed border has come into fashion. The ornaments worn by them are gold nose-rings (*nath* and *beshar*); necklaces of gold beads (*dánd*); silver armlets (*kálsi*), bracelets (*bálá*), anklets (*kháru*); silver waist-chain (*got*). The dress of a Hindu widow is of English cloth without any coloured border, and she does not wear any ornaments. Children of a well-to-do shopkeeper are usually dressed in a waistcloth made of country cloth, a muslin or cotton sheet, and sometimes a coat and shoes. As a bed-covering in winter the family generally use quilts stuffed with cotton. With the exception of shopkeepers who live in the city or the large towns, the washing of the clothes is generally done by the females of the family.

The dress of an average cultivator is of a much cheaper description, and consists of (1) a waistband (*dhuti*), either country-made or of coarse English manufacture, from six to nine feet in length, but seldom reaching below the knees; (2) a handkerchief or napkin; (3) a thick cotton sheet (*giláph*) folded double, and used in winter. The females' dress consists of a thick country-made *sári*. As ornaments, they wear an inferior description of nose-ring (*nath*) and anklets (*kháru*). Hindu females of this class wear shell bracelets (*sankha*); Muhammadan women prefer lac bracelets (*churi*). The children generally go about naked till their ninth or tenth year. Sometimes, but not often, they wear a very small waistcloth. As in the case of the shopkeepers, the women generally do their own washing. The night-covering in winter is a quilt stuffed with rags (*kánthá*), composed of old clothes and rejected household rags. It is preserved with great care, and is never washed.

Dwellings.—The building materials employed in the construction of a house of a well-to-do shopkeeper are of much the same description as those used in the house of an average husbandman. The roofing consists of a framework of bamboo thatched with straw. The posts are generally of bamboo in small houses; but in the larger ones there are usually wooden posts, the number and quality of which vary according to the circumstances of the owner. The beams and rafters are also bamboo, but in some of the larger houses they are constructed of wood. The walls usually

consist of a species of reed called *ikar*, lined internally with a coating of clay mixed with cow-dung, in order to keep out the cold and to diminish the risk of fire. In some of the houses of the wealthier shopkeepers the walls are constructed of a superior description of mats called *maulá* and *dhárá*. The doors are generally made of mats, but wooden doors are frequently met with in the principal house of the dwelling of a well-to-do shopkeeper. A dwelling consists of several separate houses, each of which forms a single room, except in very rare cases, where the apartment is divided by a mat partition. The number of separate houses in a homestead generally indicates the number of rooms occupied by a husbandman or a shopkeeper.

The dwelling of an average cultivator generally consists of four huts, built one on each side of the yard; (1) the *Baraghar*, or principal apartment, where the household work is performed during the day, and where the head of the family sleeps at night; (2) the *Rashuighar*, or cook-house; (3) *Golághar*, or storehouse, and where the other members of the family sleep at night; and (4) the *Dhenksálá*, or shed in which the rice is husked. Each of these houses or apartments is made to serve two or more purposes according as occasion arises. There is no fixed rule regulating the number of houses in a cultivator's homestead. It is not unusual to find less than four houses, and it occasionally happens that a single apartment serves for a sleeping room, a storehouse, and also for cooking purposes. There are no properly constructed outer and inner apartments in the dwelling of a peasant. The sitting-place for the males of the family, and where friends and visitors are received, is either a shady place in the open yard, or in the verandah of the principal apartment. Besides the four houses which form his dwelling, a prosperous agriculturist has generally two sheds, in one of which the cattle are kept at night, and in the other during the day. The homestead of a well-to-do shopkeeper varies from two to six separate houses, according to his needs. Where there are only two houses, the receiving of friends is performed in the verandah of the principal house, but in larger dwellings one of the houses is reserved for the purpose. It often happens in villages where the population is increasing that the extent of raised land available for homestead sites (*bhiti*) has become so contracted as to limit the number of houses, and in such cases three or more persons dwell in apartments which in other parts of the country would only serve for a single man.

THE FURNITURE in the houses both of shopkeepers and cultivators is much the same. The following list, which has been furnished by a native gentleman who fills the post of Deputy-Collector in the District, divides the articles into seven classes, namely—(*a*) Furniture for sitting and sleeping:—(1) *taktaposh*, a wooden bedstead; (2) *kambal*, a blanket; (3) *morá*, a cane or bamboo stool; (4) *satranji*, a striped carpet of thick cotton cloth; (5) *jal chaukí*, a stool or chair; (6) *pátí*, a mat of fine texture; (7) *sap*, another description of mat of not so fine a quality; (8) different sorts of coarse mats; (9) *piri*, a plank seat; (10) *chhálá*, a coarse cloth of jute thread; (11) *kusásan*, a seat made of *kusá* grass; (12) a quilt and pillow stuffed with cotton or rags; and (13) a mosquito curtain is sometimes found in the houses of the wealthier class of shopkeepers. (*b*) Eating utensils:—(1) *páthar*, a stone plate; (2) *thál*, a plate generally of brass or bell-metal; (3) *báti*, a brass cup; (4) *ghati*, a brass water-pot; (5) *páli*, a brass tumbler; (6) *básan*, a crockery plate, used only by Muhammadans. (*c*) Cooking utensils:—(1) *bokná koná*, a brass pot; (2) *kárái*, an iron pan; (3) *raing*, an earthen pot; (4) *pátil*, an earthen pot of smaller size than the above; (5) *sharú*, an earthen pot-cover; (6) *málsá*, an earthen cup; (7) *kalsi*, an earthen water-pitcher; (8) *jhajair*, an earthen vessel for straining water when washing rice; (9) *hátá*, an iron ladle or spoon; (10) *fagari*, a wooden bowl; (11) *málái*, a cup made of a cocoa-nut shell; (12) *dáiler kátá*, a pestal and mortar used for grinding pulses; (13) *khuti*, a small earthen pot for keeping spices; (14) *sil* and *putá*, a flat stone and a muller used in grinding condiments for curry. (*d*) Instruments for cutting or digging:—(1) *hát-dáo*, a large hand-knife; (2) *bati-dáo*, a fish-knife; (3) *saratá*, a nut-cracker; (4) *káchi*, a sickle; (5) *kodál*, a spade; (6) *khantá*, a digging hoe; (7) *kurál*, an axe. (*e*) Miscellaneous implements:—(1) *chongá*, a bamboo ladder; (2) *hok*, a piece of hard wood with a pointed end, used for making holes in the ground when putting stakes round a field; (3) *samati*, a bamboo needle, used in thatching houses; (4) *barsuch*, a large needle; (5) *such*, a small needle; (6) *chár*, an earthen vessel containing fodder for the cattle; (7) *lari*, a stick for driving cows; (8) *ser*, a cane measure containing one ser (two lbs.); (9) *kátá*, a measure for grain, of various sizes; (10) *sichká*, an iron rod or cane twig for cleaning the *hookah* tube; (11) *malliká*, an earthen lamp; (12) *gáchhá*, an earthen stand for the above; (13) *hookah*, a hubble-bubble pipe for tobacco; (14) *kalki*, an earthen bowl for

tobacco, and placed on the top of the *hookah* when smoking; (15) *baithak*, a *hookah*-stand, made either of brass, wood, or earth; (16) *dhenki*, a pedal used in husking rice; (17) *udkhál*, a large wooden mortar; (18) *chhiá*, a mallet or pestle used with the above; (19) *kulá*, a flail; (20) *chimtá*, a pair of tongs; (21) *chálan*, a sieve; (22) *tukri*, a basket for carrying earth; (23) *jhátá*, a broom; (24) *luri patil*, an earthen pot filled with water and mud, used in giving a fresh coating of mud to the floor of the house every morning; (25) *chháti*, an umbrella of cloth or bamboo leaves; (26) *barsi*, a fish-hook; (27) *hochá*, (28) *pálo*, (29) *bajchná*, network traps of bamboo for catching fish; (30) *konch*, an iron instrument for catching fish; (31) *birá*, a stand of straw for putting water-pitchers, &c., on; (32) *kákai*, a comb; (33) *ainá*, a mirror; (34) *khátá*, an account book; (35) *kalam*, a pen; (36) *doát*, an inkstand; (37) *kághaz*, paper. (*f*) Utensils for holding things:—(1) *sinduk*, a large wooden chest; (2) *petará*, a cane box; (3) *jhail*, a small cane box used for keeping the toilet things of females; (4) *máchá*, a bamboo platform for keeping the grain pots; (5) *dol*, a large cylindrical basket made of a species of coarse mat, and used for storing grain; (6) *dulá*, a smaller basket than the above; (7) *matki*, an earthen jar. This is generally buried in the ground, and as it is a receptacle for valuables, some one sleeps over it; (8) *dáli*, a cane basket; (9) *kulsá*, an earthen pot for keeping fire; (10) *támáku dibá*, a bamboo vessel used for keeping tobacco in; (11) *khichá*, a small cotton bag; (12) a net of jute for holding earthen pots of various kinds and sizes; (13) *chhálá*, a sack for carrying or storing grain; (14) *jhákí*, a large bamboo basket; (15) *sáji*, a small bamboo basket. (*g*) Works of art:—(1) *Ganesh*, the idol of Ganesh; (2) *Lakshmír Sárá*, a picture of the goddess Lakshmí; (3) *pat*, pictures of various kinds, mostly of gods and goddesses; (4) *putul*, earthen images of various kinds of animals. All the above articles are never found in the same house; many are possessed only by the shopkeeping class, and others only by agriculturists. The articles mentioned in the last class are of course never found in the house of a Muhammadan.

THE FOOD of a well-to-do shopkeeper consists of rice, pulses, various kinds of country vegetables, fish, milk, sugar, fruits, and different preparations of rice. There is no difference in the description of food consumed by a shopkeeper and that of a peasant, saving that the food of the latter is coarser in quality, and, with the exception of rice, less in quantity. He gets milk only when he possesses a milch

cow, and not always even then, as he sells it. Sugar and fruit are not in very common use. The children in the house of a well-to-do shopkeeper generally have some dried preparation of rice, such as *muri*, *chirá*, and *khai*, with sugar and plantains for breakfast in the morning. A peasant's children eat *pántá*, or rice which is steeped in water all night, together with a little fish or vegetables, and in the absence of this, with plain salt. The average monthly living expenses of a well-to-do household consisting of five persons, viz., three adults and two children, are stated by the Collector to be as follow:—Rice, 246 lbs. or 3 maunds, 9s.; pulses, 20 lbs., 1s. 6d.; salt, 4 lbs., 6d.; oil, 10 lbs., 3s.; fish, 4s.; vegetables, 1s. 6d.; turmeric, 1½d.; chilies, 4½d.; spices, 3d.; betel-nut, 1s.; tobacco, 6d.; sugar, 2s.; milk, 3s.; clarified butter (*ghi*), 6d.; fruits, 1s. 3d.; preparations of rice, 6d.; fuel, 2s.; clothing, 6s.; repairs of house, 3s.; extras, say 6d.; total average monthly expenses, £2, 0s. 6d.

It is not easy to estimate the living expenses of an ordinary husbandman, as he himself raises a great portion of the articles necessary for his own consumption. Rice, pulses, vegetables, onions, chilies, tobacco, or betel-nut are all home productions. Fish, he often catches himself when his work does not call him to the field. The following figures, therefore, only show the amount which he would have to spend if he bought all his requisites in the market. They refer to the same-sized household as that given above:—Rice, 285 lbs., 9s. 6d.; pulse, 16 lbs., 1s.; salt, 4 lbs., 6d.; oil, 4 lbs., 1s. 1½d.; vegetables, 6d.; molassses and sugar, 3d.; turmeric, 1½d.; chilies, 4½d.; onions, 1½d.; betel-nut, 3d.; fuel, 1s.; fish, 1s.; clothing, 1s. 6d.; house repairs, 6d.; extras, 9d.; total average monthly value of living and other necessaries for a cultivator's household consisting of three adults and two children, 18s. 6d. Wheat, except in sweetmeats, is not generally eaten. Many Muhammadans use fermented bread prepared by professional bakers. Musalmáns also eat all kinds of meat except pork, if the animal has been killed according to the prescribed religious manner. Animal food is used very sparingly by the Hindus, but they are allowed to eat pigeons and ducks, and also goat's flesh, if the creature has first been sacrificed to some deity. Some of the lower and poorer classes also eat turtle which abound in the great rivers. *Pán* and tobacco are much used.

The following paragraphs regarding the vegetables, fish, and fruits used as food are quoted from Mr Clay's Report in the "History and

Statistics of the Dacca Division" :—"In the city, English vegetables are sold in the bázár, and are much prized among the richer classes. Chárá-punjí potatoes command a ready sale, and a superior sort, grown near Kolátiá Hát in the north-west of Dacca, are procurable at certain seasons. Native vegetables are generally cooked with *ghi*, mustard, oil, or a mixture of it and *til* oil, salt, capsicums, acid fruits, *nim* leaves, &c. A variety of gourds, tuberous roots, and other vegetables are consumed by the natives under the general denomination of *tarkári*. There are no English equivalents for most of the native names, and it seems useless to reproduce them. Every native adds about 1½ *káchhás* (6 drachms) of salt to his meal. The poorer classes add a seasoning composed of turmeric (*haldi*), laurel leaf (*tej-pátá*), and red chilies (*lál marich*). Garlic, coriander, and onions also occasionally enter into the composition. Endless varieties of fish are sold in the bázárs. They are cheapest during the cold season, scarce and expensive during the rains. They are generally fried in oil with salt, turmeric, and spices, and eaten with the rice and vegetables. The poorer classes live on the *puti*, small *chingri* (prawn), *naulá*, and a mess consisting of small fry called *pánch mishálí*.

FRUIT.—"The mango is greatly prized, and when in season no meal is considered complete without it. *Kánthál* or jack-fruit ranks next. It is eaten raw, or the juice mixed with milk and drunk in the hot weather. The seeds of the fruit are also eaten, and when properly roasted are not unlike sweet chestnuts. The cocoa-nut (*narikel*) is a favourite fruit, and is much used in the preparation of sweetmeats. The date (*khejúr*) does not flourish in the District, its fruit being small and tasteless. From its juice, however, molasses is made. *Bel* (*Ægle marmelos*) is chiefly drunk in the form of sherbet, and is said to make a very wholesome beverage. Plantains form an universal and a favourite article of diet. The sour plums of the *bhair* are much sought after by the poorer classes. Oranges and sweet limes are imported from Silhet in the cold weather, and are in great demand. In July, pine-apples sell at two for one pice, or a farthing. Papayas, guavas, cucumbers, water-melons, &c., find a ready sale. From April till July, the seeds of a water-plant called *makáná* (*Euryale ferox*), peculiar to Eastern Bengal, are sold extensively in the bázárs. The kernels of the seeds consist of starchy matter. They are eaten alone, or with milk and sugar. The inhabitants of Dacca are singularly partial to this tasteless fruit, of which, when

cheap, four or five seeds cost one pice. The *singárá* nut, though less common than in Hindustán, sells here at one pice per pound. Large quantities are sold towards the beginning of the cold season."

AMUSEMENTS.—I also reproduce the following account of the amusements and games of chance, sport, &c., of the people of Dacca District :—"The principal amusements are kite-flying, bird-fights, *nautches*, *lilás* or theatrical representations, cards, and other games of chance. In former times boating was a favourite pastime, and probably originated with the Nawábs, who took great pleasure in this exercise, and had magnificent state barges. In imitation of these, the merchants, weavers, and others kept pleasure-boats fancifully decorated, with their crews dressed in various costumes; and moonlight regattas formed at one time one of the chief amusements of the people. The practice has now died out, and regattas are almost unknown except on special occasions, when they are got up among the natives for the entertainment of visitors by the European residents at the station. Kite-flying is a very general pastime during the cold weather and spring months. The kites are made of coloured paper stretched over a light framework of bamboo, and, as a rule have no tail or tassels like the kites in England. The string is wound on a revolving spindle, and is let out or shortened at pleasure by a rotary motion of the hands. Kite-flying at times becomes a perfect nuisance, and has to be prohibited in the public streets and thoroughfares for carriages. Young men as well as boys engage in it, and evince a skill and dexterity in the management of their kites which would challenge admiration were it displayed in the pursuit of any less unmanly and childish amusement.

"Deer are sometimes caught with nets, and the natives generally, especially the Musalmáns, are fond of shooting, if such a term can be applied to their habit of prowling about in the jungle, and murdering any unlucky beast or bird that gives them a chance of a close shot. Angling is a common pursuit, but it is practised in a clumsy and unskilful manner. The Hindus are fond of fights between rams, *bulbuls* or nightingales, *dahiáls*, and *mainás;* and large sums of money are frequently staked on the event. Other indoor amusements consist of games of chance with dice, cowries, cards, eggs, and cocoa-nuts; while the weavers and other Vaishnavs indulge in *nautches* and *lilás* or theatrical representations of the exploits of Krishna. Among the Hindus the *bchelá* (a kind of violin) is the

common musical instrument, but the European pattern is now much used, and is procurable in all the bázárs. It need perhaps scarcely be mentioned that these instruments are not equal to Cremonas. The *sitár* (a kind of guitar with three strings) is the favourite instrument among the Musalmáns. Their passive amusements are *nautches*, fireworks, cock-fighting, dice, and cards. The above sports and pastimes, requiring, as a rule, no courage or endurance, and little or no physical exertion, are eminently characteristic of the indolent and spiritless nature of the natives of this District, who are, as a body, fair average specimens of the languid population of the Bengal Delta. It must be admitted, however, that some attempt has been made, in the city at least, to introduce a more manly style of amusement among the rising generation; and some of the boys at the Government College may now be seen, during the cold weather, imitating the performances of the European residents at cricket. They do not, however, appear to appreciate or enter into the spirit of the game; and their play is generally of the mildest description."

AGRICULTURE; CEREAL CROPS.—Rice forms the staple crop of the District, the three principal classes being as follow:—(1) *Boro*, or *ropá* rice, subdivided into two varieties, the *boro* proper and *lipá*. The *boro* proper is planted in deep marshy ground, and on the miry edges of newly-formed land (*chars*). The seed is first sown on a plot of moist but high ground; as soon as the young shoots are about a foot high they are transplanted, and planted into the field prepared to receive them. The nursery, in which the seed is first sown, is thus prepared: In the month of October the land is worked, by ploughing or otherwise, until it is converted into mud about two and a half feet deep. The seed meanwhile is subjected to a forcing process. It is enclosed in a bag or basket, and steeped in water for a day, after which the water is drained off and the grain left to dry for another day. A little water is then sprinkled over it at intervals; and as soon as it swells and begins to germinate, the seed is scattered over the surface of the muddy ground. This ground remains wet, and if near the side of a tidal river, is covered with water twice a day. The *lipá* variety is reared substantially in the same way as the *boro* proper, the chief difference being that it is planted in somewhat harder soil. It is so called from the custom of the cultivator to *lipá*, or plaster the ground with a top layer of earth previous to planting. These varieties of rice are sown in December,

January, and February (Paush, Mágh, and Phálgun), and are reaped in April and May (Baisákh and Jyaishtha). Dr Taylor states that this crop yields the largest return, and that the grain is superior in quality to that of either the *áman* or *áus* varieties. Another species of *boro* rice is called *sháitá*, from the fact of being reaped in sixty days after sowing. (2) *Áus*, or autumn rice, is sown on rather high land, and is of rapid growth. It is sown broadcast in March, April, and May (Phálgun, Chaitra, and Baisákh), and reaped in June, July, and August. (3) The *áman*, or cold-weather crop, is the one which is most extensively cultivated in the District. It is sown in low-lying lands of the best description, both broadcast and by dibbling. In the Fiscal Divisions of Mánikganj and Bikrampur it is sown broadcast, but in other parts of the District, such as Ráipurá and Kápásiá, the seed is regularly planted. In the latter localities, the soil is prepared by repeated ploughings from December up to February, the seed being sown after the first fall of rain. This rice is very rapid in growth, and, in swamps in the rainy season, it frequently shoots up twelve inches in twenty-four hours, as the inundation rises. A high and sudden rise of water, however, is apt to overtop the plant, in which case the crop is lost. In general the *áman* rice is sown in March, April, and May (Phálgun, Chaitra, and Baisákh), the same as the *áus* rice, and reaped in November or December (Agraháyan and Paush). This description of rice is said to comprise no fewer than fifty different varieties of grain. (4) *Uri* or *jarádhán* is an indigenous kind of rice found growing in marshes and low-lying grassy tracts. The grain is very small, ten pounds of paddy producing only about one pound of the husked rice. It is gathered for consumption by the poor people only; the rice is said to be of good quality, although inferior to the cultivated sorts. The other cereal crops grown in the District are wheat (*goham*) and barley (*jab*), but are cultivated only to a very small extent, and by a few villages. These are a winter crop; sown in October and November (Kártik), and reaped in March and April (Phálgun).

Green Crops.—Two kinds of millet are grown, *chiná* and *kangni*, both being raised in the low-lying lands after the rains, and reaped in March and April. The pulses cultivated in the District are *matar* (*Pisum sativum*), *kaláí* (*Dolichus pilosus*), *musuri* (*Cicer lens*), *mug* (*Phaseolus mungo*), and *but* or gram. The oil-seeds are *sarishá* (*mustard*), *til* (*sesamum*), and *tisi* (*linseed*). Mustard is

grown chiefly in the northern division of the District, and in parts where the soil is moist, often without any previous preparation of the ground. On the higher sites the land is ploughed. It is sown in September and October, and reaped in January and February. *Til* is most extensively cultivated along the Lakhmiá river, and is frequently raised along with a crop of *áman* rice. It is sown in February and reaped in June and July.

FIBRES.—Cotton was formerly grown extensively in the District, but its cultivation is now much reduced; and since the decline of the fine Dacca muslins, it has almost entirely ceased. It is chiefly raised in the northern part of the District. The following description of the plant and its mode of cultivation is extracted from Taylor's "Topography of Dacca" (1840):—"The material of which the fine Dacca muslins are made is entirely the produce of the District. The plant is an annual, and attains the height of about five feet. It is described by Roxburgh as a variety of the *Gossipium herbaceum*, and is said to differ from the common plant of Bengal in the following particulars:—'1st, The branches are more erect, with fewer of them, and the lobes of the leaves more pointed; 2d, the whole of the plant is tinged with a reddish colour, even the petioles and nerves of the leaves are less pubescent; 3d, the peduncles which support the flowers are longer, and the exterior margins of the petals are tinged with red; 4th, the staple of the cotton is longer, much finer, and softer.' This is the *desí* or indigenous cotton of the District, which has been cultivated in the northern division from time immemorial. Formerly, when this article was more extensively cultivated than at present, there were different shades of quality observable in the staple, which either cannot now be distinguished, or have degenerated into one of an inferior degree. They were known by the names of Phuti, Nurmá, and Bairaít. The cotton of the present day, it is affirmed by the natives, is inferior to what it formerly was. The crops are said to be less abundant, and the fibres, though apparently equally fine and soft, are shorter and more firmly adherent to the seed than the produce of former years. The Dacca cotton, however, notwithstanding the deterioration imputed to it, still ranks as an article of finer quality than the produce of other parts of Bengal. Of late years, small quantities of it have occasionally been exported to the Calcutta bázárs, where it always sells at a higher price than cotton imported from other parts of the country. Two cotton crops are raised in the District; they are gathered in April and

September respectively; but the first yields the finest produce, and is the one chiefly cultivated. The seeds which are used for sowing are carefully picked, and after having been dried in the sun, are preserved in an earthen pot in which oil or *ghi* has been kept, and the vessel, with its mouth stopped up so as to exclude the air, is hung up to the roof of the hut, and over the spot on which the fire is usually kindled. The high lands are selected for this crop, and are ploughed for eight or twelve times, up to September and October, when the seeds are sown. This is done in parallel rows, distant about a cubit from each other, and before the seeds are dropped into the ground they are moistened with water. The cotton plant is liable to injury from hailstorms, heavy rain, and caterpillars. It impoverishes the soil, and the same field never produces successively more than two crops of good cotton. Formerly the ground for cotton was allowed to lie fallow every fourth year, and it appears to be owing to the neglect of this circumstance in the present day that the produce is now inferior in quality to that of former times. A good crop is estimated at eight maunds per *bighá*, or about seventeen and a half hundredweights per acre. The northern division of the District produces the best cotton, especially that portion bordering upon the Meghná and Brahmaputra, in Sonárgáon, Kápásiá, Tok, and Jangalbárí, in which this article was chiefly cultivated in former times. The soil here, it may be remarked, possesses the different constituents that are supposed to be essentially necessary to the formation of good cotton ground in America, and it is perhaps owing to this circumstance that the superiority of the Dacca cotton over that grown in other parts of Bengal may be attributed.

"Baines, in his 'History of the Cotton Manufactures of Britain,' states that 'a mixture of silicious and argillacious earth is the most desirable, with a preponderance of the former;' and more lately it would appear that lime has been found to constitute one of the ingredients. These different earths are present here, especially the silica, which is brought down by the Brahmaputra and renders the lands much drier in this part of the District than in the country bordering on the Ganges. The cotton in the northern division is said to swell less than the produce of other parts of the country. This tendency of the fibre to swell in bleaching is the criterion by which the weavers judge of its quality, but whether it depends on any inherent property in the cotton itself, or on the water used in bleaching, is not known, though there is reason to believe that it

is principally owing to the latter. The thread manufactured at Dhámrái, which was reported by Mr Bebb, the Commercial Resident, to swell the most, is found by the weavers to be equal to the thread of the best factories (*aurangs*), *i.e.*, to swell the least, if bleached in Dacca; but the reverse if the water of Dhámrái be used in the process." A description of the weaving process will be given at a subsequent page, when I come to treat of the manufactures of the District.

JUTE (*pát* or *koshtá*).—A private gentleman in Dacca city has kindly furnished me with the following description of the different kinds of fibre produced in the District:—(1) Karímganj jute, superior in fibre, colour, and length; (2) Bháwál jute has a good length of staple, but is inferior in other respects; (3) Bakrábád jute, rich in colour, possessing a good deal of vegetable oil, and remarkably strong; (4) Bhátiál jute, grown in the Amírábad Fiscal Division; after steeping, it is washed in stagnant water, which renders the fibre weak; it likewise discolours by time, but is of a good length. The following fibres, though not what are commonly known as jute, are sold as such:—(1) *Mestá*, a coarse fibre of a slightly golden colour; native paper is generally manufactured from it; (2) *Michat*, inferior in fibre and colour; also manufactured into paper. (3) *Bidá sundi*, a strong fibre of a pinkish hue, with an excess of vegetable oil, and very heavy. (4) *Mithi*, brown in appearance, strong in fibre, and of very great length. The gentleman who has favoured me with this account is of opinion that this fibre should hold a higher place than jute, and has despatched twenty-seven bales of it to Dundee for the purpose of having its properties tested. (5) *Naliá*, or long reeds; coarse and strong in fibre, and of the same species as *mestá*, but supposed to differ slightly from it. (6) *Rajat*, a very inferior and coarse fibre, growing wild in the jungles. It thrives well in a poor soil, where nothing else could be cultivated, and it is thought probable that this *rajat*, if introduced into the market, would soon draw the attention of rope-makers and gunny manufacturers, especially as it is very durable in water. A sample of it has been despatched to Dundee for trial. The jute trade of Dacca is now very extensive, and the following particulars regarding its cost of production and price are condensed chiefly from the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," the native weights being altered to their English equivalents. The figures for the later years are obtained from special reports. [*See also Accounts of Nadiyá and 24 Parganás.*]

An acre of land will produce on an average an out-turn of about seventeen and a half hundredweights of jute, produced at a cost of about £1, 11s. 6d., made up as follows:—rent, 4s. 6d.; hoeing, 6s.; weeding, 12s.; cutting and washing, 9s. In the year 1855 the average market price at Náráinganj was 4s. a hundredweight. Since then there has been a gradual increase both in price and production. In 1867 the price was 6s. a hundredweight, and rates went up steadily till 1871, when they reached 11s. 6d. a hundredweight for good quality. Last season (1872–73), however, rates for jute were exceptionally low, and were quoted at about half the above rates, or 6s. a hundredweight. Jute, however, passes through several hands before it comes to the Náráinganj market, and the whole of the price is not received by the producer. Some cultivators grow the staple under advances; and as soon as the crop is off the field, it is delivered to the capitalist who has made the advance, and who takes it at the ruling rate, but with enormous interest for his money. Others carry their produce to the nearest village market, and dispose of it to petty dealers who bring it to the principal marts for sale. Transactions between these petty dealers and the actual purchasers are carried on by means of a class of brokers or commission agents. The Jute Commissioners, at present engaged in collecting statistics regarding the cultivation, reported on the 10th May 1873 that the exports of the fibre from Náráinganj, the great jute mart of Dacca, amounted during the last season, 1872–73, to from thirty-five to forty thousand tons (between ten and eleven *lákhs* of maunds), against 21,500 to 25,000 tons during the season 1871–72. The fall in prices has seriously affected the cultivation, and the coming season's crop (1873–74) is estimated to be two-fifths less than that of the last season. I hope to receive the general report of the Jute Commissioners in time to incorporate it with my Statistical Account of Pabná District, within which the great jute mart of Sirájganj is situated.

Hemp (*son-pát*) is cultivated, but not to any great extent now-a-days. The seed is sown in October and November (Agraháyan), and in March and April (Phálgun) the plants are plucked up by the roots, tied into bundles, and macerated in the nearest marsh or river, until the bark and woody parts, by becoming loose, are easily detached from each other. The fibrous part, which constitutes the hemp, is then divested of its mucilage by pouring water over it, and by gently beating it upon a wooden plank. An

acre of good land is estimated to produce about six and a half hundredweights of good clean hemp, the price for which in 1839 was 5s. 5d. a hundredweight. It was formerly produced in this and the neighbouring Districts in large quantities for the use of the British navy, and in 1806 no less than forty-one thousand hundredweights were purchased by the Commercial Resident in Dacca and the surrounding Districts for that purpose The quantity now raised is small; it is seldom exported, but used in the manufacture of fishing-nets.

RHEA.—Another important article of cultivation seems likely to spring up in the District. The soil is said to be perfectly adapted for the growth of Rhea grass, and the following notes on its cultivation and manufacture have been kindly furnished to me by the gentleman to whom I am indebted for the short notice of the different kinds of jute grown in the District:—"I transplanted a few specimens of Rhea in my garden at the end of July; they thrived without any further attention, and five months afterwards were in wild luxuriance, with an average height of five feet. As soon as the roots had gained sufficient strength, they sent forth small shoots around the mother-plant, and they still continue sending forth similar shoots to the present day. I have had recourse to two experiments in attempting to separate the fibre from the stem. 1st, I steeped the plant in stagnant water for twenty-four hours; when the fibre softened, I had it pulled by the finger-nails, but the process left a slimy vegetable matter in the fibre; 2d, to free it from this I steeped the plant in water diluted with potash. This second process freed the fibre from the viscous layer, but at the same time took away that glossy appearance which the first process had left; it also appeared to reduce the Rhea. In the former process I found great difficulty in extracting the fibre from the stem, as the strings from the fibre after soaking become entangled together in one confused mass. There is no doubt that the Rhea will grow in this District without much care or trouble, and become a valuable addition to its products; but in order to carry on these endeavours with success, much fruitless labour would be saved by the importation of a few skilled Chinese well acquainted with the growth and manufacture of this valuable article."

MISCELLANEOUS CROPS.—The following description of the miscellaneous crops grown in Dacca is principally condensed from Taylor's "Topography of Dacca," and the "History and Statistics of the

Dacca Division" :—INDIGO (*see also Nadiyá Account*) is chiefly cultivated on newly-formed alluvial deposits; it is sown in October, and cut in June and July. These are the autumn sowings; but in the northern part of the District the sowing takes place in spring, about February. For indigo cultivation the lands are divided into convenient parcels, and petty native superintendents are appointed to see that the fields are properly ploughed, sown, and weeded, and the plant cut in due time. When cut, the plant is taken to the factory in boats, and steeped in vats until it ferments. The water is then drawn off into a lower set of vats, and beaten by coolies with small paddles until the produce settles at the bottom. The water is then let out, and the granular sediment is passed into a boiler, where it is boiled for about five or six hours, and strained through a strong sheet. The sediment is next put into frames and pressed. The cake thus made is cut up into smaller ones, and put on shelves to dry. The ordinary market price of Dacca indigo in 1867 was returned at £24 a hundredweight. In 1871, the Collector returned the price at from £30 to £32 a hundredweight. SUGAR-CANE is planted in November or December, and cut in February or March of the second year. The Dacca molasses is of an inferior quality, and is entirely consumed in cooking or in the preparation of sweetmeats. The sugar used in the town is imported from other Districts. *Pán*, or betel-leaf, of three varieties, is cultivated in Dacca. It is planted in November or December, and when once grown up, continues to yield leaves during several years. There is a good deal of initial expense in preparing the ground for cultivation and in constructing a shelter for the creeper, but the crop is a very paying one. The betel-nut or *supárí* tree is extensively cultivated in the southern part of the District, and yields a considerable revenue to proprietors of land. It begins to bear about the eighth year, and is most productive from that time up to the sixteenth year, when the produce falls off. A large export trade is carried on in this article with Rangpur, Assam, and Arákán. The cocoa-nut tree (*nárikel*) is very abundant; it bears in the seventh year, the average yearly yield of one tree being seventy nuts, worth at the present day about four shillings, or double what they were quoted at in 1867. Chilies (*lanká*) are grown in considerable quantities, and largely exported to Calcutta. Turmeric (*haldí*) and ginger (*adrak*) are chiefly cultivated in the Fiscal Division of Sonárgáon. Tobacco is raised by the cultivators for their own consumption, and a considerable quan-

tity is imported from Rangpur. Safflower cultivation has extended very much of late years, and is now one of the main exports of the District. The seed is sown in the months of October and November, and the flower gathered in February and March. When gathered, it is put on a mat, and washed and kneaded with the feet. It is then worked up into small cakes and dried. From the seed an oil is expressed which is used for burning. The stalk yields firewood, and its ashes are prized as potash, which the villagers use for washing their clothes. The cultivators are said to be now beginning to adulterate the cakes in order to add to their weight. The average price of the best safflower in 1867 was about £4, 10s. a hundredweight, but its value depends upon the quality. In 1867 Mr A. L. Clay, in his District Report in the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," estimated the cost of sowing and cultivating ten *bighás* (about 3⅓ acres) of land with safflower as follows:—Digging, 10s.; ploughing, £1; seed, 4s.; weeding, 5s.; gathering the flower, £1, 6s.; washing, 16s.; rent, 5s.; total, £4, 6s. Average yield, about 123 lbs., which, at £4, 10s. a hundredweight, would be worth about £4, 19s., leaving a profit of 13s. The foregoing figures, however, do not represent the actual expense of cultivation, but what it would cost if hired labour was altogether employed. In 1873 the average price was officially stated at £8, 4s. *per cwt.*; the profits are now very large, and steadily rising. Produce of Dacca District, 8785 *cwts.* in 1872–73; total exports, 12,080 *cwts.*—(*Calcutta Gazette* of April 16, 1873). Several kinds of gourds and melons, plantains, pine-apples, limes, mango-trees, &c., are cultivated in garden land in the immediate vicinity of the houses.

Rice Cultivation.—No improvement is visible in the quality of the rice grown in the District. The people sow the best kind of rice they can get, or what description they choose, without any intervention or supervision on the part of the superior landlords. With the exception of a few patches of wheat and Indian corn, rice is the only cereal grown. The area of land under rice cultivation is said to have rather decreased of late years owing to the extension of the jute crop, but this decrease is local, and has been to a great extent compensated by new lands in the northern part of the District which have been cleared and brought under cultivation. The following are the names of the rice plant in its various stages:—As seed it is called *bij*; the young plant is called *jálá*; before the

ear appears, *háli;* when full grown, *dhán;* the unshelled rice is also called by the same name; husked rice, *chául;* and boiled rice, *bhát.* The principal solid preparations made from rice are as follows:—*Khai,* paddy slightly parched and then husked, sold at about three farthings a pound; *chirá,* paddy steeped in water and afterwards fried and husked, three farthings a pound; *muri,* paddy boiled and afterwards parched and husked, sold at the same rate. Another preparation called *binni* is sold at threepence a pound. The chief liquid preparation made from rice is *pachwai,* or rice beer, but which is only made for home consumption, and is not sold. It is manufactured by fermenting steeped rice with a substance called *bákar.* For a list of the different sorts of rice grown, see my Account of the neighbouring District of Faridpur.

Area; Out-turn of Crops, &c.—According to the Surveyor-General, the area of the District is 2902 square miles. The Collector, however, returns it at 3217 (*i.e.,* previous to transfers in 1871). Cultivated, 2245 square miles, or upwards of two-thirds of the whole area of the District; lands fallow, or temporarily out of cultivation, 24 square miles; cultivable forest land, 672 square miles; uncultivable area, including marshes, lakes, and rivers, with the exception of the great rivers Meghná and Ganges, 276 square miles. Total, 3217. No statistics exist showing the cultivation of each kind of crop; but the Collector is of opinion that, speaking roughly, in the rains three-fifths of the cultivated area are under rice, one-fifth is fallow, and one-fifth under jute; and that in the dry season two-fifths are under oil-seeds and pulses, two-fifths fallow, and one-fifth under other crops. The best sorts of rice-producing land pay a rent of from 9s. to 12s. an acre, the average rates being for high rice land 4s. 8d. an acre, low rice land 4s. 6d. an acre, and jute land 4s. 4d. an acre. In Bikrampur Fiscal Division, the yield of paddy is from about thirteen to seventeen and a half hundredweights per acre; and in Bháwál Fiscal Division, from twenty-two to twenty-six hundredweights per acre for the best varieties of land. In the former Fiscal Division the rent is regulated by the demand for the land, and in the latter according to its fertility. This land bears only one crop of rice during the year. In Bikrampur paddy sells on an average at from forty to forty-five pounds for 1s., and in Bháwál from forty-five to fifty-five pounds for 1s. In winter, after the paddy crop is reaped, a second crop of mustard-seed and various kind of pulses is raised from the rice-fields. An acre of land generally produces an average of about four and a half hundredweights of mustard, valued

at from 8s. to 9s. 6d. a hundredweight; or from four and a half to six and a half hundredweights of pulses, of the worth of from 3s. 4d. to 4s. 9d. a hundredweight. In Bháwál Fiscal Division there is generally no second crop, but in all other parts of the District it is customary to raise a second crop on the same land after the paddy has been harvested. The average out-turn and value of an acre of two-crop land is stated to be about as follows:—rice, fifteen and a third hundredweights of paddy, value £2, 2s.; mustard, four and a half hundredweights, value £2, 2s.; total, £4, 4s., exclusive of the value of the straw, which would be worth about 9s. more. This average out-turn is very much less than the estimate as given in the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," which is believed to be excessive. But the estimate given here does not include jute or safflower cultivation, the profits from which are greater. The yield of jute is generally seventeen hundredweights per acre, worth about 9s. 4d. a hundredweight; and nearly every husbandman with a farm of five acres has at least a patch of two-thirds of an acre under jute. As before stated, however, the price of jute in the past season (1872-73) was exceptionally low, and only amounted to about 6s. a hundredweight, as reported by the Jute Commissioners.

POSITION OF THE CULTIVATORS.—A farm of above seventeen acres is considered as exceptionally large, and one below three and a half acres as an exceptionally small one. About eight acres would make a comfortable-sized holding, although a single pair of bullocks cannot cultivate more than about three and a half acres of land, as the oxen are very small and weak. A holding of five acres would make a peasant as well off as a petty shopkeeper, and would enable him to live as comfortably as a man with a monthly salary of sixteen shillings. This amount is very little to support a family upon; but a cultivator with five acres of land raises nearly everything necessary for his own support, and the sale of his surplus produce makes him well off. The husbandmen seldom change their holdings, and the same land generally descends from father to son; so that most of the cultivators may be said to have a sort of right of occupancy, although when a dispute occurs with the superior landlord the cultivator generally loses the case. The number of husbandmen who are acknowledged to hold their lands with a right of occupancy, and as such registered in the Courts, is only 214. The cultivators of the *char* or alluvial lands have no right of occupancy, as they frequently change their place of abode. None

of the husbandmen have been acknowledged as possessing a right to hold their lands in perpetuity without enhancement of rent. Dacca is not a District where the Land Law (Act X. of 1859) has been much worked; and in land cases for enhancement in the Courts the cultivator seldom alleges that he holds at a fixed rent, but merely objects to the grounds of enhancement. A statement of the cases and applications under this Act will be found in the administrative portion of this Statistical Account. There are a few cases of proprietors of small estates in the District who own, occupy, and cultivate their hereditary estates without either a superior landlord (*zamíndár*) above them, or a sub-holder (*krishán*) or labourer of any sort under them. A peasant with a middling-sized household of five persons can live comfortably on an income of about £1, 4s., whether in cash or in kind. Most households are supported on a very small amount in cash, and the sum here mentioned is the money value of what a household buying everything would require. The husbandmen, as a rule, are in debt; but not for food or cost of living. It is on account of other expenses, such as marriages, &c., that they get into debt. The present Collector of the District states that he has not personally met with cases of cultivators getting into debt for seed, except in very bad years. Altogether, the position of the husbandmen of Dacca may be taken to be a very fair one, and as a class they are generally well off.

THE DOMESTIC ANIMALS OF THE DISTRICT are oxen, used for agricultural purposes; buffaloes, generally used for their milk; and cows, horses, sheep, goats, pigs, and fowls, reared for food, or as articles of trade. An average cow sells from £1 to £1, 4s.; a pair of oxen from £3 to £3, 10s.; a pair of buffaloes from £6 to £7; a score of sheep £3; a score of kids, £2, 10s.; a score of full-grown pigs from £7 to £8, according to the Collector's Report in 1871.

THE PRINCIPAL AGRICULTURAL IMPLEMENTS are as follows:— Plough (*nángal*); joál (*yoke*); harrow (*mai*); another description of harrow (*áchrá*); clod-crusher (*itábárí*); sickle (*káchí*); spade (*koddáli*). With one plough a husbandman is able to cultivate about five acres of land, but he would require two pairs of oxen for ploughing (see last page). The cattle cost £5 to £6, and the implements about £1, 10s.; the whole representing a capital of from £6, 10s. to £7, 10s.

PLOUGHING commences at sunrise and ceases at noon, during which the two sets of oxen are employed alternately. The rice plant

is cut about three feet from the ear, and is tied up into sheaves of about a span in circumference. It is conveyed to the cultivator's hut either by water, or on a hurdle drawn by cattle, and is usually stacked. The grain is separated from the ear by being trodden out by the cattle. After being winnowed it is dried in the sun, and then stored upon a raised stage of mats and bamboos within the hut. Pulse, mustard-seed, and all the smaller grains, are beaten out with a stick. The husking of paddy is usually performed by means of a large wooden pestle and mortar in the country, and by means of a contrivance worked by a pedal (*dhenki*) in the towns. The boundaries of fields consist of ridges of earth about eighteen inches in breadth, and from two to three feet in height. These are called *áils*, and in the interior parts of the District constitute the only pathways. The elevated fields in villages, on which the more valuable products are raised, are usually separated from each other by ditches and fences of bamboo, rattan, or other thorny plant.

WAGES AND PRICES.—Wages have considerably increased of late years, and as far back as 1837 the causes of it are thus stated in Dr Taylor's "Topography of Dacca":—"The repeal of the duties on the exportation of grain; the abolition of the Arcot currency, which had long pressed as a heavy burden on the agricultural classes, the Permanent Settlement, the rapid decline of manufactures, and the introduction of indigo and safflower as articles of produce for foreign markets, have all contributed to produce an extension of cultivation, and to raise the price of agricultural and common labour considerably above what it was in former times." According to the District Records, ordinary day labourers earned 7s. 6d. a month in 1837, bricklayers, 8s., and carpenters, 15s.; in 1862 the wages of ordinary labourers amounted to 10s. (?), bricklayers, 10s., and carpenters, 18s. per month. In 1871 the price of labour was as follows:—Day labourers from 10s. to 12s., blacksmiths, £1, goldsmiths, £1, 4s., bricklayers, £1, 4s., and carpenters, £1, 6s. per month.

Prices of food have now risen in proportion to the increased rate of wages. In 1823 common rice sold at 2s. 2d. a hundredweight; in 1838 it was as low as 1s. 9d; in 1850 it was 2s. 4½d. a hundredweight; in 1860, 4s. 10d.; and in 1862, 2s. 9d. a hundredweight. The Collector returns the prices in 1871 as under:—Best cleaned rice, 4s. 5d. a hundredweight; common quality, 3s. 9½d. a hundredweight; best unshelled rice, 2s. 4d. a hundredweight; common

quality ditto, 1s. 8d. a hundredweight; wheat, 6s. 2d. a hundredweight; indigo, £30 to £32 a hundredweight; molasses, 10s. 11d. (?) a hundredweight. During the famine of 1866 the price of the best kind of rice rose to 19s. 1d., and that of the coarser description to 13s. 7d. a hundredweight. The following price-current per hundredweight of the more important articles imported or produced in the District is compiled from a statement given at page 121 of the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division." It must be borne in mind that the figures refer to the year 1866 or 1867:—Jute, from 5s. 5d. to 6s. a hundredweight; linseed, 7s. 6d.; mustard-seed, 7s. 2d.; *til*-seed, 6s. 10d.; india-rubber, £4; stick lac, £1, 1s. 4d.; shell lac, £1, 14s. 4d.; seed lac, £1, 8s. 8d.; betel-nut, from 19s. 4d. to £1, 0s. 8d.; tobacco leaf, from 10s. 10½d. to £1, 1s. 9d.; turmeric, 14s. 8d.; cleaned cotton, £3; cotton with seed, £1, 0s. 4d.; dried chilies, 13s. 8½d.; mustard oil, £1, 8s. 8d.; gram, from 5s. to 5s. 9d.; *kalái*, 4s.; *mug*, 6s. 11d.; wheat, 7s. 4d.; barley, 6s. 8d.; Dacca soap, £1, 6s. 8d.; pepper, £1, 13s. 4d.; salt, 13s. 4d.; beeswax, from £5, 1s. to £6; zinc, £1, 16s. 8d.; tin, £4, 6s. 8d.; English iron, 13s. 4d.; Swedish iron, 18s. 8d.; copper, new, £6, 13s. 4d.; copper, old, £4, 13s. 4d.; gunny bags, from £1, 7s. to £1, 10s. per hundred; hides, from £12 to £15, 14s. per hundred.

WEIGHTS AND MEASURES.—The local measures of time are as follow:—60 *anupal* = 1 *pal*; 60 *pal* = 1 *danda*; 2½ *danda* = 1 *ghantá* (hour); 3 *ghantá* or 7½ *danda* = 1 *prahar*; 8 *prahar* = 1 *dibas*, day and night; 7 days = 1 *saptáha*; 15 days = 1 *paksha*; 365 days = 1 *batsar* or year. Gold, silver, spices, medicines, thread, and fine cloth are weighed by the following standard:—4 *dhán* = 1 *rati*; 8 *rati* = 1 *máshá*; 12 *máshá* = 1 *tolá*, equal to 180 grains troy weight. The weights for heavier substances are:—5 *tolá* = 1 *chhaták*; 16 *chhaták* = 1 *ser*; 5 *ser* = 1 *pasuri*; 8 *pasuri* = 1 *man* or *maund*, equal to 82 pounds avoirdupois. Land measure is as follows:—the short measures are called *anguli*, the breadth of a thumb; *háth*, 18 inches; and *nal*, a measure varying from 9 to 11¼ feet. A *rasi* is equal to 120 feet; a *káni* to 1 acre, 1 rood, and 18 perches; and a *khádá* to 5 acres, 2 roods, and 12 perches. Distance has no special local measurement, but is only expressed by the time taken in making a journey.

LANDLESS DAY-LABOURERS.—There is a tendency towards the growth of a distinct class of day-labourers in the District, who neither possess nor rent land. As land gets more scarce, a class

of day-labourers of this description naturally springs up. There is also a number of cultivators whose holdings are not sufficiently large for the support of their increasing families, and who hire themselves out as day-labourers to their wealthier neighbours in the harvest-time. This class of people, however, is not very largely employed. In the case of lands for which help is required in the ploughing, the necessary assistance is given by the co-operation of the neighbours, and not by means of hired labour. Agricultural day-labourers, called *krisháns*, are generally employed at reaping-time. When they are paid in produce, they receive a share of from one-eighth to one-fifth of the crop, according to the nature of their labour. In cases where seed and cattle are supplied by the cultivator, the land is let on what is termed *bhág*, or division tenure. When the crop is ripe it is cut by the *krisháns*, who receive their share for their labour, and the remainder is divided between the owner of the field and the person who supplied seed and ploughing cattle, with the labour up to the time of reaping. The proprietor of the land receives sometimes one-third and sometimes half of the crop after the *krisháns* have taken their share. This, however, may be considered rather as a sort of sub-letting than of cultivation by hired labour. Children are employed in the fields as soon as they are old enough to render assistance to their parents. Women's work is generally confined to the house, but the more elderly among them are occasionally employed in gathering safflower in the field. The case is otherwise, however, with the Buná and Koch women in the Bháwál tract, who are freely employed in field-work in the same manner as the men.

Spare Land.—There is not much spare land in the southern part of the District, but in the Bháwál Fiscal Division in the north the proportion of uncultivated land is very great. This is owing to the jungly character of that tract, and the sparseness of the population. The husbandmen dislike the toil of clearing jungle, but when that is done for them by the Tipperahs or Kochs, they occupy and cultivate the land, and in this manner cultivation in the northern part of the District is steadily increasing.

Land Tenures.—The tenures between the superior landlord and the cultivator are those known as *patní*, *shikmí*, *táluk*, *hawálá*, and *ijárá*, and their subordinate tenures. The *patní* tenure is distinguished from the rest, in so far as it becomes by law summarily saleable for arrears of rent twice in the year. *Shikmí* and *hawálá* are dependent

tenures of a permanent nature, and saleable. The *ijárá* tenure is a temporary lease. With regard to the greater part of the lands in Dacca, the superior landlords (*zamíndárs*) deal directly with the actual cultivators. The former collect the rents directly from the husbandmen, and pay the Government share themselves into the Collectorate. This District, therefore, differs considerably from the neighbouring ones of Bákarganj and Tipperah. The tenures are simple, and there are never more than two middlemen, the *tálukdár* and *ḥawáládár*. Nor does a tendency appear on the part of landlords to create an undue number of those under-tenures which exist elsewhere, and the absence of which tends to the good of the cultivators.

The foregoing is a very brief mention of the different classes of intermediate tenures in the District. It may be well, however, to reproduce the following paragraphs from Mr Clay's Report in the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division," as illustrating the growth of our land system and its many different tenures:—"Under the village system of the Hindus, deductions were made from the produce of land for the support of those who discharged the municipal functions of the community—as, for instance, the headman, the accountant, the village watchman, the schoolmaster, the Bráhman priest, astrologer, &c. The remainder was shared between the king and the cultivator, and the king's share was called *rájaswa*, which is now used to signify *revenue*. This royal share was received in kind or money; and the village headman, who transacted all the business of the community with the Government, was responsible for its regular payment. The collection was probably attended with little difficulty, the king being regarded with superstitious veneration as a supernatural being, from whom the rayat would as soon have thought of withholding his dues as of omitting his daily *pújá* to the gods.

"With the conquest of the country by the Muhammadans, changes were introduced into the system of collection. Officers, removable at will, were appointed to realise the Government demand from the cultivators; retaining for their own benefit any surplus that they were able to exact. These officers were called *zamíndárs*, and appear to have been, as a rule, a rapacious and extortionate class. Enjoying often but a short term of office, they made it their first object to amass as much wealth as possible before giving over charge to the next collector, and under various pretences made exorbitant and extraordinary demands, which came to be known as *abwáb*, *mathaut*,

nazar, &c. The cultivators on their part endeavoured, by every means in their power, to evade payment of rent, and, being hopeless of profit, made no endeavour to improve their lands, but rather tried to keep the cultivation as low as possible.

"When the British Government assumed the *diwání*, they found a system of short-term settlements prevailing, the pernicious effects of which soon became apparent. They found the *zamíndár* in receipt of rent from the cultivators, and occupying in many respects the position of a landlord; it was therefore decided that he was the person to whom Government should look for payment of the land revenue. After much deliberation, the famous Decennial Settlement was drawn up, and, with the sanction of the Court of Directors, was eventually made permanent. Rightly or wrongly, the effect of the revenue system enacted by the Regulations of 1793 has undoubtedly been to constitute the *zamíndár*, to all intents and purposes, a landed proprietor, subject only to the periodical payment of a fixed amount to Government. Any discussion of that much-vexed question, the justice or injustice of the Permanent Settlement, would here be out of place. It is sufficient to observe that, in a financial and fiscal point of view, it was undoubtedly superior to the former system of short settlements, as creating a feeling of security among the landlords, and offering every inducement to extension of cultivation and improvement of estates. The Decennial Settlement was commenced in this District in the year 1791, and was completed in 1794.

"There are no large landed estates (*zamíndárís*) in the District. The largest pays an annual revenue of less than £1500; and there are only four whose revenue exceeds £1000. Of estates on the rent-roll, the number paying revenue of one rupee and under is more than one-tenth of the whole. This is accounted for by the fact that the bulk of the people in the District were in former times public servants, who received small grants of land from Government, or from the *zamíndárs*, or superior *tálukdárs*, seldom for money paid but for services rendered. At the Decennial Settlement they had their lands separately assessed, and formed into separate estates. These are called *khárijá huzúrí*, or independent *táluks*. There are also numerous dependent *táluks* which pay rent or revenue to, or through, the *zamíndárs* and independent *tálukdárs*. An independent *khárijá* or *huzúrí táluk* is land which once formed part of a *zamíndárí*, but has since been separated, and formed into an estate paying

revenue direct to Government. A dependent, or *shámilát táluk*, is land paying revenue through the proprietor of another, the parent estate. A *hawálá* is a tenure of a permanent, hereditary, and transferable nature, subordinate to a dependent *táluk*, and paying rent to the holder thereof. There are a few *nim-hawálás*, or tenures subordinate to *hawálás*, held under nearly the same conditions as the *hawálás* themselves.

"Dependent or *shámilát táluks* are of several denominations, and confer different rights, according to the terms of the deed creating them. A *shikmí táluk* confers a permanent and immutable right of tenure. It is hereditary and transferable, and not liable to variation of rent. A *maurúsí táluk* is hereditary, but not necessarily otherwise transferable. Its rent is liable to variation or not, according to the terms of the original deed. A *mushakashí táluk* is held at a fixed rental, and is hereditary, but not otherwise transferable. *Pattá-i táluks* are tenures held under leases granted by the *zamíndár* or superior landholder. They are not transferable, except by succession, are liable to variation of rent, in the absence from the agreement of any provision to the contrary. The *zamíndár* can resume these tenures on failure of heirs. *Jangalburí tálukdárs* are those who hold land on condition of clearing it of jungle; they have the same rights as the *zamíndárs* in whose estate they are included. *Zar-kharíd tálukdárs* may be mentioned, but they are very rare.

"The following rent-free tenures exist:—*nafarán* and *nánkár*, or lands given to slaves and servants for their maintenance; *chákrán*, lands given to servants as wages; *páikán*, lands given to *páiks* or armed retainers; *debottar*, lands given for the service of the gods; and *brahmottar*, or lands given to Bráhmans or priests on occasions of religious ceremonies. *Pírán* and *chirágán* are lands given to *pírs* or Muhammadan saints, and to defray the expense of illuminating mosques.

"The Regulations of 1793 recognised two classes of cultivators—*khúdkásht* and *páikásht*; the former cultivated lands in their own village, and were called resident cultivators. They could not be ejected, even by a purchaser at a sale for arrears of revenue; but their rent was liable to enhancement, unless they could prove that the rate had been unchanged for more than twelve years before the Permanent Settlement. *Páikásht* rayats, or non-resident cultivators, were mere tenants-at-will, and could be ejected at any time; their rents were of course liable to enhancement. Act X. of 1859 has

abolished these distinctions, and cultivators are now divided into three classes, viz., first, cultivators entitled to hold at fixed rates; second, cultivators with rights of occupancy; third, tenants-at-will."

The Census Report gives the following as the number of persons who derive their living from the soil:—Superior landlords (*zamíndárs*), 1970; large leaseholders (*ijárádárs*), 57; holders of rent-free tenures (*lákhirájdárs*), 57; subordinate landlords (*tálukdárs*), 9333; holders of permanent tenures at a fixed rate of rent (*patnídárs*), 77; cultivators, 280,698; small leaseholders with permanent rights (*hawáládárs*), 1; land stewards or managers (*gumáshtás*), 41; rent collectors (*tahsíldárs*), 2566; village accountants (*patwáris*), 266; holders of lands on a tenure of military service (*páiks*), 56; *zamíndárí* servants, 394; *dafádárs*, 8; *díwáns*, 30; village headmen, 96; managers of estates (*náibs*), 6; total, 295,656. This list only gives those who derive their sole income from land. Nearly every one in the District has a patch of ground, which he either cultivates himself or by means of hired labour. [*See also my Chapter on Tenures at the end of this volume.*]

RATES OF RENT.—The cultivated land in the District may be said to be divided into three classes, namely, (1) *boro* land, in which only rice grows, and the rent of which varies from 1s. 10½d. to 4s. 6d. an acre; (3) *áus* land, on which the autumn rice crop is raised, fetches from 3s. to 6s. an acre; (3) *áman* land, for the cultivation of winter rice, and also suited for the best kinds of crops, is the most valuable description of land in the District, and is assessed at from 4s. 6d. to 9s. an acre. Exceptionally good rice land sometimes rents as high as 12s. an acre.

A cultivator who constructs raised homestead lands (*bhiti*) is charged no rent for three years. Sugar-cane, cotton, safflower, and indigo lands are let at rates which vary in different parts of the country. The rent of *áman* land for sugar-cane cultivation is generally 25 or 30 per cent. more than if it were used for rice cultivation. Lands producing two crops in the year are assessed at about one-fifth more rent than land which only bears one crop; but when any of the more valuable products, such as safflower or cotton, constitute the second crop, the rate is about one-third more. The changes produced on the soil by the rivers occasion a corresponding alteration in the value of the land.

In 1872, the Collector reported to the Bengal Government the rates of rent of lands producing the principal crops in different parts

of the District to b
returns furnished to

List of Rat

Division of District.	Description o
North, ...	High rice land, ing sugar-ca Low rice land, Rice and jut tard, saffow
South, ...	High rice lan crop, Low rice land, Rice or jute la tard, and co ther crops, Date-tree land, Garden land,
East, ...	High rice land- cane and jut Low rice land,
West, ...	High rice lan and cold - crops, Low rice land,

No Records exis
descriptions of land
has been unable t
Permanent Settlem
has been very little
any general enhance
increased amicably,
is only in cases wh
landlord and tenant
too sudden a rise, t
opinion that the g
introduced is abo
this increase has a
statistics of a villag
—*bhiti* land, former

paddy land, formerly 3s. 4½d., 3s., and 2s. 9¼d. an acre, enhanced rate 4s. 3½d. an acre; grass land, former rate 4s. 6d. an acre, enhanced rate 6s. 4½d. an acre.

MANURE is not generally used in the District, and for rice land not at all. A little is used for sugar-cane where the soil is poor, the quantity depending upon the nature of the ground. It is impossible to estimate the cost of manuring an acre of land, for such a thing as the sale of manure is unknown. It simply consists of cow-dung burned. Mustard oil-cake, however, is sometimes used as a manure in the *pán* gardens of Sonárgáon; and in Bikrampur, plantains are manured with the bedding and refuse of cow-houses, and the vegetable or alluvial matter found on the sides of ditches. A weed called *páná*, which grows luxuriantly on the surface of morasses, is sometimes used to manure the roots of betel and cocoa-nut trees. The usual method of enriching ordinary rice land is by burning the weeds and stubble, and sprinkling the ash over the field.

IRRIGATION is only practised to a small extent in the north of the District for rice-fields. The process is as follows:—A small ridge of earth is constructed round the field, and the water is raised by means of a long wooden trough called a *don*. The cost is almost nothing, and consists only of the value of the trough, say eighteen pence or two shillings, and a very small amount of labour expended. Wells are never used for purposes of irrigation. In the southern part of the District, where the demand for land is severe, fields are seldom allowed to remain fallow; but in the northern tract the practice of allowing land to remain fallow and recruit itself exists, although not to any great extent. In this part, if a field is kept continually under cultivation for three or four years, it is generally allowed to remain untilled for one year. Rotation of crops is not practised.

NATURAL CALAMITIES, such as blight, drought, and flood, are common to the District. As causes of blight, two species of caterpillar are very destructive to the rice crop, one feeding on the ears, and the other on the leaves of the plant. There is also a small dark-coloured beetle which commits serious injury. This insect appears suddenly, and generally in large flights; it destroys the grain by squeezing out the milky juice with its fore-arms, leaving the husk empty and flattened. Locusts are rare, and almost unknown to the peasants; however, they made their appearance in the District

in 1866, but did not do much harm. Blights have not occurred on a sufficiently large scale, within the memory of the present generation, as to affect the general harvest of the District. Land crabs commit mischief among the crops by cutting the stalks of the plants, and Dr Taylor records that in 1791 the Fiscal Division of Bozargomedpur and its vicinity suffered so much from this cause, that the payment of revenue to the extent of £4226 was suspended by Government. Hailstorms occasionally do great harm to the summer rice crop; and such is the dread of them, that, according to Dr Taylor, a class of persons find a livelihood by pretending to protect the fields from their effects. A similar class of magicians exist in Central India.

Floods occasionally do serious harm to the crops, and sometimes give rise to great distress among the people. They are caused by heavy rainfalls early in the season, as well as by the rising of the rivers before they enter the District. In 1787–88 a terrible inundation occurred, and was succeeded by the severest famine. The following brief account of the calamity is condensed from Dr Taylor's "Topography of Dacca:"—The rains set in early in the month of March, and continued incessantly up to the middle of July, when the rivers rose to an unprecedented height, and inundated the whole of the country to an extent never remembered before. The streets of Dacca, which in ordinary seasons of inundation are several feet above the highest level of the rivers, were submerged to a depth sufficient to admit of boats sailing along them, while throughout the country the inhabitants were obliged to quit their huts and betake themselves to rafts or raised stages of bamboos. In July the supplies of grain in the city became scanty, and the ruin of the early crops, with the unfavourable prospects of the winter harvest, had the effect of raising the price of provisions from three to four hundred per cent. higher than that of ordinary seasons. The famine reached its height in April 1788, when in many parts of the District there was scarcely any rice procurable, even at the price of threepence a pound. Between nine and ten thousand persons were fed daily by public contribution, but numbers died of starvation. It is estimated that sixty thousand persons perished during the inundation and subsequent famine. The loss of property occasioned by this calamity was very great. The landlords were unable to pay their revenues, and subsequently, from the loss of cultivators and cattle, their lands remained untilled for a considerable time. Several Fiscal Divisions were deprived of three-fourths of their inhabitants, who

either died or emigrated, and the lands were in consequence soon overrun with jungle and infested with wild beasts. Again, in 1833 or 1834, the people say there was a great flood in the District, and that it swept away a large number of animals and destroyed the crops. No account of this inundation, however, is to be found in the District Records. In 1870, also, the water rose very high, and caused considerable destruction to the low-lying lands; but owing to the influences of trade, the good crop in parts which were not reached by the flood, and the abundant cold-weather harvest which followed, there was not much distress among the people. No embankments exist in the District, and the Collector does not think there is any necessity for the construction of such protective works. A regular inundation occurs in consequence of the low character of the deltas of the Ganges, the Jamuná, and the Meghná, of which this District is a portion.

DROUGHTS may arise from the absence of local rainfall, as in 1865. Sometimes the rains set in too late in the season, so that the husbandmen cannot plant their fields at the usual time, and the young shoots are inundated by the rising of the rivers before they are strong enough to withstand it. They cannot force their heads above the water, and so die. At other times the rains cease too early, in consequence of which the *áman* paddy is parched up, and the winter crop fails. Drought, however, unless it is very excessive, is here generally productive of less serious consequences than inundation. The drought of 1865, which preceded the famine of that year, is well remembered in Dacca; but it was not so severe, nor was the distress so great, as in other Districts. No other case of scarcity from drought is spoken of as having occurred within the memory of the present generation. No means are adopted as safeguards against drought. The Collector states that there is a demand in the District for canals for the purposes of internal communication, but not for irrigation. In his opinion, the construction of irrigation canals would present considerable engineering difficulties; and, besides, droughts occur so seldom, that the expense of making them would be thrown away.

COMPENSATING INFLUENCES IN FLOODS AND DROUGHTS.—The proportion of cultivable high to cultivable low lands in the District is but small, and although it is true that in flood years the high lands produce heavier crops than ordinarily, they do not yield so large an out-turn as to compensate for the loss on the lower levels.

Again, in cases of drought, the marshy lands not ordinarily cultivated might yield crops if brought under tillage, but generally it is too late to do this, and even then they would not compensate for the loss in other quarters. Dacca does not maintain its population with its own produce, but depends in a great measure on Maimansinh, Silhet, Tipperah, and Bákarganj for food-importations, and so long as these Districts are safe, there is little fear for Dacca. As an example of this, the Collector mentions that although half the crops of the District failed owing to the flood of 1870, the price of rice the following year was less than it was before the inundation. That gentleman considers that, owing to the increased and improved means of communication, a local famine in Eastern Bengal is now impossible. He states that, with the exception of the year 1866-67, he can find no year previous to 1870 in which a flood, drought or blight, exercised any marked influence on prices within the present century.

FAMINE WARNINGS.—During the height of the famine of 1866-67 the maximum price of grain was, for best cleaned rice, 19s. 1d. a hundredweight, for common rice 13s. 7d. a hundredweight, and for paddy 6s. 9d. a hundredweight. In 1864, before the famine, paddy sold at 2s. 4d. a hundredweight, which is about the same as the present rate; prices have therefore now returned to what they were before the famine. In 1866 the Government undertook no relief operations in the District, nor, in the opinion of the Collector, were any such operations required. Ordinary rice was then 13s. 7d. a hundredweight, and no doubt a few people did die of actual famine, and still more of diseases induced by privation, but the Collector does not consider that the state of things in Dacca ever reached a point at which the interference of Government was necessary. There was great distress no doubt, but Government relief is so extraordinary a measure, and affects the whole country so seriously, that the Collector did not think that the point at which state relief becomes necessary was reached. In his opinion, there would have been but comparatively little distress had the price of common rice not risen higher than 10s. 11d. a hundredweight. Famine rates, the Collector thinks, were just reached in 1866, and rice at 13s. 7d. a hundredweight might be taken as the highest rate then. But the peasantry, as a rule, have now become richer than they were in 1866, and he believes that at present rice at 16s. a hundredweight would represent what 13s. 7d. did then. It

is hard to say exactly what should be considered as a warning of famine in Dacca, because the experience of 1870 shows that the crops of the District itself have but little to do with the price of food. The best warning would be a threatened scarcity in Bákarganj, Silhet, Maimansinh, and Tipperah. The chief crop grown within the Dacca District is the *áman* rice, and no *áus* crop, however good, would compensate for its loss. If the price of rice in January or February, soon after the winter harvest, were to go up to 8s. a hundredweight, it would, in the opinion of the Collector, be a distinct warning of famine later in the year. The means at the disposal of the District are ample to avert the extremity of famine. The communication within the District itself is not good, but its water communication with other parts of the country is perfect. The crop of Maimansinh can come to Dacca by the Jamuná, Bansí, Lakhmiá, and Meghná rivers; that of Silhet and Tipperah by the Meghná; that of Bákarganj by the Meghná and Ariál Khán; that of the north-west by the Ganges; while Calcutta can send supplies by means of the Eastern Bengal Railway. A famine such as that which occurred in Orissa is all but impossible in Dacca at the present day.

Foreign and Absentee Landholders.—The principal European landlord in the District is Mr J. P. Wise, who is the proprietor of several indigo factories and estates (*zamíndáris*). A Mr D. Dombal also owns a factory, and some smaller landed estates (*táluks*). As the names of proprietors are not invariably registered when lands or estates change hands, it is not possible to ascertain from the Register the number of Musalmán proprietors, and the amount of revenue paid by them. Speaking roughly, the Collector is of opinion that about one-fourth of the landed proprietors of the District are Muhammadans, paying a Government revenue of £5637. The most important and wealthiest Musalmán proprietor is Khwájá Abdul Ganí. The principal absentee landlord of the District is Díwán Iláhí Niwáz of Maimansinh. The other large proprietors are all natives and residents of the District, and no large proportion of land is owned by absentee landlords.

Roads and Means of Communication.—There is but one important road under the supervision of the Public Works Department in the whole District. It extends from the suspension bridge over the Dolái Khál to Baidyá Bázár on the west bank of the Meghná, a distance of sixteen miles, and forms a part of the main route which

connects Dacca and Chittagong *viâ* Dáúdkándí and Kumillá. It has also a branch leading from the main road to the landing-place at Náráinganj. From Dacca to Náráinganj the road is metalled, but the rest of its course is only an ordinary unmetalled country road. Along this road there are two ferries to cross and six bridges of solid brick-work, all very old, but in good preservation. The average annual cost of its maintenance and repairs amounts to about £190. The roads in the District under local management are as follow:—(1) The most important is the road from Dacca city, which runs northward throughout the whole of the Bháwál jungles to a point on the Lakhmiá river near Tok, a distance of forty-five miles. From this point the road is carried on to the Civil Station of Maimansinh. The country through which it passes is mostly dry and elevated, and therefore readily passable at all seasons of the year. The Collector in 1872 reported that this and the foregoing road were the only ones, outside the town, which were fit for wheeled traffic. The road is unmetalled, but is said to be better than many metalled country roads, owing to the soil being for the most part hard red clay. About £200 are annually spent on its ordinary repairs, besides from £50 to £100 for constructing masonry bridges, which are being gradually substituted for wooden ones. The Tungí bridge over the Bálu Creek on this river is worthy of notice. It is a solid structure of masonry and stone-work, flanked with turrets at the approaches on each side, and distant about fourteen miles to the north of the city. It has three arches, the centre one of which was blown up by Mr Carnac, the Magistrate during the mutiny. The breach, however, has been repaired with timber, and the bridge is in full use. It is stated to have been constructed during the time of the Muhammadans, but there is some doubt as to the exact period of its erection. (2) A road from the subdivisional station of Munshiganj to Srínagar, a distance of about sixteen miles. This road is only partially bridged, and is very expensive, owing to the friable nature of the soil. Up to 1871 it had cost not less than £300 a year, and was then little more than a footpath. This road has a branch about a mile and a half long leading to Jaunsár, constructed at the expense of the late Small Cause Court Judge at that place, and costing about £10 a year in repairs. (3) A road leading from the Subdivisional Head Quarters of Mánikganj to the town of the same name, situated on the west bank of the Dhaleswarí. This road is about two miles long,

and costs only a trifling sum annually for repairs. (4) A road from Keráníganj opposite Dacca to Kolátiá, seven miles on the way towards Mánikganj. Hitherto this has been a mere unbridged path, but it will form the basis of an intended road to Goálanda on the Ganges, the present terminus of the Eastern Bengal Railway. (5) The Lonsinh road in the police section of Mulfatganj. This is a short line made by private parties; about £10 a year are spent in keeping it up. (6) Another private road has been constructed by Bábu Kálí Náráyan Chaudhrí, a rich landholder of Bháwál, from the Maimansinh road about eight miles north of Tungí, to Jaidebpur, his place of residence. This road is kept in excellent order by the above-named gentlemen. With the exception of the line from Dacca to Náráinganj, none of these roads are used to any great extent for purposes of traffic, nor have any large markets sprung up upon their route. The Collector believes that there is not a single cart in the rural parts of the District, as boats are the only means of traffic, and new markets are founded on the banks of rivers and streams, not upon roads. The line of telegraph from Dacca to Chittagong was commenced in December 1858, and completed about the end of the following year. There is no railway in the District, and only one canal on which toll is levied, namely the Dolái Khál, extending from the town of Dacca to Trimohiní on the Bálu Creek, *en route* to Demrá. This canal was opened on the 4th May 1864, and the levy of toll commenced from April 1867. This toll is levied as long as the canal remains open for boats of above two tons burden; that is, up to November, when the toll is suspended and renewed the following April, when the *khál* again becomes navigable. The toll levied is at the rate of threepence per four tons burden on all boats of two tons burden or upwards. The canal is intended to meet the requirements of the traffic to and from the eastern Districts; it runs through low marshy country, and no villages of any importance exist on its banks.

MINES.—There are no mines or quarries or precious stones found in the District, nor is any gold-washing carried on in the beds of the rivers. The only mineral yet found is iron ore, which occurs in masses and nodules in the red soil of the northern tract, and lies on the surface. Formerly iron was smelted from the soil, but the quantity obtained was probably not large, and the manufacture would not pay now. The metal was also said to have been of an inferior quality. The locality of the smelting furnaces is indicated by the

heaps of slag or refuse still found near Jaidebpur in Bháwál, and now used as a top-dressing for the city roads.

MANUFACTURES.—The principal manufactures of the District are cotton weaving, embroidery, silver-work, shell-work, and pottery.

WEAVING.—The following account of this manufacture is extracted from p. 29 of the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division;" the present Collector of the District reports it to be trustworthy and correct:—"Since the almost total annihilation of the once flourishing trade in Dacca muslins, the manufactures of the town have become comparatively insignificant. The muslin trade is now estimated to be less than a fourth of what it used to be in former days. Dr Taylor says that some thirty-six different kinds of cloth were manufactured in the District, the bulk of which was made of English twist, country thread being used for the very finest muslins only. Those of the most delicate texture were known by the names of *áb-rawán* or 'running water,' and *shabnam* or 'evening dew,' from the fact of their being, when wet, almost undistinguishable from these liquids. It is said that in the time of Jahángír, a piece of *áb-rawan* muslin could be manufactured fifteen feet by three, and weighing only five *sikkás* or nine hundred grains, the price of which was £40. The finest that can be made in the present day (1840), of the above dimensions, weighs about nine *sikkás*, or one thousand six hundred grains, and is sold for £10. Since Dr Taylor wrote, the manufacture has greatly fallen off, and these finer kinds are not now made, except to order." The process of weaving is as follows:—"The weaver erects his loom under a shed, or the roof of his own house. To admit light the hut is open on all sides; a pit is dug in the floor to give room for the lower part of the gear and the weaver's legs as he sits at work; and above the loom, a canopy of mats is erected to protect the web from dust and rain dropping from the roof. The number of implements used in converting the raw material into thread, and weaving the latter into the finest muslin, is said to amount to 126. They are all made of small pieces of bamboo or reed, tied together with twine or thread; and the style of their construction is so rude, that every weaver can make them for himself. To save time, however, they are usually bought ready-made in the bázár. The thread is dressed with starch made of parched rice, and after being exposed to the sun for some time, is wound off upon two small wheels, which are held by the weaver in each hand as he forms the warp. This is done between four bamboo stakes driven into the ground. A comb is used to

separate the threads of the warp, every alternate thread of which passes through a corresponding loop of a thread chain which is connected with the gear above and the treadles below. There are two of these chains of thread loops, which are attached one to each treadle, by means of which the threads of the warp are alternately raised and depressed, to allow the shuttle to pass between them. This latter is not so sharp pointed as the English shuttle, and instead of there being a fixed bobbin inside, the thread of the woof is wound upon a small piece of reed which revolves upon an iron pin. The most favourable time for weaving fine muslins is during the rains, when the moisture of the air prevents the thread from breaking. In dry, hot weather, while weaving the finest fabrics, it is necessary to keep shallow vessels of water beneath the web, the evaporation from which keeps the warp moist. The weavers are mostly Hindus." The finest species of muslins are made without any pattern, but spotted muslins, both white and coloured, are extensively made. The patterns are embroidered afterwards by hand, and some of the stars, sprigs of flowers, &c., are very pretty. Coarse cloth is woven all over the District by Jogís, but is not worthy of any special notice. The following is chiefly condensed from Taylor and Clay.

EMBROIDERY.—This art is chiefly practised by the Musalmáns, who carry it to a high pitch of excellence, and who display a dexterity in the use of the needle fully equal to that of the Hindus at the spindle and loom. The trade is now said to be in the hands of a few people, and the work is mostly done to order. *Rifugárs*, or darners, are persons employed to repair muslins that have been injured during bleaching, and also to mark and form the headings of cloths with gold and silver thread. An expert person of this class can remove a thread the whole length of a web of muslin, and replace it with one of a similar quality. Although the demand for fine flowered muslins has almost died away, there is still a tolerably brisk business in a description of cloth called *kasidá* or cloths flowered with *mugá* or *tasar* silk. These cloths, principally made of English twist, have the pattern of the flower or ornament which is intended to be worked stamped upon them with a red dye by a class of workmen called *chipigárs*. They are then distributed to the embroiderers, who are supplied with silk for the purpose, and occasionally with an advance of money. Such *kasidás* are exported by Arab merchants to Persia, Egypt, and Turkey, where they are chiefly used as turbans. In Dr Taylor's time about twenty thousand pieces

of this cloth were annually worked in Dacca. The patterns used in the embroidery of tablecloths are generally flower scrolls, and are most beautifully worked. With regard to other branches of embroidery, but which are not now generally practised, the following is mentioned in Taylor's "Topography of Dacca:"—"The flowering of muslin dresses is performed by a set of embroiderers called *chákañḍás*, and the embroidering of muslins, scarfs, and shawls with silk by workmen called *zardárs*. The latter description of work is highly esteemed in Europe, and was (1840) in a much more flourishing condition than any other kind of Dacca manufacture. The scarfs and shawls are imported from Calcutta, and are worked to order, chiefly for transmission to England. In 1839 about a thousand were manufactured. The principal embroiderers are Musalmán women of the lower classes, and the wives of *dhobás* (washermen), who are glad to devote what spare time they have to earning a little money this way." This industry has also declined.

Gold and Silver Work.—The Dacca workmen are expert in all filagree-work, and also make bracelets, neck chains, ear and nose rings, and other ornaments, which are exported to different parts of the country, but are not equal either to the similar manufacture of Cattack or Bánkurá. They can imitate any pattern, but are quite unable to make a plain polished surface. Gold and silver are sold by the *tolá* (180 grains troy). There is no fixed charge for workmanship, which varies according to the nature of the article manufactured, and the amount of work bestowed upon it. For plain work, from 7½d. to 9d. per *tolá* is the usual charge.

Shell-Work.—The following account of this branch of industry is compiled in an abbreviated form from Mr Clay's account in the "History and Statistics of the Dacca Division":—The manufacture of shell bracelets forms an important branch of industry in the city. About four hundred or five hundred shell-cutters, who all reside in one bázár, form a very industrious and hard-working community. There are several distinct operations in the making of these bracelets. The shells are first prepared for the saw by having the points knocked off with a hammer; they are then sawn into rings, afterwards polished, and then carved, coloured, or left plain, as the case may be. Some of the more elaborate bracelets are made of several rings beautifully joined together, neatly engraved with different devices, and brilliantly coloured. The sawyer sits on the ground, and jams the shell on which he is working between his foot and a stump of

wood fixed in the floor. The saw used is shaped like an arc of a circle; it has no teeth, but the lower edge is notched; the [illegible] being oiled to make it cut freely. The shells from which these bracelets are made are univalves; they are brought up to Calcutta by vessels from the Maldives, Ceylon, and the Madras coast, where they have been purchased by men sent from Dacca. About £5000 are annually spent by Dacca merchants in the purchase of such shells. The following are the varieties of univalves from which the bracelets are made:—*Titkauri sankhá*, a valuable shell which comes from Ceylon, and costs 16s. a hundred; *páti*, another shell from Ceylon, which comes from Adam's Bridge, a line of sunken reefs between Ceylon and the extremity of the Indian peninsula, and which also sells at 16s. a hundred; *dhallá* shells sell from 8s. the hundred; *jaházi sankhá*, from 12s. the hundred; *garbaki* shells, from the Madras coast, sell for 7s. the hundred. Three kinds of very valuable shells from Bombay are also met with, the *surti*, *doáná páti*, and *álá-bilá*. The first description costs 30s. the hundred, and the other two £2, 10s. the hundred. These shells are sold in large quantities in the city, and at all the great annual fairs, and form a favourite ornament of the Hindu women. They are sold by the pair; plain white rings fetching from 1s. to 4s., 6s., or 8s., while carved or coloured bracelets sell for as much as £1, or £1, 4s. the pair.

Pottery.—This is extensively manufactured all over the District. The soil is well adapted for pottery, and common articles are made in large quantities. The old patterns are still adhered to. The wheel is now universally used in this manufacture, although this was not the custom formerly. The other principal branches of industry in the city and District are boat-building, the manufacture of mustard and other oils, soap, paper, &c. Muslin and fine cotton cloths are bleached by steeping them in a vessel of soap and water, after which they are wrung out and spread upon a smooth field. When dry they are put into an earthen vessel, and cautiously boiled. They are allowed to remain in the boiler for one night, and next day they are beaten upon the washerman's board, and then spread out to dry. This alternate process of boiling and bleaching is repeated four or five times; the last time with the addition of diluted lime-juice.

Condition of the Manufacturing Classes.—The condition of the gold and silver smiths and shell-workers is, as a rule, decidedly comfortable. They labour in their own houses on their own account,

and generally a father and his sons, or two or more brothers, work together in partnership. Hired labour is also employed, but no well-marked distinction between labour and capital has taken place in either of these trades. The same remarks apply also to the potters, although they are not generally so well-off as the above-named classes. It is totally different, however, with regard to a large part of the weaving community in the city. Here there is a decided distinction between capital and labour. Although it cannot be said that there are now no weavers who work in their own houses and on their own account, as was the case in former times, yet there are a very great number who, although working in their own houses, manufacture the cloth on account of merchants and traders (*mahájans*). These remarks apply even more forcibly to the embroidery trade, which is almost entirely carried on by means of hired labour, and by a system of advances. The custom is to keep the worker continually in the merchant's debt, and thus ensure the work being done cheaply. This is more particularly the case in the *kasidá* trade, in which advances are made very extensively. Although there is no manufacture in the District which has absolutely died out, the muslin and cotton cloth trade has nearly become extinct, as the following figures, showing the value of cotton goods which passed as exports through the Dacca Custom-house in different years between 1817, when the English Commercial Residency was abolished, and 1835, will show:—In 1817–18 they amounted to £152,497; in 1825–26 they had fallen to £62,918; in 1829–30 to £50,488; and in 1834–35 to £38,712. Since then they have dwindled almost to nothing. A class of people called *nafar* or *ghulám*, literally bondsmen, are common in the District, but they are not attached to any kind of manufacture, and, beyond the name, are now perfectly free.

Commerce and Trade.—The list of large towns and seats of commerce has been already given, but the following is a more detailed statement of the various articles of import and export. The principal exports consist of *kasidás* and embroidered cloths and muslins, sent to Bassarah and Jedda, from whence they are re-exported to Egypt and Turkey; indigo, safflower, and jute to Calcutta; otter-skins to China; hides to Calcutta; betel-nuts to Rangpur, Assam, Arákán, and Pegu; cheese and preserved fruits to the Lower Provinces and to Jedda and Bassarah; chilies and onions to Chittagong; and soap, shell bracelets, and copper utensils to different parts of the country. The articles received in exchange consist of European piece goods

and cotton thread, rice, tobacco, timber, salt, silk, brass and iron utensils, &c. The towns of Dacca and Náráinganj are also marts for the produce of the surrounding Districts; grain and oil-seeds are imported from Silhet, Maimansinh, and Tipperah, chiefly to Náráinganj, for transmission to other parts of the country. The District trade is almost entirely carried on in the towns, or in markets held on fixed days at the villages. A large annual commercial fair is held at Munshíganj, which commences at the full moon of the month of Kártik (falling within October or November), and usually lasts about three weeks. The majority of dealers and manufacturers who occupy booths come from the city and District of Dacca, but a few arrive from more remote parts, such as cloth and brocade merchants from Amritsar, dealers from Delhi, Maghs from Arákán who bring catechu and other commodities for sale, &c. Bamboos are brought from Silhet, and Sundrí wood from the Sundarbans. Nearly all goods, European or native, which are in general demand may be procured at this fair. A police force is always specially told off to keep order. Although the number of people that attend this gathering has never been correctly ascertained, the lowest estimate puts it down at fifty thousand. Other fairs are held in the District at Nángalband, Dhámrái, and Mánikganj, but they are principally for religious purposes, and although a little trade is carried on, it is only in petty articles such as people attending a fair are likely to buy, and does not affect the commerce of the District to any appreciable extent. With the exception of a few Musalmáns and Christians, all the merchants are Hindus. Those that belong to the city, export their goods to Calcutta; and those who are natives of the Upper Provinces, carry on a traffic with that part of the country by means of the Ganges. The cloth merchants repair to Calcutta in November to dispose of their investments to the masters of Arab ships. A good deal of petty trade is carried on by small joint-stock companies, consisting of a number of individuals to whom the merchandise belongs, and also of the owners and crews of the boats, who instead of wages receive a certain share of the profit of the speculation. Formerly, in its palmy days, Dacca was a District in which the export of manufactured articles, consisting chiefly of muslins, greatly exceeded the imports in value, particularly as at that time, although the population was smaller, the land under rice-cultivation was quite as large, if not larger than at present, and consequently food-grains were not an article of import. Latterly the

muslin trade has declined year by year, and the District has grown poor; population has increased at the same time, and rice had to be imported, rendering the balance of trade against the District. The development, or rather the introduction, of jute, safflower, and oil-seeds as articles of cultivation, and the rapid extension of the two former of late-years, has again turned the scale, and the Collector states that at the present time there is no doubt that the balance of trade is in favour of the District. The bank operations during the jute season show this most decidedly, and the increased prosperity of the cultivators proves that their land is profitable. The change practically amounts to this, that formerly the District was rich from a trade which required an outlet such as the Court at Delhi afforded, for the fine Dacca muslin is practically useless for any European purposes; while at the present day the District is making its fortune by jute and other crops for the European market.

CAPITAL.—Accumulations of capital are hoarded to a great extent; but not so much as formerly, some of the richer class of traders (*sháhás*) having now become very considerable landholders. Among several of the cultivating classes accumulations of money are employed in trade; but as a rule they are either hoarded and buried in the earth, or are laid out in jewellery, which, from the readiness with which it can be pawned, is almost as good as cash. The rates of interest charged for loans vary greatly; but the following may only be taken as a carefully-ascertained average. In small transactions, when the borrower pawns some article such as ornaments or household vessels equal to the sum lent, the nominal rate of interest is one shilling and threepence in the pound per mensem, or 75 per cent. per annum. This is an enormous rate, but it is still current. The Collector states that he has not met with any case of higher interest than this; lower rates are sometimes obtained, but that mentioned above is the most common rate of interest charged. Large loan transactions, when a loan is granted upon moveable property, are not very common. The Collector mentions a case in which interest at 48 per cent. was given in a case of this description, but states that the ordinary rate is about half this sum. In large transactions, where a mortgage is given on houses or land, the rate of interest varies from 8 to 24 per cent., the average rate being from 10 to 14 per cent. Petty agricultural advances to the cultivators upon the personal security of the borrower are not common in the District.

Neither are petty advances to the husbandmen, the amount being secured to the lender by a lien upon the crops, usual; and when such cases do occur, it is generally when a man has urgent need of a certain sum, and sells or pawns his crop for this sum in advance. Such cases are a sort of lottery to the purchaser, and it is difficult to fix the rate of interest. The return expected from money invested in landed property or estates is the lowest of all rates of interest, as there is always a demand for this kind of property. It varies in different parts of the District, and the Collector states that he has known cases, particularly in Bikrampur Fiscal Division, where the return could not possibly exceed 3 per cent. upon the purchase money. Six per cent., however, on the whole, may be taken as the average return from such property. The Bank of Bengal have opened out a branch in the town of Dacca, and there are also several large native banking-houses. Loans to the cultivators are generally made by some one in the borrower's village, usually the village merchant or larger shopkeepers. Sometimes, too, these advances are made by the petty shopkeepers and other well-to-do people. The town banking establishments are established chiefly for trading purposes.

IMPORTED CAPITAL.—The largest indigo planter and European landholder in Dacca is Mr J. P. Wise, who owns nearly all the factories of the District except those in the extreme north-west corner, which belong to the Eastern Bengal Indigo Company. Most of the factories now held by Mr Wise originally belonged to a Dr Lamb, but the present owner has possessed them for the last forty years. No statistics that could be given with regard to Mr Wise's expenditure would indicate the real cost of cultivation, because that gentlemen, as a large landholder, can always get his labour cheap; and he also lets the fields in the neighbourhood of indigo lands at low rents in order to ensure the cultivators acting with him. Moreover, a very large number of the labourers employed by him are his own cultivators. His expenditure on indigo cultivation in 1870 is returned at £29,047. Profits from indigo vary so much that some years the return is enormous, while in others the cost of cultivation is scarcely covered. Very little imported capital is employed in the District, as Mr Wise's was made here. That employed by the Eastern Bengal Indigo Company is of small amount. No trustworthy figures can be given regarding the total value of the manufactures of Dacca.

INSTITUTIONS AND SOCIETIES.—The following are the most important native institutions in the District:—(1) Káchádiá Hitakarí Sabhá; a benevolent society, the object of which is the clearing of jungle, improving of roads, distribution of alms, &c. (2) Bikrampur Hitasádhiní; a similar society, the object of which is the improvement of Bikrampur Fiscal Division. (3) Subhakarí Sabhá; an institution established to promote the education of the lower classes and of females, to further which end they publish a cheap Bengali paper called the *Subha Sádhiní*. (4) Antashpur Strí Sikshá Bidháyiní Sabhá; another institution for the encouragement of female education. (5) Bráhma Samáj; described on a previous page. (6) Hindu Dharma Rakshiní Sabhá. The object of this last-mentioned society is the preservation of the orthodox Hindu religion, especially against the innovations of the Bráhma Samáj. The Dacca Institute is an institution similar to the Calcutta Social Science Association, and consists of both European and native members. The Christian religious institutions consist of the different churches of the Church of England, Roman Catholics, Baptists, and Armenians. An account of the educational institutions of Dacca will be given on a subsequent page.

NEWSPAPERS AND PRINTING PRESSES.—The principal English journal is the *Bengal Times*, lately called the *Dacca News*, a weekly periodical with an estimated circulation of about 250. It represents the interests of the great landholders and indigo and tea planters. The *Weekly Times* is a literary journal conducted by students, and contains essays written by them. It has an estimated circulation of about 100. The *Dacca Prakás* is one of the most respectable of the vernacular papers. It represents the political views of the educated natives generally, and is ably conducted. It is printed in Bengali, and has an estimated circulation of about 300 copies. The *Hindu Hitaishiní* is the organ of the Dharma Rakshiní Sabhá, and as such is of course very orthodox in its religious views. Politically it has the same views as the *Dacca Prakás*. It is printed in Bengali, and has an estimated circulation of 250 copies. The *Banga Bandhu* is the organ of the most advanced section of the Bráhmas, and is both a political and religious paper. In politics it holds the same views as the *Dacca Prakás*, the *Hindu Hitaishiní*, and other vernacular papers; but in matters of religion it is utterly opposed to the last-named paper. It is printed in Bengali, and has an average circulation of about 300 copies. The

Hitakarí and *Subha Sádhiní*, both printed in Bengali, are two rival cheap papers sold for a pice, the smallest copper coin current in India, equal to one and a half farthings of English money. These papers were started almost at the same time, and the object of both is to bring social and political topics before the masses in a cheap form, and in a language suited to their capacity. Both papers studiously avoid religious controversies. Their average circulation is between 500 and 600 copies. The *Mitra Prakás*, a bi-monthly journal printed in Bengalí, is a literary rather than a political paper. There are four general printing presses in Dacca District which undertake ordinary printing—the *Bengal Times* press, which prints in English only; the *Dacca Prakás*, which prints generally in Bengali, but occasionally in English; and the *Hindu Hitaishiní* and *Grish-Jantra*, which print only in Bengali.

INCOME.—The estimated income of Dacca District, as calculated for the purposes of the Income-Tax Act of 1870, namely, the total amount of incomes exceeding £50 per annum, was £507,395. The amount of income-tax realised in 1870–71, with the rate of assessment at $3\frac{1}{8}$ per cent., was £15,875. In the following year the rate of the tax was reduced to $1\frac{1}{24}$ per cent., and the minimum of incomes liable to assessment raised to £75 per annum; the amount of tax realised in 1871–72 was £4433.

HISTORY OF THE DISTRICT.—The following local history of the District is reproduced from Mr A. L. Clay's Report. Some of the subsequent facts seem questionable:—"Very little is known of the early history of Dacca. There is a tradition that the celebrated Hindu Rájá Bikramáditya held his court in the southern portion of the District for some years, and gave his name to the Parganá of Bikrampur. The Bhuiyá, or Buddhist Rájás (founders of the Pál dynasty of the Kings of Bengal) are the next rulers spoken of. Three of them took up their abode in this District, to the north of the Burígangá and Dhaleswarí, where the sites of their capitals are still to be seen. Jas Pál resided at Mádhabpur in Tálibábád; Haris Chandra at Kátibárí, near Sábhár; and Sisu Pál at Kápásiá in Bháwál. The dynasty of Adisur is supposed to have been contemporaneous with that of the Pál Rájás, and to have held sway in the tract lying south of the Burígangá river. Rájá Ballál Sen is here considered to have been the immediate successor of Adisur in the government of Bikrampur, and is said to have been reigning at the time this part of Bengal was conquered

by the Muhammadans. Traces of his residence are still to be seen at a short distance from the old fort of Idrakpur."

I temporarily take leave of the report. Like most others drawn up by the District Officers, it throws valuable light upon the local annals. But whenever it impinges upon general history, it depends on evidence which the Compiler can seldom test, and as a matter of fact, the Dacca Report represents the state of historical knowledge in 1780. Mr Blochmann supplies me with the following facts. The Bengal territory conquered in 1203–4 by the Muhammadans did not comprise the Eastern Districts, the Bangadesh proper, which remained in the possession of Ballál Sen's descendants till the end of the thirteenth century, when Sonárgáon was occupied by the grandsons of the Emperor Balban. In 1330, Muhammad Tughluk conquered Eastern Bengal also, and divided it into three Provinces, Lakhnautí, Sátgáon, and Sonárgáon including Dacca. The governor of the last Province was Tatár Bahrám Khán. On his death in 1338, his armour-bearer Fakhr-ud-dín seized the government, and reigned for more than ten years under the title of Mubárak Sháh. After an unsuccessful attempt by his son and his son-in-law to retain possession of the Eastern Districts, the whole of Bengal was, in 1351, united by Shams-ud-dín Iliás Sháh and his son Sikandar Sháh; Sonárgáon near Dacca becoming the residence of the governors, generally sons of the reigning king. Hence Sonárgáon and the Eastern Districts were the centres of frequent rebellions. Thus Azam Sháh, Sikandar's son, proclaimed his independence in Sonárgáon, where he invited the poet Háfiz to his court. Under Azam Sháh's successors, the throne of Bengal was usurped by Rájá Káns, and the Eastern Districts fell a pray to the Rájás of Tipperah, Assam, and Arákán. But about 1445, Bengal was again united under Mahmúd Sháh (I.), a descendant of Iliás Sháh, whose family reigned till 1487. During their reigns, the Eastern Districts formed the Province of Muazzamábád, which extended from the Meghná to Láur in Silhet, whilst the country round about Dacca, Faridpur, and Bákarganj was called Jalálábád and Fathiábád. Then followed the house of the usurper Hussain Sháh, the greatest king Bengal has had, who extended his power from the Eastern Districts over the whole of Bengal. In 1538, Sher Sháh commenced to reign. Sonárgáon was the terminus of the grand trunk road which he made. His Afghán successors

succumbed to the Mughuls. I now return to the official report. The Afgháns, when driven by Akbar from inner Bengal, "took refuge in the frontier Districts of Orissa and Dacca. Here they established themselves, and erected forts at Ganakpárá and Guripárá, near Dhámrái. On the Emperor Akbar's death in 1605, Usmán Khán, one of their chiefs, collected an army of 20,000 men and was proclaimed King. He overran the lower part of Bengal, and maintained his position till 1612, when he was defeated and slain by the Mughuls in a battle in Eastern Bengal (erroneously spoken of as in Orissa). Islám Khán was then Governor of the Province; and after this victory he is said to have removed the seat of government from Rájmahal to Dacca. Stewart, in his 'History of Bengal,' says that this event took place four years earlier, and mentions a descent by the Maghs upon the coast as the probable cause of the transfer.

"The only other noteworthy event mentioned in connection with Islám Khán's government is an incursion by the united forces of the Portuguese and Maghs, supported by the Rájá of Arákán. The invaders laid waste the eastern bank of the Meghná, and proceeded as far up as Lakhmípur, where they were met by the Mughul troops, and routed with great slaughter.

"Islám Khán was succeeded in the Viceroyalty by his brother Kásim Khán. From this period to the accession of Sultán Muhammad Shujá to the Viceroyalty of the Subah, in 1639, the country appears to have been desolated by a continual succession of internal wars and foreign aggression. During this time the eastern Districts were constantly ravaged by the Assamese in the north, and the Maghs in the south. The cruelties perpetrated by these invaders are described as having been atrocious; and at one time almost the entire revenues of the Province were absorbed in *jágírs* assigned for the protection of the borders.

"Muhammad Shujá, after a short residence at Dacca, made Rájmahal his capital, and during the twenty years of his government, distinguished himself by the introduction of reforms into all departments of the State. An improved revenue-roll was made out, and the amount of revenue considerably increased. While Rájmahal was the capital, the charge of the eastern Districts was made over to Deputy-Governors, of whose administration little or nothing is recorded.

"We now come to the Viceroyalty of Mír Jumlah, who, at his accession in 1660, once more made Dacca the seat of government. This was perhaps the most flourishing era in the history of Dacca. To

guard against the incursions of Maghs and other frontier tribes from Arákán, Mír Jumlah built the several forts at the confluence of the Lakhmiá and Dhaleswarí, the ruins of which still remain. The principal of these are the forts of Hájíganj and Idrakpur, the latter of which has since been converted into a residence for the Deputy-Magistrate of Munshíganj. The Viceroy also constructed several good military roads and bridges in the vicinity of the city, and the bridges at Páglá and Tungí may probably be attributed to him.[1] The former of these is now a ruin; the latter was blown up during the Mutiny by Mr Carnac, the Magistrate, but has since been repaired with timber, and is still in use on the high road to Maimansinh. Mír Jumlah undertook an expedition to Assam, and started with a large force, including the Nawárá or Mughul fleet. He obtained a series of successes, but was ultimately obliged to retreat on account of disease among his troops. He himself fell sick, and died near Dacca. His body is said to have been removed to his birthplace near Ispahan. He is still remembered as one of the most distinguished Nawábs that ever governed at Dacca. The large gun that now stands in the middle of the Chauk is one of two that are said to have been placed in front of the great Katrá in his time.

"Mír Jumlah was succeeded by Shaistah Khán Amír ul Omrá, nephew of the Empress Núr Jahán. One of the first measures undertaken by this Nawáb was an expedition against Chittagong, which was captured, and its name changed to Islámábád. Shaistah Khán governed fifteen years, with an interval of two years, during which Fidái Khán, Azím Khán, and Sultán Muhammad Azam, third son of Aurangzeb, acted as Viceroys. The last of these commenced building the palace of the Lál Bágh in 1678, and left it in an unfinished state to his successor, Shaistah Khán. This latter appears never to have completed the structure, but erected within its walls a handsome mausoleum to the memory of his daughter Bibí Parí, the wife of Sultán Muhammad Azam. Shaistah Khán is also the reputed founder of several large mosques and other buildings, now in ruins.[2] During his administration the city and suburbs extended to the

[1] A native History of Dacca says that the Tungí bridge was built by a *fakír* named Sháh Tungí in the time of Aurangzeb, while Ibráhim Khán held the Nawábí. [I give Mr Clay's dates on his authority.]

[2] This ruler appears to have encouraged architecture. A style of building prevalent in the city is still called "Shaistah Khání."